PROTESTING CULTURE AND ECONOMICS IN WESTERN EUROPE

New Cleavages in Left and Right Politics



Swen Hutter

PROTESTING CULTURE AND ECONOMICS IN WESTERN EUROPE

Social Movements, Protest, and Contention

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(continued on page 222)

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Volume 41



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For my parents

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Contents

Introduction: From the Libertarian Left to the Populist Right ix

I. Theoretical Framework and the Context of Protest Politics

1. Globalization and the Integration–Demarcation Cleavage 3

2. Protest Politics, Electoral Politics, and the Political Process Approach 25

3. The Context Faced by Challengers: Institutions, Prevailing Strategies, and Cleavages 44

II. Empirical Analyses of Protest Politics

4. A New Protest Wave in the Age of Globalization? 63

5. Issue Divides in the Protest Arena: The Big Picture 79

6. Issue Divides in the Protest Arena: The Comparative Picture 97

7. Different Logics at Work? The Relationship between Protest and Electoral Politics 116

Conclusion: The Dynamics of Cleavage Politics across Political Arenas 132

Appendix A: The Protest Event Data and Selection Bias Tests 147

Appendix B: Issue Categorization 167

Appendix C: Salience of the Specific Issues by Decade and Country 169

Acknowledgments 171

Notes 173

Bibliography 183

Index 215

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Introduction: From the Libertarian Left to the Populist Right

This book aims to link research on cleavage politics and the populist radical right with research on social movements. Both research fields have extensively dealt with the transformative power of globalization on national politics. At the same time, both fields have tended to neglect the existence of various arenas of political mobilization, and focus on different features of *the politics of globalization.* On the one hand, current research on cleavage politics focuses almost exclusively on the electoral arena, and many scholars see populist radical right parties as the most important contemporary forces mobilizing against the consequences of globalization (for example, Betz 2004; Enyedi and Deegan-Krause 2010; Kriesi et al. 2008b; Mudde 2007). At the same time, these scholars tend to pay little attention to protest politics. They overemphasize, I suggest in this book, the role of the electoral arena and political parties when it comes to the organization of political conflict in a global age. For example, recent reviews on cleavage politics pay no attention to forms of political mobilization apart from parties and elections (Bornschier 2009; Deegan-Krause 2007). Similarly, all the contributions in the informative volume *The Structure of Political Competition in Western Europe,* edited by Enyedi and Deegan-Krause (2010), neglect protest politics and social movements. This is astonishing, because the question of who is being organized into politics *by whom* is a key subject of the cleavage model, which not only focuses on the perpetuation of established cleavages but also on the emergence of new divides (see Bartolini 2000, 2005; Rokkan 2000).

On the other hand, social movement scholars who study the consequences of globalization usually focus on the protest arena, tend to emphasize different

forms of transnationalization, and regard the global justice movements as the key force mobilizing against (or rather, for another) globalization (for example, della Porta 2007b; della Porta and Tarrow 2005c; Gautney 2010; Podobnik and Reifer 2005; Smith 2004). However, social movement scholars tend to neglect the split within the political right, the new divisions in social structure, and the dynamic interactions between electoral and protest politics linked to conflicts over globalization. To be fair, movement scholars (especially the proponents of the political process approach) have always put social movement activities in their broader political context. However, as McAdam and Tarrow (2010) and Walder (2009) note in recent reviews, the field has become more "movement-centric" during recent years.

As Rydgren (2007, 257) argues, these different research agendas have led to "a rather strict division of labor" between scholars studying left-libertarian social movements and those studying the populist radical right. By adopting a Rokkanean cleavage perspective (see Rokkan 2000), *Protesting Culture and Economics in Western Europe* attempts to bridge this division and reconcile some of the contrasting findings. More specifically, I suggest linking the two research fields by asking *whether and how protest politics in Western Europe has changed due to the emergence of a new integration–demarcation cleavage.* In doing so, I draw on Kriesi et al.'s (2006, 2008b) sweeping argument that this new cleavage between those who embrace and those who resist globalization has emerged across Western Europe since the 1990s. Simply stated, Kriesi and his colleagues argue that globalization constitutes a new critical juncture that induces structural conflicts in Western European societies, setting the "winners" and "losers" of globalization in competition. Following a first round driven by left-libertarian forces in the 1970s/early 1980s, the political manifestation of these globalization conflicts is expected to result in another profound transformation of political conflict. This time, however, Kriesi et al. argue that the initiative for restructuring politics has shifted from the left to the right—more precisely, to the populist radical right. Thus, I refer to this transformation as the right-populist round.

Note that the left-libertarian round and the right-populist round are interpreted as indicating changing cleavage structures and not just as mere political fads that come and go as time passes. However, in the context of the left-libertarian round, the study of social movements and protest politics was closely linked to an analysis of changing cleavage structures (for example, Gerhards 1993; Inglehart 1977; Kriesi 1989a; Müller-Rommel 1984; Offe 1985). Nowadays, the cleavage concept figures far less prominently in the social movement literature, and the impact of the integration–demarcation cleavage

on protest politics has not yet been studied—Kriesi et al. (2006, 2008b) test their sweeping argument for electoral politics only.

Because cleavages are multifaceted and complex research objects, *Protesting Culture and Economics in Western Europe* necessarily focuses on certain specific features. According to Bartolini and Mair's (1990, 213–20) influential definition, a *cleavage* combines (1) an empirical element, which refers to its sociostructural foundation, (2) a set of shared values and beliefs—that is, a normative element that provides a collective identity based on the sociostructural foundation—and (3) an organizational element that refers to its political mobilization and organization. This book adopts a dynamic perspective on cleavages that takes the role of contemporary political conflict for the perpetuation and transformation of cleavages seriously (see Bornschier 2010a). Thus, I stress that *issue divides*—that is, manifest conflicts over core issues linked to a given cleavage—are key indicators for tracing the strength of traditional and new cleavages, because, in the medium to long term, a cleavage that no longer gives rise to political conflict will fade. As Deegan-Krause (2007, 539) highlights, such issue divides combine the normative and organizational elements emphasized by Bartolini and Mair, and the term *divide* "effectively captures the notion of distinct sides." This is why I am interested in both the salience of issues and the positions taken on these issues in protest politics.

By adopting this dynamic cleavage perspective, *Protesting Culture and Economics in Western Europe* complements and, in part, qualifies recent research on the repercussions of globalization on social movements and protest politics. I show that the integration–demarcation cleavage has manifested itself in both electoral politics and protest politics by studying how conflict intensity (as indicated by waves of protest), the degree of transnationalization, and the issue divides have developed in Western European protest arenas from 1975 to 2005. However, the impact of the new integration–demarcation cleavage on protest politics is less pronounced than on electoral politics and the impact of the new cleavages on the rise in protests in the 1970s and early 1980s. To arrive at this conclusion, I suggest in this book that it is crucial to compare the two central transformations of Western European politics since the 1970s as well as to examine different political arenas and, even more important, their interactions.

In the following section, I briefly elaborate on these points by giving a short overview of the two major transformations and by discussing why we should study both electoral and protest politics to get a comprehensive picture of changing cleavage structures in Western Europe. The next section is then devoted to my research strategy. It discusses the choice of cases, the research

period, and the different methods and data sets I have used to trace the emergence of new cleavages. Finally, this introduction is concluded with a simple model of political change. The model highlights the organization of the book and is used to summarize the key findings of each chapter.

The Rise of an Integration–Demarcation Cleavage

By the early 1990s, it was no longer controversial to claim that a wave of political change had swept through Western Europe during the 1970s and 1980s. This wave had mainly been spurred by the educational revolution, and authors used different labels to name the new cleavage that had emerged, for example, the "new value" (Inglehart 1977), "new politics" (Müller-Rommel 1984), or "new class" (Kriesi 1989a) cleavage. In line with this last approach, a new social division had emerged within the new middle class, an antagonism between business managers and the so-called social or cultural professionals. The driving forces of political change were the *new social movements,* as well as new left and Green parties. These challengers were closely linked to the political left, and scholars labeled them as left-libertarian (for example, della Porta and Rucht 1991; Kitschelt 1988). The term *new* underscores that these actors were seen as breaking with the past and challenging the political order in Western Europe at that time.[1] It was, however, "not a revolutionary attack against the system, but a call for democracies to change and adapt" (Dalton et al. 1990, 3). The challenge posed was twofold. On the one hand, it arose from new issues and demands that these left-libertarian actors tried to bring into the political process by criticizing the side effects of modernization, and advocating individual autonomy, a free choice of lifestyle, and other universalistic values. On the other hand, these actors also posed a challenge to the established system of interest intermediation (Nedelmann 1984). They sought more participatory modes of mobilization and engaged heavily in protest activities to push their claims onto the agenda.

To make a long story short, the mobilization of the new social movements and other left-libertarian challengers transformed the two-dimensional political spaces in Western Europe—traditionally constituted by a cultural (religion) and a socioeconomic (class) dimension. As Kitschelt (1994, 27) most convincingly shows, the religiously defined dimension turned into an opposition between culturally liberal or libertarian views on the one hand and traditional authoritarian ones on the other. Thus, the mobilization of this round's driving forces did not add a new dimension to the political space, but it changed the meaning of the existing dimensions (as illustrated by Figure 1).

Arguably, another profound transformation of political conflict has taken place since the 1990s. This time, *populist radical right parties* are regarded as

the key driving forces of change. The rise of such parties made the headlines and led to a "minor industry" in party research during the past two decades (Arzheimer 2009, 259). Again, these new political forces challenge the political order, both with respect to their political demands and the way they portray the democratic process. Their core ideological features—that is, nativism, authoritarianism, and populism—underscore the challenge (Mudde 2007, 11–31). By claiming "that non-native elements (persons and ideas) are fundamentally threatening to the homogenous nation-state" (Mudde 2007, 22) and by believing in an ordered society, they oppose the values raised by the left-libertarian forces. At the same time, they insist on the primacy of the people over the elite, and portray themselves as representing the "general will" of the people (Surel 2002, 152). Thus, like the challengers from the left, they challenge the established systems of interest intermediation. Paradoxically, although the populist right is highly critical of representative democracy, it seems to primarily use institutionalized electoral channels to advance its claims (Deiwiks 2009; Taggart 2002).

As stated initially, Kriesi et al. (2008b) argue that the rise of populist radical right parties is closely related to the emergence of another new cleavage since the 1990s. More specifically, they expect globalization to lead to an integration–demarcation cleavage by inducing three types of competition into Western European societies: *economic* (sectoral and international) competition, *cultural* competition (which is, among other things, linked to massive immigration of ethnically distinct groups), and *political* competition (between nation-states and supranational or international political actors). This is expected to create new opposing social groups, that is, the so-called winners and losers of globalization. Furthermore, Kriesi et al. assume that the weakening and reassessment of national boundaries increase their political importance (see also Badie 1997; Rosenau 2006, 83–90). Therefore, conflicts over neoliberal globalization, immigration, and European integration are expected to become more salient, because these are key issues when redrawing national boundaries.

Based on their study of electoral politics, Kriesi et al. show that we have been witnessing another restructuring of Western European politics since the 1990s, and that the changes in electoral politics are indeed driven by populist radical right parties. These parties have most effectively mobilized the cultural anxieties of the losers from globalization by focusing on "the defense of their national identities and their national communities" (Kriesi et al. 2006b, 929; see also Betz 2004; Mudde 2007, 184–97; chapter 1, this book). Again, the political spaces have been transformed. Most important, conflicts over immigration and European integration have become closely embedded in the transformed cultural dimension (Figure 1). Though theoretically plausible, Kriesi

et al.'s results show that the emergence of the integration–demarcation cleavage had less of an impact on the economic dimension of the political space.

In this book, I compare the way the new cleavages associated with both these major transformations or rounds have manifested themselves in the protest arena in Western Europe since the mid-1970s. This comparison helps to assess the extent to which protest politics has changed because of the emergence of the new integration–demarcation cleavage. Furthermore, I suggest, we should focus on both protest politics and electoral politics to get a comprehensive picture of the restructuring force of the new cleavage.

In a theoretical tour de force, Kitschelt (2003) forcefully argues that it is ever more important to examine different political arenas in the age of globalization because protest politics have strayed more and more from institutionalized political arenas since the 1970s. For Kitschelt (2003, 89), this change "is the big story of the last third of the twentieth century in European democracies." In the times of fused arenas, the results in the electoral arena would therefore have told us a great deal about contemporary Western European cleavage structures. However, with increasingly differentiated arenas, one can no longer simply equate the one with the other. As the previous brief section on Kriesi et al.'s work has underscored, studies on the right-populist round in electoral politics tend to emphasize (1) the right, (2) political parties, and (3) the mobilization of the losers' side. Although these findings are a good starting point, it remains to be seen whether they are too restricted to obtain a comprehensive picture of how conflict structures change in different political arenas in the age of globalization.

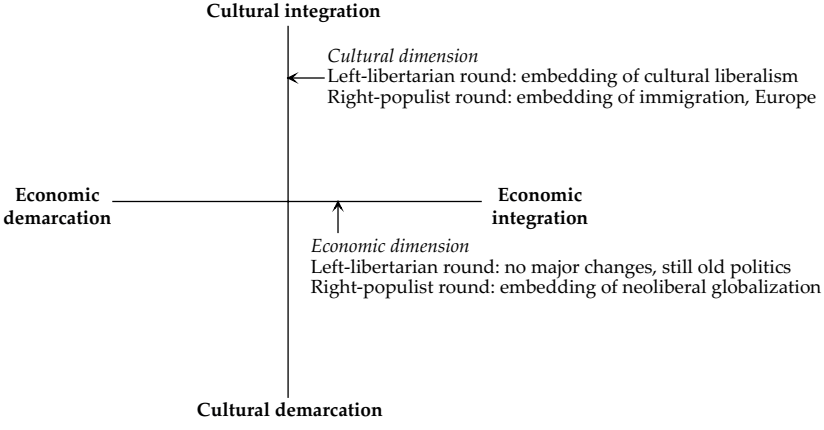


Figure 1. Transformed political spaces in Western Europe in the age of globalization.

Although it is important to look at different arenas, I suggest in this book that it seems even more important to trace *the relationship between protest and electoral politics.* Borrowing a phrase from Tilly (2003, 247), the book's contribution "is not so much to eliminate the distinction between the two kinds of politics as to clarify the nature of their interaction." Following the political process approach, I assume that mobilization in the protest arena is closely linked to politics in other, more institutionalized political arenas (for summaries, see Giugni 2009; Kriesi 2004; Meyer 2004). Although proponents of the approach agree that protest politics is related to electoral politics, they disagree on how the two political arenas are related. More precisely, there is no consensus on the *direction* of the relationship. The most common starting point for social movement scholars is still to assume "a simple, positive relationship between openings in the political structure [electoral politics, in my case] and protest mobilization" (Meyer and Minkoff 2004, 1484). However, in the words of Goldstone (2003, 9), this does not account for the possibility that protest politics might be "both an alternative and a valuable supplement."

A major assumption of this book is that the relationship between electoral and protest mobilization depends on the political orientation of the actors involved. I suggest that the left/right distinction is a key to understanding the different impacts of the integration–demarcation cleavage on protest politics and electoral politics, because the momentum has shifted from the libertarian left to the populist radical right. More specifically, I suggest that there are different logics at work with respect to the relationship between electoral and protest mobilization on the political left and right. The left can be expected to wax and wane at the same time in both arenas, while for the right, when its actors and issue positions become more salient in one arena their salience should decrease in the other.

Research Strategy

So far, I have briefly introduced two theoretical pillars of this study: the emergence of a new integration–demarcation cleavage and the relationship between protest and electoral politics (more detailed accounts are presented in chapters 1 and 2). Let us now turn to the book's research strategy. More specifically, the following section focuses on the research period, the selection of cases, and the different methods and data sets used to examine the way the integration–demarcation cleavage has played out in protest and electoral politics.

Time Period and Country Selection

In the age of globalization, critics cast doubt on the standard approach of comparative politics, that is, a comparison of nation states (see, for example, Beck

2004; Zürn 2001). Although *Protesting Culture and Economics in Western Europe* insists on the strength of cross-national comparisons, it answers such critics by treating the extent to which the structuring of political conflicts is national as a variable (Beck and Grande 2010, 426–32; Grande 2006). The geographical scope of protest politics is traced by looking at features such as transnational addressees or linkages across countries. This allows for the testing of Kriesi and Grande's (2004) claim that there is a "political paradox of globalization." That is, because of their heterogeneity and the structure of the political opportunities for their articulation, the conflicts brought about by globalization are most likely to be articulated and mobilized at the national level. At the same time, it seems crucial to study how different domestic contexts influence the way the new conflicts manifest themselves in national politics (Kayser 2007). As has already become apparent, this book focuses on Western Europe. More specifically, it examines six countries from the mid-1970s to the mid-2000s. This time frame has been chosen because globalization has increased especially since the late 1980s, and thus it can be expected to have left its imprint on politics particularly since the early 1990s. By starting in the 1970s, one can trace the expected transformations induced by the integration–demarcation cleavage over time. Furthermore, by covering the late 1970s and early 1980s, I have been able to include the heyday of the left-libertarian round, too.

The specific countries covered are *Austria, Britain, France, Germany, the Netherlands, and Switzerland.* All six countries are liberal democracies with consolidated (national) political institutions throughout the research period. A longitudinal study that attempts to grasp the restructuring force of globalization requires such a stable context.[2] Furthermore, all six belong to the group of economically most developed and richest countries in the world. In this regard, the book adopts a *most similar systems design* (Przeworski and Teune 1970). Although many explanatory variables are held constant, the countries differ with respect to some theoretically relevant context factors. Four context factors are crucial for the present study because they are expected to influence the way new cleavages are mobilized in the protest arena. More specifically, I focus on the institutional structure of the political system and the informal strategies of political elites to deal with challengers, on the one hand, as well as on the strength of traditional and new cleavages in institutionalized political arenas, on the other. Whereas the former two factors are expected to mainly influence the level and forms of mobilization, the latter two factors are expected to influence the salience of, and average positions taken on, new and traditional issues. To show that the six countries under scrutiny are quite representative of all Western European countries, I systematically assess the four context

factors and put the six countries under scrutiny into larger comparative perspectives of up to thirteen European states (chapter 3).

Content Analysis of Newspapers and Party Manifestos

Before introducing the specific methods and data sets used in this study, I start with Tilly (1978, 8), who has nicely illustrated where one can find a social movement: right in the middle of three intersecting circles of populations, beliefs, and actions. This is where we also find a "full" cleavage that combines all three of the elements introduced previously (Deegan-Krause 2007, 540). The difficulty of empirical research is grasping this middle ground. Therefore, Tilly (1978, 8) suggests that researchers should focus on two of the three circles at once. Consequently, this book emphasizes "issue divides"—combining beliefs and actions, or the normative and organizational elements, in Bartolini and Mair's (1990) terms. However, the book does not lose sight of the (socio)structural foundations of cleavages, which are discussed and empirically illustrated in chapter 1.

More precisely, I rely on quantitative content analyses to trace the issue divides in the protest arena and the electoral arena. The main method used to study protest politics is *protest event analysis* (PEA). In this way, this book follows a long-standing tradition of research on social movements (for example, Botz 1975; Kriesi et al. 1981; Tarrow 1989; Tilly et al. 1975). PEA, as a type of quantitative content analysis, takes the pivotal point of the protest arena, that is, a protest event, as its basic unit of data collection. It aims to retrieve and describe protest events so as to allow for cross-sectional and longitudinal analyses. Compared to survey data, protest event data are better suited to measuring actual protest mobilization and the concrete issues that give rise to protest politics.

The present data set is an updated and extended version of the data used by Kriesi et al. (1995) to study new social movements from 1975 to 1989 (for details of the data set, see Appendix A). For this book, the data have been updated to 2005, and Britain and Austria were added to the original four countries, that is, to France, Germany, the Netherlands, and Switzerland. The data themselves are based on a "minimalist" strategy of data collection; they come from one national quality newspaper per country, with only the Monday editions consulted. The newspapers are *Die Presse* (Austria), the *Guardian* (Britain), *Le Monde* (France), *Frankfurter Rundschau* (Germany), *NRC Handelsblad* (the Netherlands), and *Neue Zürcher Zeitung* (Switzerland). This resulted in a data set of 19,182 protest events in the six countries taking place between 1975 and 2005 and involving around 118 million participants.

Although PEA is one of the major advances in social movement research during recent decades, it has also triggered a lively (and sometimes polarized)

methodological debate. Although no one claims that there is no selection bias, how significant the problems with newspaper data are with regard to various research questions and designs is still controversial (see the reviews by Earl et al. 2004; Koopmans and Rucht 2002; and Ortiz et al. 2005). Among others, Kriesi et al.'s (1995) sampling has been criticized for increasing the general selection bias of newspaper data. In Appendix A, I attempt to answer some of the critics by comparing the minimalist strategy with more encompassing media-based protest data. Overall, the conclusion is that researchers should not close their eyes to problems of selection bias, but the selection bias of the present data is far less severe than often assumed (compare Fillieule 1996, 2007).

The issue divides in electoral politics are also studied with the help of quantitative content analyses. More specifically, I rely on two data sets, which are both based on a manual coding of political parties' program offer at the height of electoral mobilization, that is, during *national election campaigns.* On the one hand, the media data collected in the research project "National Political Change in a Globalizing World" are used (see Kriesi et al. 2008b, 2012). In this research project, the coverage of two newspapers (one quality newspaper and one tabloid) for each country during the two months before the election day was coded. The selected newspapers are the most widely read papers that have been available since the 1970s: *Die Presse* and *Kronenzeitung* (Austria), the *Times* and the *Sun* (Britain), *Le Monde* and *Le Parisien* (France), *Süddeutsche Zeitung* and *Bild* (Germany), *NRC Handelsblad* and *Algemeen Dagblad* (Netherlands), as well as *Neue Zürcher Zeitung* and *Blick* (Switzerland). The newspaper articles were coded using a relational, core sentence-based form of content analysis proposed by Kleinnijenhuis and colleagues (Kleinnijenhuis, De Ridder, and Rietberg 1997; Kleinnijenhuis and Pennings 2001; see also Dolezal 2008; Dolezal et al. 2012). The main advantage of this method is that it offers information on two very central aspects of the supply side of electoral competition, that is, the issue positions of political parties and the salience of different issues for a given party. The data cover only the six core countries of this book and election campaigns from the 1970s, 1990s, and 2000s.

On the other hand, the data from the Comparative Manifestos Project (CMP) are also used (Budge et al. 2001; Klingemann et al. 2006). The project covers the electoral manifestos of all relevant parliamentary parties. Following the salience theory of party competition (Budge and Farlie 1983), the data focuses on the salience of various issues in party programs (as indicated by the relative space an issue receives in a party program). Unfortunately, the parties' positions are provided for only some of the issues covered. However, a major advantage of the data is that they cover all elections in the six countries

continuously from 1945 until 2003, and the most recent updates cover more than fifty countries. This enables me to put the six countries covered by this book in a larger comparative perspective.

Categorizing Issues

As stated before, manifest conflicts over specific issues are the main indicators for tracing whether and how electoral and protest politics have changed because of the emergence of new cleavages. Therefore, I end this short overview of the research design by introducing the issue categories used throughout this book. Because the main goals of protest events and party statements were coded in great detail, it was necessary to group the issues into broader categories. Such categorization is challenging, and it has a crucial impact on the empirical results. The challenge is to regroup the issues into a limited but exhaustive set of categories that captures the underlying dimensions of conflict and is applicable for the study of longer time periods.

This book adopts the categorization proposed by Kriesi et al. (2008b). Most important, their scheme separates the main issue associated with the new class cleavage that had emerged since the late 1960s (that is, cultural liberalism) from the three globalization issues associated with the new integration–demarcation cleavage (that is, immigration, Europe, economic liberalism/global justice).[3] For the study of electoral politics, I can rely on exactly the same categories as Kriesi et al. (see Figure 2). For the study of protest politics, the issue categories had to be adapted. On the one hand, some categories are of little importance when studying protest events (for example, the budget or institutional reform). On the other hand, the coding of the PEA data for the period 1975 to 1989 is very detailed with respect to new social movement issues but not to some other issue areas. In the end, nine issue categories have been used to study protest politics. Figure 2 indicates whether and how the issues are embedded in the two-dimensional political spaces in Western Europe as shown in Figure 1. This classification is based on the empirical results of Kriesi et al. and not on an a priori categorization (see also chapter 1). For example, this does not mean that immigration is per se a noneconomic issue; it just indicates that positions on immigration issues map onto the cultural dimension of the political space.

In the following section, I briefly describe the nine issue categories used to study protest politics. As can be seen from Figure 2, *cultural issues* are divided into four main categories: immigration, Europe, cultural liberalism, and a remainder category of general culture. The immigration category includes protests by, against, or on behalf of migrants (Koopmans et al. 2005, 3). These are events that focus on the situation of migrants in their country of residence

Electoral politics	Protest politics	Dimension of the political space
Immigration *Europe* Cultural liberalism Culture Army Security	*Immigration* *Europe* Cultural liberalism Culture (residual)	Cultural
Economic liberalism Welfare Budget	*Global justice* Welfare Economic (residual)	Economic
Environment Institutional reform Infrastructure	Environment Others (residual)	Not consistently embedded

Figure 2. Issue categories. The issue categories are based on Kriesi et al. (2008b, 59–60). The three globalization issues related to the new integration-demarcation cleavage are shown in italics. Appendix B shows how the new issue categories used to study protest politics correspond to more conventional issue categories used in social movement research.

in Western Europe. Prominent examples are protests in favor of illegal migrants, racist attacks by right-wing extremists, or protests by those who condemn racism. The Europe category includes protests about "constitutive issues" of European integration pertaining to issues of membership, competences, and decision-making rules (Bartolini 2005, 310). Cultural liberalism includes all events focused on the rights of women and homosexuals, international peace, solidarity expressed with developing countries, and "free spaces for alternative lifestyles," a reference to the main goal of squatters and autonomous movements. The remainder category of general culture mainly refers to protests over civil rights and education.

The theoretical expectations and the original data set categories made it more difficult to categorize *economic issues* meaningfully. In the end, I opted for three categories: global justice, welfare, and a remainder category of general economics. Following della Porta (2007c, 6), the main goal of the global justice movement is to advocate the "cause of justice (economic, social, political, and environmental) among and between people across the globe." Some observers highlight the trans-issue character of the global justice movement, refer to it as a "movement of movements," or speak of global justice movements in the plural (Rucht, Teune, and Yang 2007). In a negative sense, the focus on economic issues becomes more obvious as its "enemy is singled out

as neoliberal globalization" (della Porta 2007c, 16).[4] The welfare category contains all events that explicitly address reforms of the welfare state and other public services. The remainder category here includes work-related issues, the mobilization of farmers, and various hybrid issues. As stated, there are other categories not as closely and consistently embedded in one of the two main dimensions that structure Western European political spaces. I differentiate between the environment and a residual category. Thus, environmental protection (including issues related to nuclear energy) is not included under "cultural liberalism," a label that encompasses most other new social movement issues.

Overview of the Book

Protesting Culture and Economics in Western Europe asks whether and how protest politics in Western Europe has changed because of the emergence of a new integration–demarcation cleavage. As has been highlighted, this question is answered by adopting a dynamic cleavage perspective. This perspective treats manifest conflicts over core issues linked to a given cleavage as main indicators for identifying its strength. This is why the methods used to study the contents of protest and electoral politics, as well as the categorization of issues, have been presented in detail.

To conclude this introduction, I present *a simple model of political change* that structures the book and is used to introduce its organization (see Figure 3). The model underscores the demand-driven nature of any cleavage model and incorporates the core assumptions of the political process approach. At first, we find processes of social change (globalization, in my case) leading to new latent political potentials that are then organized and mobilized by various collective actors in the political process. In a simplified way, the political process is divided into two sets of variables. On the one hand, we see the fairly stable and structural elements that constitute the "hard core of the political process framework" (Kriesi 2004, 69). These political opportunity structures act as filters between social change and the specific content and forms of political mobilization (Kitschelt 1986, 59). On the other hand, the more dynamic and agency-based actors' configuration is shown. Following Kriesi (2004, 74), this configuration refers to "what we know of the set of actors at a given point in time—their capabilities, perceptions and evaluations of the outcomes obtainable . . . , and the degree to which their interests are compatible or incompatible with each other." This book focuses on the electoral arena as the setting for a major part of the actors' configuration faced by challengers in the protest arena.

The book is divided into two parts. Part I (chapters 1 to 3) elaborates on the core theoretical arguments and empirically assesses the contexts of protest

politics. Thus, this part presents the conceptual toolkits required to develop more specific expectations of the way the integration–demarcation cleavage might have affected protest politics. Part II (chapters 4 to 7) presents an empirical journey through the changing landscapes of protest. The individual chapters consider different features of protest politics; ranging from the intensity of conflict and degree of transnationalization, via issue divides, to the relationship between protest and electoral politics. I now briefly summarize the various chapters (for the main focus of the individual chapters, see Figure 3).

Chapter 1 starts with globalization and the new integration–demarcation cleavage. First, this chapter clarifies what is meant by globalization and shows how the concept can be measured. In doing so, the chapter traces the

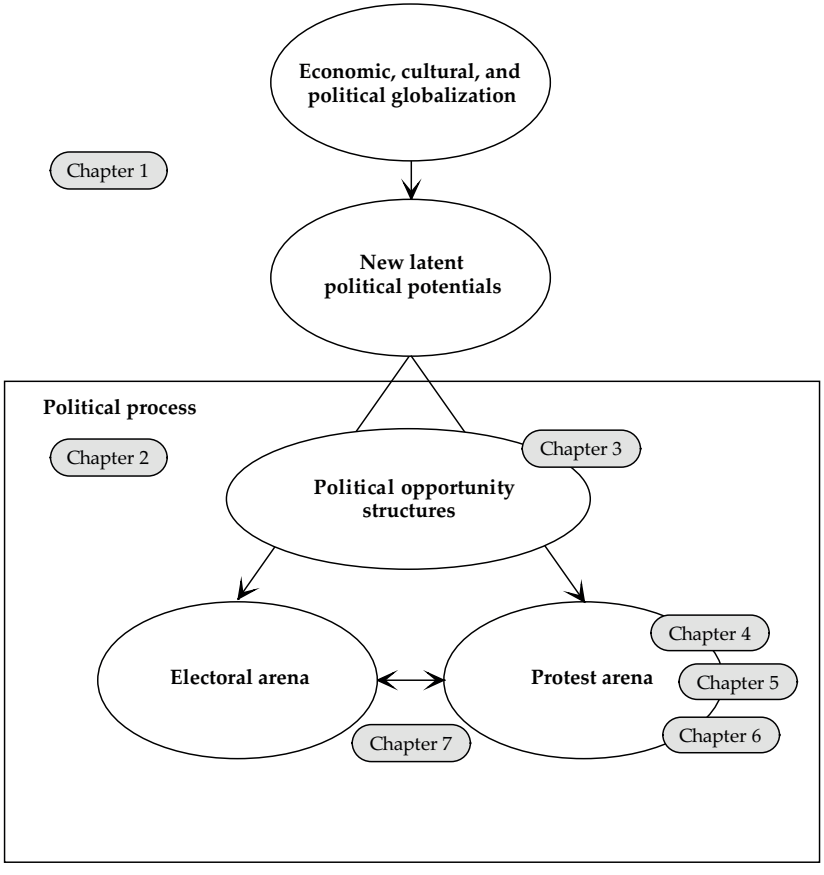


Figure 3. A simple model of political change and the organization of the book.

development of globalization (which accelerated in the late 1980s) and illustrates the fact that the six cases chosen are among the most globalized countries in the world. Thereafter, the chapter turns back to the main argument of the book, that an integration–demarcation cleavage has emerged across Western Europe in the age of globalization. To highlight the distinctive characteristics of the "integration-demarcation" argument, another argument concerning the right-populist round is introduced, namely the "reverse new politics" argument. Finally, chapter 1 empirically illustrates the integration–demarcation argument with survey data and election campaign data.

Chapter 2 shifts the attention to the three elements (or circles) of the political process shown in Figure 3. After conceptualizing the two arenas, the chapter discusses recent advances in the political process approach. In this context, I highlight how the present study takes up recent advances by incorporating more dynamic issue-specific and discursive features of the political context faced by challengers in the protest arena. In addition, chapter 2 introduces three theses on the direction of the relationship between protest and electoral politics: the congruence, counterweight, and different logics theses. The three theses suggest how the claims made in one arena (the electoral arena) relate to the issues and positions raised in the other arena (the protest arena). Most important, the different logics thesis argues that this relationship might vary between the political left and the political right, and this may explain the differing paths of development that conflict structures have taken in protest politics as compared to electoral politics.

Chapter 3 deals with the more stable aspects of the political context faced by challengers in the protest arena. This chapter discusses the general setting of political mobilization (the institutional setting and the prevailing strategies), as well as the strength of traditional cleavages and new cleavages in more institutionalized political arenas. Although critics doubt the usefulness of such stable elements, I still regard them as valuable starting points for cross-national research. At the same time, I follow Meyer and Minkoff (2004, 1460), who argue that political process scholars should spend more time operationalizing their concepts, because it is often unclear how another analyst would apply the same categories to other cases. Thus, the six countries under scrutiny are put into comparative perspectives covering up to thirteen European countries.

Chapter 4 opens up the empirical analysis of protest politics by focusing on conflict intensity and transnationalization. As della Porta and Tarrow (2005a, xiv) observe, recent social movement scholarship has reacted to "what appears to be a new cycle of protest at the global level." The analyses in chapter 4 show that Western Europe saw waves of protest during the early 1980s and again since the 1990s. The increasing intensity of conflict suggests that

both rounds "hit" both the electoral arena and the protest arena. However, one observes that the waves of the early 1980s were more pronounced, and more closely related in time, when looking at the different countries. With respect to the transnationalization of protest, the results support previous research. Although we observe a certain transnationalization, most visible in the early 2000s, the trend remains fairly limited. Comparing the three globalization issues shows that protests related to global justice and European integration are more likely both to be organized across borders and to target transnational addressees as compared to other protest issues. By contrast, immigration protests are firmly embedded within the nation-state.

However, the general ebbs and flows of mobilization do not indicate whether the protest waves of the 1990s and early 2000s are linked to the rise of a new integration–demarcation cleavage. To answer this question, chapters 5 and 6 focus on the issue divides in the protest arena by studying the salience of, and the positions taken on, various protest issues. Chapter 5 is devoted to the big picture based on the averages for all six countries; chapter 6 looks at the conflicts in a comparative perspective. Overall, the findings confirm the expected twofold transformation. Cultural liberalism peaked during the 1970s and early 1980s. Since the 1990s, immigration has emerged as a new highly contested issue. The other two globalization issues (that is, global justice and Europe), by contrast, are of little importance in the protest arena. Furthermore, chapter 5 reveals that the rising salience of immigration is linked to a return of right-wing voices in the protest arena. Thus, as immigration has become more salient, it has also become increasingly contested in the protest arena. However, protests by and on behalf of immigrants still by far outweigh protests against them. Thus, protest politics is the terrain on which positions in favor of cultural globalization prevail.

Focusing on cross-national differences, chapter 6 provides some support for the different logics thesis. In the late 1970s and the 1980s, protests over cultural liberalism were more salient in countries with a traditionally weak class cleavage, and we observe congruent patterns of change in protest politics and more institutionalized political arenas. By contrast, the salience of the three globalization issues is not systematically related to one of the two context factors. However, conflicts over immigration tend to be the more polarized in protest politics the less the integration–demarcation cleavage left its mark on electoral politics. This finding suggests that challengers from the right are more likely to rely on protest activities the less successful they are in electoral terms.

Chapter 7 takes up this point by more closely examining the relationship between electoral and protest politics. This sheds more light on the differing

impact of the integration–demarcation cleavage on protest politics as compared to electoral politics. On the one hand, I systematically trace the evolution of claims in the two arenas over decades and electoral periods. In general, the results regarding the broad transformation over the decades confirm the different logics thesis, too. Right-wing positions tend to follow an either/or logic, while those on the left tend to be more congruent: protest and electoral politics tend to rise and fall in tandem. On the other hand, I examine the role of political parties in electoral politics and protest politics. By taking such an actor-oriented perspective, the chapter moves closer to the differences between challengers from the left and challengers from the right, because the previous analyses have inferred left- and right-wing mobilization only from the issue positions mobilized. Comparing parties' activities across arenas again reveals different logics on the left and on the right. The more successful the radical right is in electoral terms, the more it abstains from protest activities; the more voters the radical left attracts, the more present it is in protest politics.

The Conclusion of the book summarizes the main results and suggests directions for future research. In contrast to this Introduction, the results are not presented chapter by chapter, but the focus is on the broader questions introduced previously. More specifically, I sum up the findings with respect to (1) the impact of the integration–demarcation cleavage on Western European protest politics, (2) the relationship between protest and electoral politics, and (3) the cross-national differences.

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I
Theoretical Framework and the Context of Protest Politics

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1

Globalization and the Integration–Demarcation Cleavage

This chapter elaborates on the argument that we have witnessed the rise of an integration–demarcation cleavage across Western Europe since the 1990s. Following the simple model of political change, the chapter starts by focusing on the phenomenon of globalization, which is expected to be a new critical juncture in the development of cleavage structures. Given Olesen's (2005) and Tarrow's (2005) criticism that the concept of globalization is often misused in social movement research, I make it clear how globalization is defined in the present study, and how its different dimensions have developed since the 1970s. Furthermore, this chapter adds more information about how globalization is expected to lead to a full new cleavage. Starting from Rokkan's (2000) insight that four cleavages have structured Western European politics, I introduce the two transformations that have shaken these traditional cleavages most fundamentally since the late 1960s: the left-libertarian and the right-populist rounds.

To highlight the distinctive characteristics of the integration–demarcation argument, I contrast it with yet another influential argument on the right-populist round, namely the "reverse new politics" argument. By comparing the two arguments, I focus on all three elements of a cleavage. More specifically, I elaborate on the competition mechanisms globalization has brought about, how these mechanisms are expected to lead to winners and losers, and how political mobilization of these new potentials may transform political conflict in Western Europe. The final section of the chapter illustrates what the political spaces look like in Western Europe in the 2000s. Here, survey data and the election campaign data collected by Kriesi et al. (2008b, 2012)

is used. Studying the political potentials on the demand side and the way they are mobilized in electoral politics is crucial to the present study, because it allows the formulation of more precise expectations of how protest politics might have changed due to the emergence of the integration–demarcation cleavage.

Defining and Measuring Globalization

This book is based on a broad understanding of globalization, defined as a spatial widening and intensification of regional or global economic, cultural, and political interconnectedness (Held et al. 1999, 14–27). The label globalization was chosen because the processes "are conceived as only *capable* of being worldwide in scale" (Rosenau 2006, 85). However, I agree with Raab et al. (2008, 597), who argue that such abstract definitions must be specified for empirical research. To do so, I focus on three main dimensions of globalization: economic, cultural, and political globalization.

The *economic* opening-up of national borders is seen as the main process of globalization in the wider public and academic debate. It is defined as "the increasing share of private cross-border activities in the total economic output of countries" (Schirm 2007, 3). It refers to such phenomena as openness to foreign trade, foreign direct investment, and financial transactions across borders (for example Brady, Beckfield, and Zhao 2007, 314–18).

Cultural globalization is often related to McLuhan's (1962) vision of a "global village," which sees the world as contracted into a village, mainly by new media technology. In operational terms, it is often equated with increasing flows of ideas and information, personal contacts across borders, and cultural proximity (Dreher, Gaston, and Martens 2008, 10–12). Furthermore, one of the most important and contested aspects of cultural globalization is migration, that is, the process of moving from one country to another with the intent of establishing a new permanent or semi-permanent residence (Castles and Miller 1998, 1ff.; Raab et al. 2008, 601).

Political globalization refers to the fact that even though nation states as political actors and sites of political mobilization have not become obsolete, they are increasingly becoming embedded in multiple and diverse new structures of governance beyond the nation state (for example, Grande et al. 2007). Nation-states have to cooperate with other state and nonstate actors to adequately deal with globally induced challenges. In the context of Western Europe, political globalization refers above all to European integration, which can be seen as "a regional variant of globalization" (Schmidt 2003, 205).

Although it seems "widely accepted that we all live in a globalizing world" (Dreher et al. 2008, 5), we still hear critical voices disputing this claim. In

this context, Held and McGrew (2007, 1) point out that "epitaphs for globalization appear with increasing frequency" since the terrorist attacks on the World Trade Center and the Pentagon on September 11, 2001. Rosenberg (2005, 2), for example, claims that "the age of globalization is unexpectedly over." But even before 9/11, skepticism regarding the descriptive and explanatory value of the concept was voiced.

In contrast to such arguments, the present study builds on a growing body of research that neither denies nor overemphasizes the strength and new characteristics of the present phase of globalization (for an already classical assessment, see Held et al. 1999). In this context, it is significant that globalization, in its multiple forms, can be empirically measured and "has proven much more resilient or socially embedded than critics believed or many desired" (Held and McGrew 2007, 4). Thus, I do not state that there had been no earlier phases of intensified interdependence across national boundaries. At the same time, however, there is sufficient evidence that these processes have accelerated since the 1990s (see following). Furthermore, research underscores that contemporary globalization differs from earlier epochs both in quantitative and in qualitative terms—"that it is in terms of how globalization is organized and reproduced" (Held et al. 1999, 425). Following Tilly (2004, 95–122), the strongest distinguishing factor between a nineteenth-century version of globalization and its current form is that the latter does not consolidate nation-states; on the contrary, it undermines or rather transforms their central power. Consequently, contemporary globalization is best conceptualized as a process of denationalization, that is, a process that leads to the lowering and unbundling of national boundaries (Zürn 1998). As the present study shifts the focus to the politics of globalization, the question of how globalization is perceived, organized, and continued seems even more critical.

There are various helpful indices to empirically measure the development of globalization over time (for example, the *A. T. Kearney/Foreign Policy Globalization Index* [Foreign Policy with A. T. Kearney 2007]; the *Maastricht Globalization Index* [Martens and Zywietz 2006]; and the GlobalIndex [Raab et al. 2008]). The present study relies on the KOF globalization index, which covers 24 indicators and 123 countries for the period from 1970 to 2005 (Dreher et al. 2008). Figure 4 shows the development of globalization over time based on the KOF index. Combining all three dimensions of globalization, we observe a rising level of globalization from 1970 to 2005. Furthermore, the graph indicates that globalization accelerated during the early 1990s, although the steady upward trend has slowed down in the early 2000s. In addition, Figure 4 underscores the fact that the six Western European countries covered by the present study belong to the most globalized countries worldwide.

The six countries are far more globalized than the global average, and slightly more globalized than the average of twenty-five Western OECD (Organisation for Economic Co-operation and Development) states. In 2005, all six countries belonged to the group of eleven most globalized states in the world.

The trends for economic and cultural globalization are very similar to the overall trend. Both show more or less continuously rising values throughout

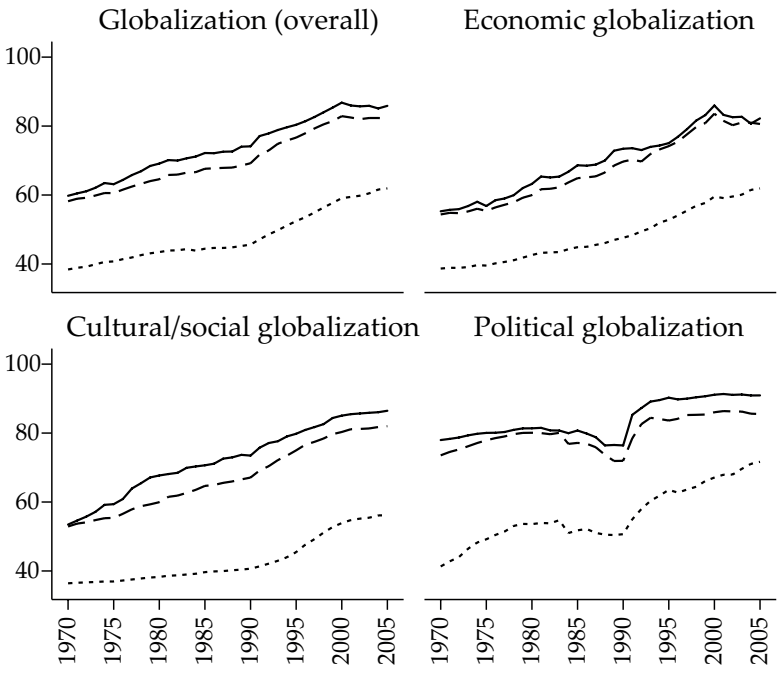


Figure 4. The rise of globalization, 1970–2005. The KOF index covers 24 indicators for 123 countries. Economic globalization refers to actual flows of trade, foreign investment, and restrictions to free trade (nine indicators). Cultural or social globalization measures the spread of ideas, information, images, and people (eleven indicators). Political globalization captures the integration of a country into international relations, that is, the number of international treaties and memberships in international organizations (four indicators) (Dreher et al. 2008). Source: KOF globalization index 2009 (http://globalization.kof.ethz.ch/).

the research period. By contrast, the turning point of the early 1990s is most pronounced with respect to political globalization, that is, after the fall of the Iron Curtain. Among Western countries, we can observe a shift during the early 1990s from a lower to a higher level. The six sample countries are slightly more globalized than the OECD average along all three dimensions. Their distance from the other Western countries is slightly more pronounced with respect to cultural globalization as compared to economic and political globalization. The six countries differ most regarding economic globalization. The three small open economies and Britain rank higher than France and Germany. These four countries belong to the top fifteen, compared to France (twenty-sixth position) and Germany (thirtieth) (average of all years).

With respect to cultural globalization, the KOF index looks mainly at politically uncontested topics (for example, Internet hosts and international tourism). To get closer to the highly salient issue of international *migration,* one can focus on the share of the foreign population living in a country (http://esa.un.org/migration).[1] Although these data are not as systematically collected across all countries and regions, they still highlight that international migration has accelerated in Europe since the mid-1980s (Castles and Miller 1998, 4). In addition, the six countries covered by this study belong to the group of countries hosting the highest and increasing share of migrants. This positive trend is most pronounced in Germany, Austria, and the Netherlands, and least in France. Apart from France, all five states also rank above the European average with respect to new asylum claims submitted per 1,000 inhabitants from 1993 until 2004 (Guiraudon and Jileva 2006).

This short note has highlighted that globalization, in its multiple forms, is not a myth, and the six countries covered by this book all belong to the group of highly globalized countries. For our next step, let us turn to the question of the kind of changes these processes have induced in Western European societies and politics. In other words, why is globalization expected to lead to the rise of a new cleavage?

New Cleavages and the Right-Populist Round: Two Contrasting Arguments

Historically, Western European political spaces have been structured by four fundamental cleavages (Lipset and Rokkan 1967; Rokkan 2000). The center/periphery and the religious cleavages are the product of what Rokkan (2000, 343) calls the "national revolution," that is, successful nation building. The rural/urban and the owner/worker cleavages emerged out of the Industrial Revolution. According to Rokkan (2000, 344), the former two forced people to take sides in conflicts over values and cultural identities, whereas the latter two mainly led people to define their economic interests. In the long run, a

two-dimensional political space has emerged out of these four cleavages—constituted by a cultural (religion) and a social-economic (class) dimension (Kriesi 1994). Of the four traditional cleavages, the social-economic class cleavage proved to be the most pervasive across Western Europe (Bartolini 2000). However, the importance of these traditional cleavages has declined since the 1960s because of profound structural and cultural transformations.

In turn, new structuring conflicts have developed since the late 1960s, and this is where the two rounds of Western European politics come into play. As already stated, authors have spoken of the rise of a "new value" (Inglehart 1977), "new politics" (Müller-Rommel 1984), or "new class" (Kriesi 1989a) *cleavage* in the course of the left-libertarian round. In line with the last approach, a division has emerged within the new middle class between managers and social-cultural specialists. The two groups differ above all in their working conditions, as the former are part of the bureaucratic hierarchy and the latter are involved in an interpersonal face-to-face service logic (Kriesi 1989a; Müller 1999; Oesch 2006b). The social-cultural specialists are expected to be highly aware of their own and their clients' autonomy, whereas the managers are above all loyal to their organizations and strive for efficiency.[2] In line with these general preferences, research has shown that the social-cultural specialists formed the structural core of new social movements and Green parties, which were the main driving force of political change at that time (for example, Dolezal 2010; Kriesi 1989a, 1993).

The rise of the new social movements and Green parties together with the transformation of Social Democratic parties turned the cultural dimension of the political space into an opposition between culturally liberal or libertarian views on the one hand and traditional authoritarian ones on the other (Kitschelt 1994). It is significant that the emergence of the new class cleavage did *not* add a new dimension to the political space. In contrast, it gave a new meaning to the existing cultural dimension by embedding new issues (particularly cultural liberalism) into the two-dimensional political space (again, see Figure 1 in the Introduction). The meaning of the economic dimension, in contrast, has been "more or less unchallenged by the new political movements" (Nedelmann 1984, 1043).

The new social movements seemed to lose their strength in structuring protest politics and tended to institutionalize in the late 1980s and 1990s (for example, Giugni and Passy 1999). During these years, many observers shifted their attention to new political forces that entered the political arenas of Western Europe. This time, the driving agents of change seem to come from the political right, from the populist radical right. As argued initially, most authors agree both on the round's key collective political actor (populist radical right

parties) and on the core ideological features of these parties: nativist, authoritarian, and taking populist stances (Mudde 2007).[3]

It is beyond the scope of this chapter to systematically review the "minor industry" that deals with the populist radical right (for reviews, see Kitschelt 2007; Lucardie 2009; Rydgren 2007; Zaslove 2009). Instead, I focus on two lines of reasoning that both emphasize changing cleavage structures to explain the rise of these new challengers: the reverse new politics argument and the integration–demarcation argument. The former is introduced to carve out the specific characteristics of the latter—especially in the role of globalization.

The Reverse New Politics Argument

In simple terms, one can argue that the "reverse new politics" argument extrapolates the societal dynamics of the left-libertarian round to the right-populist round. The structural changes that led, among others, to the rise of new social movements are held to have provoked a "silent counter-revolution" (Ignazi 1992). The populist right thus mobilizes latent political potentials that have already been present among Western European populations since the 1970s (Sacchi 1998). Although these potentials were partially expressed by the so-called neoconservatism, they remained more or less underground until the recent rise of populist radical right parties. Thus, the reverse new politics argument stresses that the populist right opposes the main agents of the left-libertarian round. To counter this challenge, populist radical right parties emphasize values such as "discipline, hard work and obedience" (Minkenberg 1992, 60; see also Minkenberg 2000, 2003). That is, the main emphasis is put on how populist radical right parties oppose cultural liberalism and, in contrast, fight for the "issues of tough law and order, national identity and pride, traditional moral standards, and state enforcement" (Ignazi 2003, 202). In addition, the success of the populist right is directly related to the cultural turn of politics since the 1960s. As Flanagan (1987, 1308) states, "The New Left issues have helped crowd the economic issues off the agenda and have . . . provoked the emergence of the above New Right set of moral and religious issues." Thus, the focus lies on the so far "omitted right" (Ignazi 1992, 5) or the "entire new conflict axis" (Minkenberg 1992, 61).

Bornschier (2010a, b) has recently taken up and refined the reverse new politics position. He specifies that the cultural dimension is nowadays characterized by a conflict between libertarian-universalistic positions and traditionalist-communitarian positions (see also Flanagan and Lee 2003). The fact that it is part of the traditionalist-communitarian pole indicates how the populist right differs from its extreme right-wing predecessors. Its anti-immigration stance does not rely on ethnic racism, but rather on accounts of "differentialist

nativism" (Betz 2004) or "ethnopluralism" (Minkenberg 2000, 180). Thus, it is not claimed that any nationality or race is superior, but that all people have the right to preserve their distinctive traditions. Immigration is directly linked to this conflict, because the immigration of people from different cultural backgrounds is regarded as endangering the cultural homogeneity that is perceived as necessary for this preservation. Bornschier (2010a) highlights once again where the main locus of change is to be expected, that is, on the cultural dimension. In this regard, it seems obvious to treat globalization as a mere "catalyst for the manifestation of the new cultural potential" (Bornschier 2010a, 26; see also Ignazi 2003). Thus, globalization is not regarded as the central social process behind the right-populist round. In contrast, it is argued that globalization reduces national autonomous steering capacity in economic and social policy making. Thus, it is seen as accentuating the decreasing salience of economic issues, which in turn fosters the cultural mobilization of right-wing populists and catalyzes "the (belated) manifestations of the conservative pole of the universalistic-traditionalist axis of political conflict" (Bornschier 2010a, 23).

In the following section, I discuss the integration–demarcation argument in greater detail than in the Introduction. In doing so, I point out its specific characteristic by emphasizing how it differs from the reverse new politics argument.

The Integration–Demarcation Argument

Winners and Losers from Globalization: Three Mechanisms of Competition

The consequences of a further opening up of national boundaries are expected to vary both between nation-states and between different members of a national community as globalization creates new groups of winners and losers. The groups differ in sectors, social class, education levels, and their attachment to national communities. In contrast with other accounts of the transformative power of globalization, the argument is not that social inequality becomes "classless" in a globalizing world (Beck 1992, 88; 2007). At the same time, it goes beyond a mere understanding of gradual changes (Goldthorpe 2002, 2007, 91–116) and asks what kind of new fundamental structural changes are induced by globalization.

In contrast with the reverse new politics position, the opposing social groups are not expected to be an extrapolation of the most salient antagonisms created by the left-libertarian round. On the contrary, some of the former main adversaries (for example, managers versus social-cultural professionals) are located on the same (winners') side of the conflict. As stated in the introduction, these new groups are formed by three mechanisms of competition:

economic competition, cultural competition, and political competition. For a closer look at the social groups that are losing and those profiting from globalization, I briefly focus on the three mechanisms separately.

Although one cannot so easily distinguish between the general trend toward economic liberalization and the consequences of economic globalization (Simmons and Elkins 2004), economic globalization and technological innovation have increased the pressure on formerly sheltered segments of the population. For example, Schwartz (2001, 44) interprets the main effect of globalization as "the erosion of politically based property rights and their streams of income, and . . . reactions to that erosion." He refers to measures such as "trade protection, minimum wages, centralized collective bargaining, product market regulation, zoning, the delegated control over markets to producer groups, and . . . formal welfare states" (31). By exposing sectors formerly protected to competition, globalization is expected to lead to rising income inequalities (Alderson, Beckfield, and Nielsen 2005; Alderson and Nielsen 2002) and to create new social divisions. It is expected to increase the tensions between firms belonging to the formerly sheltered sectors and those that work in a highly competitive and export-oriented environment (see, for example, Mayda and Rodrik 2005; Schwartz 2001; Walter and Zürn 2005, 273). The latter seek the removal of the privileges of the former to bring down their own costs and to remain competitive on the world market. At the same time, employees are expected to have similar interests as their employers. People working in open sectors have an interest in a general lowering of production costs because their jobs depend on competitiveness in world markets. Those in formerly sheltered sectors seek to preserve the protectionist measures, as do their employers. "Globalization thus leads to a sectoral cleavage, which cuts across the traditional class cleavage and tends to give rise to cross-class coalitions" (Kriesi et al. 2008a, 6).[4]

This increasing economic competition is, however, linked to a second, cultural mechanism of competition, that is, ethnic diversity (Albrow 2001). Increasing immigration from rather distant, often ethnically very distinct, regions of the globe turns ethnically different populations into "symbols of potential threats" (Kriesi et al. 2008a, 6–7). On the one hand, immigrants are symbols of threats to economic well-being, because they are perceived as competitors on the job market and beneficiaries of European welfare states. This is what Fetzer (2000, 14) calls the labor market or the use of services argument: "According to the former, people fear that immigrants . . . will reduce [the] native-born working-class's wages or take their jobs. The latter, 'use of services' formulation, instead, focuses on natives' fears about paying more taxes because immigrants' . . . use of publicly funded services (e.g., education,

health care, welfare)." On the other hand, migrants are perceived as threats to distinctive cultural traditions and identities. In line with the concept of "cultural differentialism" (Betz 2004), the increasing presence of ethnically distinct groups, their publicly visible characteristics, and everyday practices are framed as a challenge to the indigenous populations' traditions.

As in the case of economic competition, education is assumed to be a key factor in determining how these potential threats are perceived. There are mainly three lines of argument behind this relationship, and they can be related to the main explanatory models of anti-immigrant attitudes in the literature: cultural marginality, contact, and economic self-interest (Fetzer 2000, 1–24). First, more highly educated people are expected to be better suited to handling increasing cultural diversity because of their language skills and the general liberalizing effect of education. The thesis of "education as liberation" (Espenshade and Calhoun 1993, 195) regards formal education as providing an enlightened perspective that is less vulnerable to negative stereotypes. Second, better-educated people are more likely to be part of "more diverse and cosmopolitan social networks" (Case, Greeley, and Fuchs 1989, 480). In turn, these personal contacts are expected to generate tolerance and pro-outsider views of the world (see Chandler and Tsai 2001). Third, education is an individual asset in the job market. It tempers not only *perceived* cultural losses, but also economic ones (for example, Fetzer 2000; Walter 2010). Better-educated persons are not only "less racist and place greater value on cultural diversity . . . ; they are also more likely to believe that immigration generates benefits for the host economy as a whole" (Hainmueller and Hiscox 2007, 399).

In contrast to the economic and cultural competition mechanisms, political competition refers to the fact that political globalization leads to the establishment of governance structures beyond the national level. Although the nation-state is not becoming obsolete, its independent problem-solving capacity is reduced (for example, Grande and Pauly 2005). This is most obvious in the context of European integration as the "regional variant of globalization" (Schmidt 2003, 205). Like economic and cultural competition, these political processes create new social divides because of objective or perceived gains or losses caused by the opening up of national borders. On the one hand, Kriesi et al. (2008a, 8) argue that "the reduction of a state's autonomy may imply a reduction of the size of the public sector." Busemeyer (2009) provides a recent overview of the literature that deals with the relationship between (economic) globalization and public spending. By focusing on new empirical data up to the early 2000s, he observes that increasing degrees of globalization are related to decreasing levels of public spending over time. On the other hand, the shift in scale of political authority affects people differently

depending on how much they identify with their national community (on European integration, see Hooghe and Marks 2005, 2009). The more a person identifies with his or her national community, its traditions and political institutions, the more likely he or she is to perceive the "hollowing out" of national decision making and political rights as a loss. Individuals who are less attached to their national community are expected to perceive this opening up as a gain. The same reasoning can be applied to the previously-mentioned cultural competition. As Sniderman and Hagendoorn (2007, 6) argue, "To the extent that members of the majority attach importance to their national identity, the more likely they will be to perceive *their* cultural identity to be threatened. In turn, perceiving minorities as threatening, they reject them."

In sum, the three competition mechanisms lead to quite heterogeneous opposing groups in terms of sector, social class, educational level, and attachment to national communities. Overall, the likely winners from globalization include entrepreneurs and qualified employees in sectors open to international competition, and cosmopolitan citizens. The losers from globalization, in contrast, include entrepreneurs and qualified employees in traditionally sheltered sectors, unqualified employees, and citizens who strongly identify with their national communities.

Note that although the integration–demarcation argument stresses the *perception* of material and cultural threats, it is more in line with a realistic conflict theory and in contrast with social identity theory (for an overview, see Sniderman and Hagendoorn 2007, 71–99). More precisely, the argument stresses that the threats and the related attitudes have a real basis, and that the conflicts over globalization are "driven by a bounded yet instrumental rationality" (Arzheimer 2009, 260).[5] As Rosenau (2006, 85–86) aptly states:

> Some people and cultures feel threatened by the incursion of globalization. Their jobs, their icons, their belief systems, and the lives of their communities seem at risk as the boundaries that have sealed them off from the outside world in the past no longer assure protection. And there is, of course, a basis of truth in these fears. Globalization does intrude; its processes do shift jobs elsewhere; its norms do undermine traditional mores.

Integration versus Demarcation

So far, I have been discussing the empirical or social-structural element of the expected integration–demarcation cleavage. But what can we say about the *normative element,* that is, the set of shared values and beliefs that divides the winners and the losers from globalization? According to Kriesi et al. (2006b, 2008b), the general thesis is that the lowering, un- and rebundling of national

boundaries paradoxically renders them more salient. As they are weakened and reassessed, the political importance of national boundaries increases (see also Rosenau 2006, 83–90). More specifically, the destructuring of national boundaries leads to an increased salience of the differences between sectors of the economy and of cultural differences. They constitute the main criteria for the distribution of resources, identity formation, and political mobilization (Badie 1997). Generally, globalization losers are thus expected to seek to protect themselves through protectionist measures and through an emphasis on national boundaries and independence. In the words of Koopmans et al. (2005, 4): "As the single force giving at least some counterplay against the impersonal forces of globalization, many turn to the nation state and the national community as havens in a heartless world." The winners of globalization, by contrast, should support the opening up of boundaries and the process of international integration. The new antagonism between the winners and losers of globalization is therefore referred to as a conflict between integration and demarcation.

This conflict is not restricted to the cultural dimension of the political space. Contrary to the reverse new politics argument, the integration–demarcation argument stresses transformations in the economic dimension as well. A defensive and protectionist position (that is, demarcation) is opposed to an integrationist position (that is, integration) on both the cultural and the economic dimension: "In the economic domain, a neoliberal free trade position is opposed to a position in favor of protecting the national markets. In the cultural domain, a universalist, multiculturalist or cosmopolitan position is opposing a position in favor of protecting the national cultural and citizenship in its civic, political and social sense" (Kriesi et al. 2008a, 11).

Such positions are, however, not articulated in a vacuum. Political conflicts mainly center on concrete political issues. As Schattschneider (1975 [1960], 69) stated years ago, "Organization is the mobilization of bias. Some issues are organized into politics while others are organized out." This organization is not only consequential in the short run, but far more so in the mid- to long run. It (de-)stabilizes the common ideological schemata and identities which are part of the normative element of a political cleavage. Recently, Bornschier (2010a) has underscored the group-binding functions of political conflict in his model of cleavage politics. The model presented in Figure 5 underlines the demand-driven nature of any cleavage model, and also acknowledges the importance of the programmatic content of party politics. Conflict over concrete issues activates people's ideological schemata and "reinforces the established interpretation of what politics is about in the specific country" (62). They render group attachments salient and allow individuals to locate

themselves in the political spaces. If the political conflicts that a cleavage stands for lose their relevance in structuring such visible lines of conflict, the cleavage is very likely to weaken. Thus, issue-specific conflicts must be more or less continually fought to keep a political cleavage alive or to reinforce a new social divide.

What are the main *contested issues* related to the new integration–demarcation cleavage? As stated in the introduction, Kriesi et al. (2008b) expect European integration, immigration, and neoliberal globalization (that is, economic questions related to competitiveness on world markets) to become more salient in the age of globalization. All three issues are closely linked to the competition mechanisms induced by globalization. This differs from the reverse new politics argument. If one argues that the populist radical right is the so-far omitted flip side of the left-libertarian round, cultural liberalism is expected to be the central issue linked to the right-populist round, too. In simple terms, the actors and main positions change, but not the issues. In his stimulating book *What's the Matter with Kansas?* Frank (2005) shows how conflicts over abortion and homosexuality are at the forefront of the not-so-silent counterrevolution in the United States. In the European context, immigration is, however, presented as being a key issue of the right-populist round by both the reverse new politics argument and the integration–demarcation argument. In contrast with the reverse new politics position, Kriesi et al. (2008b) attribute cultural liberalism only to the first transformation of Western European politics, but stress that immigration is only one of three globalization issues, European integration and neoliberal globalization being the others.

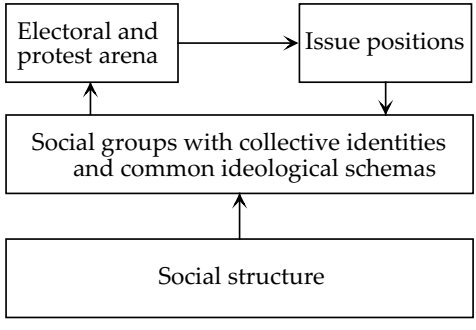


Figure 5. Social structure, identities, and their reinforcement by the differing issue positions of collective actors. Source: Bornschier (2010a, 62), with modifications.

Again, conflicts over the globalization issues are not expected to give rise to a new dimension in the political space that complements or replaces the older ones. In contrast, the new issues are expected to be embedded into the existing cultural and economic dimensions. In this process, they transform the existing lines of conflict. Immigration and European integration are, as cultural liberalism, expected to be integrated into the cultural dimension of Western European political spaces. They correspond most closely to the new cultural and political forms of competition induced by globalization processes. The demarcation pole of the transformed cultural dimension is thus assumed to be mainly characterized by an opposition to cultural liberalism, European integration, and by restrictive positions with regard to immigration. Issues related to the opening up of national economies are expected to transform the economic dimension. They should "reinforce the classic opposition between a pro-state and a pro-market position while giving it a new meaning" (Kriesi et al. 2008a, 13). The pro-state pole is expected to become even more in favor of protectionist measures, that is, the defense of traditional property rights. Its opposite pole is likely to support measures to enhance national competitiveness even more forcefully.

To sum up the discussion on the integration–demarcation argument, let me emphasize its key differences from the reverse new politics argument. First, the integration–demarcation argument suggests a less straightforward relationship between the left-libertarian and the right-populist rounds. Second, it expects changes along the cultural and the economic dimensions of the political space. More specifically, conflicts over immigration, European integration, and neoliberal globalization should become more frequent. Third, it takes globalization not only as a catalyst, but as a far more important critical juncture in the development of cleavage structures in Western Europe.

Transformed Political Spaces in Western Europe: Some Illustrative Results

The final part of this chapter illustrates the integration–demarcation arguments by empirically examining the political spaces in Western Europe in the 2000s. It therefore examines whether the potentials discussed so far can be observed in Western European societies and how these potentials have transformed party competition in the electoral arena (for an in-depth analysis, see Kriesi et al. 2012). More specifically, I answer the three questions of whether Western European political spaces are indeed two-dimensional, how the new issues are embedded in the two dimensions, and where the different social and party-political groups are located in these transformed spaces. In doing so, this chapter focuses on the broad picture and cross-national similarities, while later chapters more systematically examine how the electoral context of protest politics varies between countries (especially chapter 3).

The Demand Side

To begin with, let us look at the preferences of the population *(the demand side of politics)* to illustrate whether and what kind of new political potentials have been brought about by globalization. The analyses are based on the first three rounds of the *European Social Survey* (ESS).[6] To explore the general structure behind attitudes toward various issues, factor analysis has been used. Although the ESS has a rather sophisticated design, unfortunately it includes hardly any questions on economic preferences (not to speak of preferences regarding economic globalization). In the end, the following analysis covers five of the twelve issue categories introduced in the Introduction. The issues covered are welfare, environment, cultural liberalism, Europe, and immigration.

Table 1 shows the factor loadings (after a varimax rotation) for all six countries. In general, the findings support the previous results of Kriesi et al. (2008b). The political spaces on the demand side are indeed two-dimensional, and a cultural dimension that includes the two globalization issues (immigration and Europe) is present in all six countries. Thus, support for immigration is related to positive stances toward European integration. On the second, economic dimension, the categories welfare and environment load exclusively in three of the six countries. Attitudes toward cultural liberalism are highly related to attitudes toward immigration and Europe in these countries. Furthermore, the factor loadings indicate that issue positions on welfare are most intensively associated with the economic or mixed factor in five of the six countries (see also van der Brug and van Spanje 2009). Thus, the empirical findings based on the ESS nicely illustrate the restructuring force of globalization on citizen preferences. Attitudes toward political and cultural aspects of globalization are closely aligned on one single dimension and crosscut general preferences toward welfare-related issues.

To get closer to the transformations brought about by globalization, let us now turn to the question of where different social and political groups are located in the transformed political spaces. First, we turn to the social-structural groups and contrast the new categories of winners and losers from globalization both with more traditional social divides and with the "new class" cleavage that emerged in the 1970s (that is, the contrast within the new middle class). Thus, the following analysis looks at the location of different social classes, education levels, and levels of religiosity.[7] To ease interpretation, I follow Lachat and Dolezal's (2008) approach and look at the average position of the social groups on the two factors that resulted from the previous factor analysis. In addition to these graphical representations, I have estimated a series of ordinary regression models through which citizen attitudes

Table 1. The demand side of Western European politics during the early 2000s

	Austria		Britain		France		Germany		Netherlands		Switzerland	
	mix	cult	cult	eco	cult	mix	cult	eco	cult	mix	cult	eco
Europe		.77	.73		.70		.56		.79		.70	
Immigration		.72	.80		.82		.81		.79		.79	
Welfare	.61			.75		.79		.75		.73		.75
Environment	.62			.72		.49		.61		.64		.70
Cultural liberalism	.62		.55		.58	.42	.59			.45	.60	
Eigenvalue	1.35	1.29	1.46	1.09	1.50	1.11	1.53	1.07	1.32	1.18	1.50	1.32
Variance explained	0.27	0.26	0.29	0.22	0.30	0.22	0.31	0.21	0.26	0.24	0.30	0.23
(*N*)	(4,794)		(4,790)		(4,244)		(6,607)		(5,013)		(4,121)	

Source: ESS rounds 1 to 3. Note: Blank cells represent abs. loadings < 0.4. The wording of the specific questions used for the analyses can be found in Appendix B.

are regressed on different social-structural variables because factor analysis is less useful in estimating the strength of the structural basis of attitudes.[8]

The graphs presented in Figure 6 show that the social groups linked to the religious and the traditional class divides were no longer set at the extremes of the political space in Western Europe by the early 2000s. Both highly religious and secular people are located almost in the middle of the political space. Although in economic terms skilled workers still tend to lean more to the left than the self-employed, the difference is not as pronounced as it was during the 1970s (see Lachat and Dolezal 2008, 249). In contrast, the findings indicate that the social groups linked to the new winner/loser divide spread over a much wider range of the political space. In the early 2000s, the main class adversaries associated with the new class divide (that is, managers versus social-cultural specialists) "now find themselves on the winners' side of the new structural conflict" (Kriesi et al. 2008a, 12). This supports the integration–demarcation argument, because the new constellation of conflict can no longer be adequately captured by opposition *within* the new middle class, which scholars identified as the main social division differentiating adherents and opponents of cultural liberalism and other new social movement issues. As expected, the results presented in Figure 6 show that education is a key factor explaining location along the transformed cultural dimension (see also Hainmueller and Hiscox 2007; Stubager 2009, 2010). Additional regression analyses indicate that attitudes toward immigration in particular are structured along the new divide, whereas attitudes toward cultural liberalism are still highly correlated with religiosity.

Let us now turn to the question of where the electorates of different parties are located in the transformed political spaces. For this purpose, I rely on a system of six different party families: the radical left, Greens, the moderate left, liberals, the moderate right, and the populist radical right. The radical left category covers communists and left socialists, while the moderate left category mainly comprises social democrats, and the moderate right category Christian democrats and conservatives. Again, Figure 6 shows the average location of party voters in the two-dimensional political space. As can be seen, the results support the claim that citizens who vote for new party challengers spread apart far more on the cultural than on the economic dimension. Green voters are found at the top of the cultural dimension, while populist radical right voters are located most opposite. The traditional party families tend to spread far more along the economic dimension. On average, radical left and liberal voters hold the most opposite positions on economic issues, but both are placed slightly in the upper side of the cultural dimension. Moderate left and moderate right voters show the well-known diagonal distribution in the

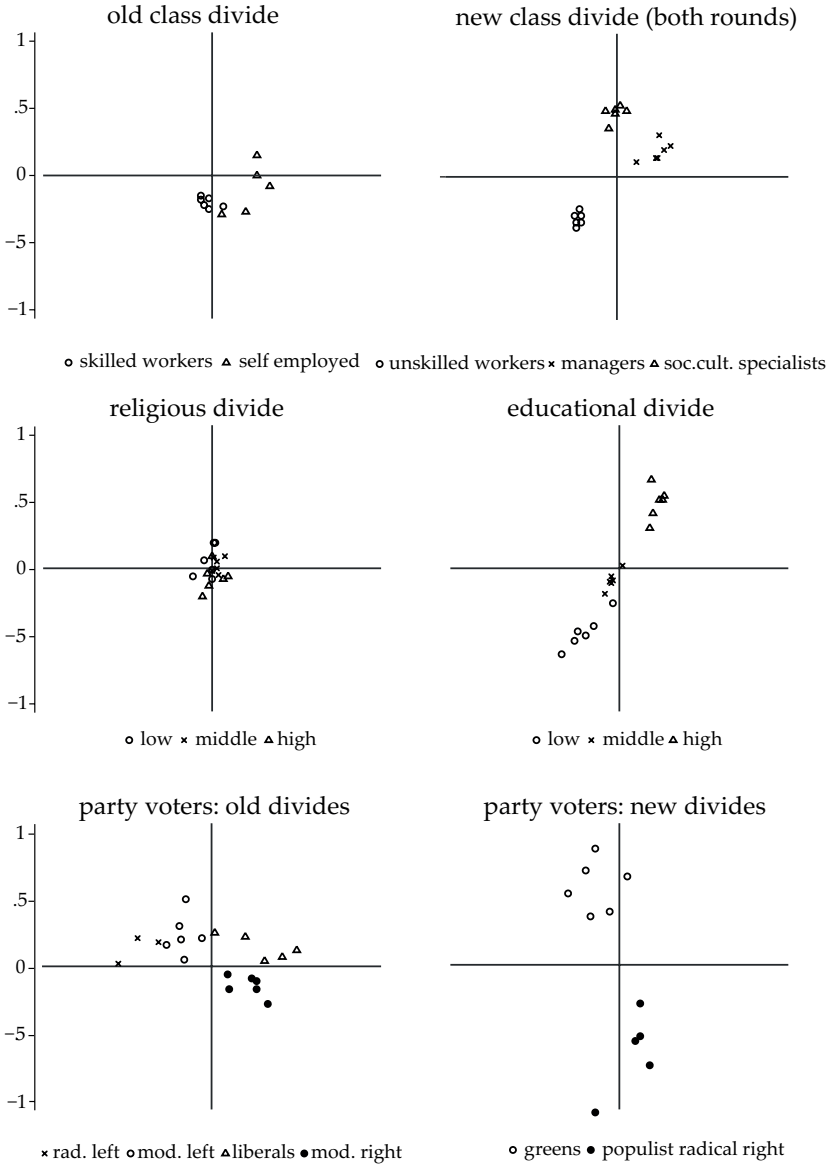


Figure 6. Location of social-structural and partisan groups in the political space during the 2000s. Averages for the six countries are shown (groups with fewer than fifty individuals are not shown).

political space: the moderate left supporters can be found in the upper left-hand quadrant and the moderate right supporters can be found in the lower right-hand quadrant (see also Kitschelt 1994).

To sum up the results on the demand side of politics, we have seen that Western European political spaces are indeed two-dimensional, and the social and partisan groups linked to the new integration–demarcation cleavage spread broadly along the transformed cultural dimension.

The Supply Side

In the next step, we look at how political parties position themselves with regard to these new potentials *(the supply side of politics).* Again, I am interested in the dimensionality of the political space and the location of the political parties in the (transformed) space. For the following analysis, the election campaign data of Kriesi et al. (2008b, 2012) are used. More precisely, Figure 7 shows a graphic representation of the positions of party families and issues in a low-dimensional space created with the help of multidimensional scaling (MDS) (see Cox and Cox 2001; Kruskal and Wish 1984). MDS is a very flexible method. It allows for the graphic representation of similarities or dissimilarities between pairs of objects. In the present case, the issue positions of parties indicate similarity or distance between a group of parties and a group of issues. Here, a variant of MDS is used that allows accounting for the similarities between pairs of objects (that is, parties and issues) and for the salience of these relationships. This means that the distances corresponding to salient relationships between parties and issues will be more accurately represented than the less salient ones. A major advantage of MDS over other research methods is that a priori assumptions about the structure of the political space are not needed (compare Gabel and Hix 2002; Hooghe, Marks, and Wilson 2002; Klingemann, Hofferbert, and Budge 1994; Pennings and Keman 2003). In contrast, the number of dimensions and their content is empirically assessed.

Figure 7 presents a common political space for all six countries in the 2000s (for country-specific configurations, see Kriesi 2012). The resulting representation is two-dimensional. The horizontal dimension refers to the economic opposition between defense of the welfare state and the promotion of economic liberalism. The vertical dimension is defined in cultural terms. It can be seen that four issues lie at the poles of this second dimension: cultural liberalism and Europe are at the top of the figure, while *anti*-immigration and army are at the bottom. Thus, the issues most closely related to cultural and political globalization are aligned along one single dimension, with cultural liberalism as the main issue of the left-libertarian round. This provides

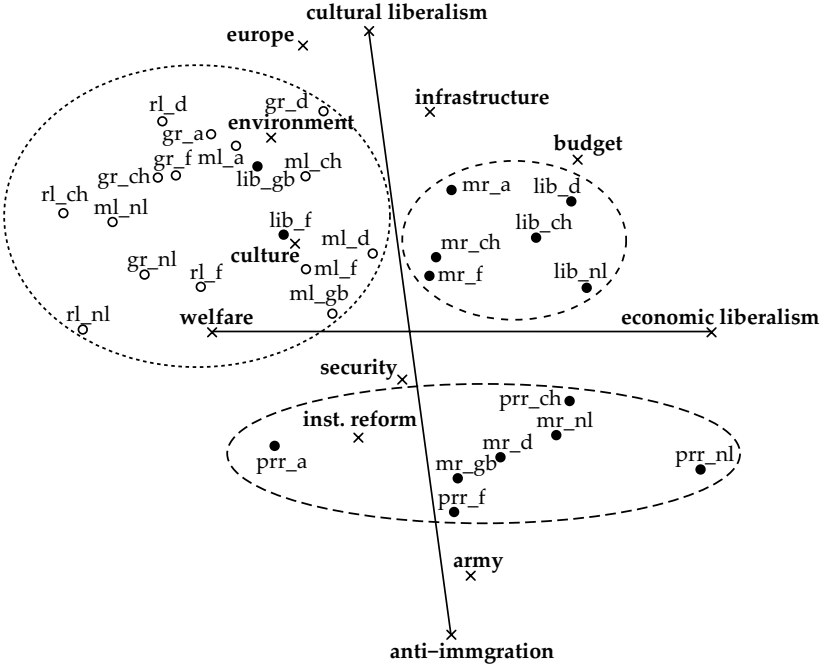


Figure 7. The party political space during the 2000s. Stress-1 = 0.29. Abbreviations for party families (rl = radical left, gr = greens, ml = moderate left, mr = moderate right, lib = liberals, prr = populist radial right); parties of the right are indicated by black circles, parties of the left by hollow circles. Source: Kriesi (2012), with modifications.

a clear indication of a twofold reinterpretation of the cultural dimension (see also Kriesi et al. 2006, 2008b; Rovny and Edwards 2012; Teperoglou and Tsatsanis 2011; compare Van der Brug and van Spanje 2009).

But where are the different party families located in the transformed political spaces? Figure 7 illustrates that party competition is characterized by a tripolar configuration of actors in the 2000s. The left-wing parties form a fairly homogenous group. Old radical left, Green, and moderate left parties are all located on the upper left-hand side. As previously shown for the party electorate, the Greens come closest to the cultural liberalism/Europe pole, while the radical left is located farthest to the left on the economic dimension. In contrast, the right is divided into two groups. This divide is mainly caused by different positions along the cultural dimension. The populist radical right parties are located close to the immigration/army pole, whereas most liberal

and moderate right party families are located above the populist right group on the cultural dimension. This confirms the expected split within the political right as a consequence of the new integration–demarcation cleavage. Although some populist radical right parties have moved to the left in economic terms by the early 2000s, they are not located in the bottom left-hand corner. Thus, as already shown for the populist radical right's electorate, these parties tend instead to combine positions of cultural demarcation with centrist positions on economic issues.

Summing up, the findings based on survey and election campaign data have illustrated that Western European political spaces are indeed two-dimensional. Thus, the rise of the integration–demarcation cleavage did not add another dimension to the political space but transformed the meaning of the existing one. Conflicts over immigration and European integration transformed the cultural dimension once again. Furthermore, we witness a tripolar configuration of political parties (constituted by the left, the moderate right, and the populist radical right). This indicates that the populist right-wing parties are the driving forces of change in the electoral arena and seem to have most successfully mobilized the cultural anxieties of the losers of globalization.

Summary

This chapter has elaborated on the first two circles of the simple model of political change, namely globalization and the new latent political potentials. Most important, it has introduced the bold argument by Kriesi et al. (2006b, 2008b) that a new integration–demarcation cleavage is on the rise across Western Europe. More specifically, they argue that globalization creates new groups of winners and losers and that the mobilization of these new political potentials has resulted in a profound transformation of Western European political spaces. This argument has been contrasted with yet another argument on the right-populist round, the reverse new politics argument. In contrast to the integration–demarcation argument, the protagonists of this view suggest a more straightforward relationship between the left-libertarian and the right-populist rounds, regard globalization only as a catalyst, and identify changes only along the cultural dimension of the political space. In addition, I have illustrated the configuration of Western European political spaces in the 2000s and have shown where the different social and political groups are located in these transformed spaces.

Again, this chapter has revealed that scholars focusing on the right-populist round tend to emphasize political parties, the political right, and the losing side of the new cleavage. Even though this is a good starting point, it needs

to be seen whether and how our conceptual toolkit and empirical results should be reconsidered when looking at protest politics. As argued in the Introduction, not only are different issues being organized in and out of politics (as highlighted in this chapter) but there are also different arenas of political mobilization. The next chapter focuses on this point by systematically distinguishing the protest arena from the electoral arena and by presenting three theses on the relationship between these two sites of political mobilization.

2

Protest Politics, Electoral Politics, and the Political Process Approach

The previous chapter emphasized globalization and how it creates new groups of winners and losers; this chapter focuses on the second core element of the simple model of political change: the political process. As argued in the Introduction, political potentials resulting from social change do not translate directly into political conflict, and the question of who is being organized into politics by whom should be a key subject of any cleavage analysis. More specifically, this chapter brings in the two major arenas of mass mobilization—electoral and protest—and discusses how they might be related to each other. In combination with the previous chapter, this provides a conceptual toolkit to allow us to develop more specific expectations about whether and how protest politics in Western Europe has changed because of the emergence of a new integration–demarcation cleavage. These expectations are then empirically examined in the second part of the book.

The chapter is arranged as follows. In the first section, I define what is meant by a political arena and stress the key differences between the protest arena and the electoral arena. The second section moves closer to answering the question of how the two arenas might be related to each other. This is far from a novel question in social movement research, and it has been most explicitly treated by adherents of the political process approach. Because of its structural and institutional bias, the approach has been criticized on several fronts, however (for example, Goodwin and Jasper 1999, 2004). This book reacts to these criticisms by acknowledging that there is a need to move beyond overgeneral, institutional, and static political opportunities. Instead, those in the field should examine issue-specific, discursive, and more dynamic elements

of the political context (see also Giugni 2009; Koopmans et al. 2005, 16–23; Meyer and Minkoff 2004). Finally, the third section demonstrates that political process scholars agree on an affirmative answer to the question of *whether* the two arenas are related to each other. At the same time, they disagree on *how* they are related. *Protesting Culture and Economics in Western Europe* takes up this challenge by systematically examining this question and by presenting three different theses on the relationship between electoral politics and protest politics: the congruence, counterweight, and different logics theses. The congruence and counterweight theses postulate different signs of the relationship, but they do not differ according to political orientation. In contrast, the different logics thesis assumes that there will be a positive relationship between protest and electoral politics for challengers from the left, and a negative one for challengers from the right. In other words, the left waxes and wanes at the same time in both arenas, while for the right, when its actors and issue positions become more salient in one arena, their salience decreases in the other. I trace these differences back to the different value orientations and strategies of the actors involved.

Conceptualizing the Protest Arena and the Electoral Arena

Following Ferree et al. (2002), an arena is the place where one can observe those who are actively engaged in political contestation. The mere bystanders, who observe what happens, and the backstage area, where those trying to become involved in the arena prepare themselves, are not included. As Schattschneider (1975 [1960], 69) so aptly stated, a "conclusive way of checking the rise of conflict is simply to provide no arena for it." In contrast to Ferree et al. (2002), I do not delineate arenas on the basis of the issues being discussed, but by the modes in which ordinary people become involved in the struggle that takes place in them (see Flam 1994; Kriesi 1993). Note that talking about arenas is very much in line with other classifications that try to capture modes of political interest intermediation by distinguishing political parties, interest groups, and social movements as main types of intermediary mobilizing agents (for example, Rucht 1996), organizations (for example, Burstein 1998), or modes of political mobilization (for example, Kitschelt 2003). However, the arena concept shifts the attention from the collective political actors to a broader focus on the forms of mobilization and participation.

Protesting Culture and Economics in Western Europe focuses on the two arenas that are most heavily characterized by the direct participation of citizens (that is, mass politics): the electoral arena and the protest arena. Although this neat distinction becomes far more nuanced if we enter the "empirical world," it is still analytically instructive because it helps to structure research.

In the following, I discuss five crucial differences between the two arenas. The differences are summarized in Figure 8.

The center and pivotal point of the two arenas is the *mode of political participation:* protest versus voting. Taking part in protest events or elections is the main way for ordinary people to enter these two arenas. Mobilizing this active participation is one of the core competencies and resources of the collective actors involved in the two arenas. The concept of "protest politics" underlines this dual role. Protest politics "usually denotes the deliberate and public use of protest by groups or organizations (but rarely individuals) that seek to influence a political decision or process, which they perceive as having negative consequences for themselves, another group or society as whole" (Rucht 2007, 708).

However, to define what counts as a protest event is no easy task. Following the ground-breaking work of Tilly (1976, 1995, 2008), one can trace the development of a modern "repertoire of contention" in the course of the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries. Although this repertoire is far from stable and self-contained, it limits what counts as a protest event. These forms range from demonstrations or occupations of public sites via boycotts and blockades all the way to riots that involve violence against property or individuals, to list only a few of the most common examples. In contrast with protest politics, the mode of participation in the electoral arena (that is, the act of participation in elections) can be more easily defined. It consists of a formal expression of a preference for a candidate who seeks a public office.

The crucial role of the mode of participation goes hand in hand with other characteristics differentiating the arenas, among others, the *degree of institutionalization* and the *degree of issue linkage*. The two aspects can be traced both from the perspectives of individuals and the political system. In

	Protest arena	Electoral arena
Mode of participation	Participation in protest events	Participation in national elections
Degree of institutionalization	Low	High
Degree of issue linkage	Low	High
Main organizations	Social movement organizations	Political parties
Main sites of mobilization	"Street" and mass media	Legislature and mass media

Figure 8. Conceptual differences between the protest arena and the electoral arena.

terms of the former, one can distinguish different modes of participation according to the variations in volume, initiative, resources, and skills required for effective participation, as well as with reference to the degree of cooperation with others (for example, Dalton 2006; Verba, Schlozman, and Brady 1995). Voting varies little in volume, requires little individual initiative, resources, or skills, and it involves almost no cooperation among individual participants. In contrast, protest varies more in volume and requires a higher amount of initiative, individual skills, and cooperation.

From a macro perspective, one can distinguish similar features referring to timing, participants, collective competitors, and impact (for example, Goldstone 2003; Kitschelt 2001, 2003). In the case of elections, these aspects are very much predetermined and regulated. Think of the "electoral cycle," which refers to a relatively fixed period of time. The people entitled to participate, the competitors, the rules of the competition, and the way of aggregating individual preferences into collective outcomes (for example, parliamentary seats) are very much predetermined in the electoral arena. Protest politics is far more episodic and less predictable. The term *protest cycle* seems like a world apart from its sibling in the electoral arena. Its less-institutionalized character does, however, not only include the question of whether and when protest happens, but also who takes part and who is mobilized by whom—not to speak of the impact of protest (see, for example, Kolb 2007).

Furthermore, Verba et al. (1995) stress that no individual voter is able to convey a large amount of information to the political authorities (see also Dalton 2006). In contrast, protesting allows the communication of quite specific claims to the authorities. Even though it is generally easy to understand what protesters want, their specific claims are most often not linked to other concerns. The arena of electoral politics, in contrast, is far more characterized by a linkage and an ordering of different issues into broad "ideological packages" (Kitschelt 2001). On the supply side, the main competitors in the electoral arena present programs that cover and link different issues. On the demand side, the voters are forced to choose between these alternative packages.

The next distinction concerns the main *organizations* that dominate the arenas. Protest politics is regarded as the core competence and resource of social movement organizations (SMOs), which are distinguished from other formal organizations because they mobilize their constituencies for protests and do so with political goals in mind (Kriesi 1996, 153; McCarthy and Zald 1977, 1218). SMOs are regarded as challengers, that is, as actors who do not have regular access to the decision-making process via more established channels and therefore need to organize protest events to draw attention to their

claims and to reinforce the positions of established allies.[1] The electoral arena, in contrast, is the main territory of political parties. Parties are the main organizations that people form to compete for electoral office. In Schattschneider's (1960 [1942], 35) realist view, a "political party is first of all an organized attempt to get power. Power is here defined as control of the government." Parties are also more involved in the business of issue linkage, in contrast to the more issue-specific social movement organizations (SMOs) (Kitschelt 2001, 2003).

The mode of participation and its main actors are related to yet another difference: the *main site of political mobilization* (Kitschelt and Rehm 2008). Protest politics relies on "the streets" as the major site for citizens to express their claims. Following Snow, Soule, and Kriesi (2004, 13), the term *street* should be understood in both a literal and a metaphorical sense. Hence, it covers the whole array of protest tactics. It is even more important to stress that, by means of staging protest events, actors strive for public attention, which is their main instrument for putting pressure on authorities. This is why the mass media hold a key position with respect to the protest arena. In this spirit, Gamson and Wolfsfeld (1993, 116) even state that an event "with no media coverage at all is a non-event."

Nowadays, the electoral arena is also unthinkable without the presence of the mass media (Manin 1995), a fact that is most obvious during election campaigns. Thus, election campaigns and protest events might be understood as the most condensed images of the two arenas in the mass media. At the same time, the electoral arena is not so closely tied to the mass media. The individual act of voting takes place in the polling booth, and the main organizations of electoral politics (political parties) have a firm standing in the legislative branches as another main site of mobilization.

All five differences summarized in Figure 8 point to where (and how) one needs to look to empirically study the two arenas. At the same time, one should not forget that the activities taking place in the two arenas are "different but parallel approaches to influencing political outcomes, often drawing on the same actors, targeting the same bodies, and seeking the same goals" (Goldstone 2003, 8). For this reason, the next two sections focus on the questions of whether and how the two arenas are related to each other.

Recent Developments in the Political Process Approach

The question of whether institutionalized political arenas relate to protest politics is far from new in social movement research. Adherents of the political process approach strongly emphasize that protest activity outside of mainstream political institutions is closely tied to its wider political context. Lipsky's

Protest in City Politics (1970) is one of the first studies showing how the ebbs and flows of protest politics are caused by changes within the broader political system (see also Lipset 1963). It was, however, Eisinger (1973, 11) who first introduced the phrase "structure of political opportunities" to describe the political environment of protest activities. In one of his masterpieces, Tilly (1978) then incorporated opportunities into a larger theoretical perspective (that is, the polity and mobilization models).

These groundbreaking studies encouraged many scholars to develop a more comprehensive theoretical approach. To put it simply, one can distinguish two main groups of studies (see Giugni 2009; Meyer 2004). One group emphasizes the more volatile elements of the political process (for two classics, see McAdam 1982 and Tarrow 1989). Relying on Tilly's framework, these authors focus on the emergence of social movements because of "expanding opportunities." McAdam's (1982) well-known study, for example, traces the development of the civil rights movement in the United States by focusing on changes in demography, repression, and the political economy (for example, the collapse of the cotton economy). Another group of scholars is more interested in cross-national differences and focuses more closely on the hard-core element of the approach, that is, political opportunity structures. For example, Kitschelt (1986) was one of the first authors to stress the relatively stable elements of the political context to explain why the levels, forms, and outcomes of anti-nuclear movements varied cross-nationally (see also Kriesi et al. 1992, 1995; Rucht 1994).

This short note on the history of the approach already hints at a major line of criticism: key concepts are very broad and often used in different ways. Gamson and Meyer (1996, 275) stated that the concept of political opportunity structures is "in danger of becoming a sponge that soaks up virtually every aspect of the social movement environment." More than three decades after Eisinger (1973) introduced the term *political opportunity structures,* there is (as yet) no consensus on a list of the elements covered by the term. Most often, authors just refer to the "highly consensual list of dimensions" that McAdam (1996, 27) came up with after reviewing the literature of the 1980s and early 1990s. This list covers (1) the relative openness or closedness of the political system, (2) the stability or instability of alignments among the elite, (3) the presence or absence of allies among the elite, and (4) the state's capacity for repression (see, for example, Giugni 2008, 299–300; Rucht and Roth 2008, 654–55; Snow et al. 2005, 1189).

However, scholars have made efforts to synthesize and clarify the approach during recent years. In line with Kriesi (2004), I consider the political process approach, first of all, a framework for the study of social movements and

protest politics. It is a conceptual toolkit that helps generate research questions, to delimit the field of research, and to see the whole range of possible variables. The suggestions put forward by Meyer (2004) point in a similar direction. Although not abandoning the approach, he pleads that researchers should be more careful when they conceptualize and operationalize the political context. More specifically, Meyer points out that it is essential to ask at least three questions, involving opportunities or constraints: for what and for whom and how they work. Following Meyer's (2004) questions, I discuss recent advances in the political process approach and indicate how they are taken up in this book.

Beyond General, Institutional, and Constant Opportunities

To begin with, Meyer (2004, 135–38) wants researchers to ask, *Opportunities for what?* For example, researchers should differentiate context factors for political mobilization from those for political outcomes. Even though the two variables might be influenced by the same opportunities, this does not need to be the case. The mobilization of the peace movement, for example, is quite often inversely related to its chances of policy success. Moreover, researchers should specify their dependent variables even further. What kind of mobilization (for example, through organizations, through the development of particular identities, or through protest activities) do you want to explain? What kind of outcomes (for example, acceptance or new advantages; Gamson [1975]) do you want to explain? In sum, the first question reminds us that we should take McAdam's (1996, 31) advice seriously: "If we are to avoid the dangers of conceptual confusion, it is critical that we be explicit about which dependent variable we are seeking to explain and which dimensions of political opportunity are germane to that explanation."

The second question, *"Opportunities for whom?"* highlights that relevant factors might vary across issues and constituencies. For example, the openness of the political context for challengers might differ across policy subsystems. Differences might exist between subsystems with or without policy monopolies (Baumgartner and Jones 1993), as well as between high- and low-profile policy domains (Duyvendak and Giugni 1995). Openness might also vary depending on the rights of the claimants (for example, Ramos 2008). Based on this critique, the idea of more issue-specific opportunities and constraints has developed. The proponents of such issue-specific factors have also shifted the attention from political-institutional to "discursive opportunity structures" (Koopmans and Statham 1999a). According to Koopmans (2004a), such discursive opportunities influence the kind of collective identities and substantive demands that gain visibility, resonance, and legitimacy in the public

discourse. They constitute the sounding board of collective political mobilization. As Giugni (2009, 364) states, "What matters is not only the extent to which social movements face an open or closed institutional setting, but also the extent to which their claims and identities relate to prevailing discourses in the public domain." Thus, answering the second question involving "opportunities for whom" encourages research to move beyond general and purely institutional conceptualizations of the political context.

Moreover, Meyer (2004) stresses the question of *how opportunities work.* To move beyond correlations of opportunities and mobilization or political outcomes, he calls for a "more processural understanding of political opportunities" (138). This call has often been heard in recent social movement literature (for example, Karapin 2007; McAdam, Tarrow, and Tilly 2001; Tilly and Tarrow 2007). In that regard, one should not only disaggregate types of mobilizations or outcomes, but also the times and the actors involved in contentious interactions. The term *process* in the name of the approach should be taken seriously and should allow researchers to get closer to the mechanisms linking structure and agency. In this context, I stress two proposals that have been made to get closer to the processes taking place.

The first proposal is Kriesi et al.'s (1992, 1995) conceptual framework, which also inspired my simple model of political change. This framework includes the stable and more dynamic elements of the context faced by challengers (see also Kriesi 2004). More specifically, the authors distinguish between three sets of variables: the general structural setting, the configurations of political actors, and the interaction context. The last two elements encompass the rather dynamic and agency-based elements of the political context, whereas the first refers to more stable features. Such an extended framework allows one to link different aspects of the political context and reintroduces "the complexity and nuance of the longitudinal studies," as Meyer (2004, 131) highlights. It shifts the attention from a too-rigid focus on political opportunity structures to the broader political context (for a similar suggestion, see Amenta et al. 2002).

For this book, it is most important that the electoral arena constitutes a major part of the actors' configuration. Even though the configurations of actors are partly determined by the more structural components, they can change quite quickly (for example, from one election to another). In the first place, the configurations of actors can be subdivided into the configuration of allies and the configuration of adversaries (for example, Jenkins 1995; Kriesi and Giugni 1995).[2] As della Porta and Diani (2006, 210–18) highlight, in the European context, the allies' side is mainly composed of political parties. On the adversaries' side, they distinguish more systematically between

"institutional" and "non-institutional opponents." In the terms used in this book, the former type of opponent is mainly found in the electoral arena, whereas the latter type refers to counter-movements within the protest arena, that is, to movements "that make contrary claims simultaneously to those of the original movement" (Meyer and Staggenborg 1996, 1631). Zald and Useem (1987, 247) used the attractive picture of *a closely and loosely coupled "tango of mobilization and demobilization" within and across political arenas.* "Closely coupled" refers to interactions between opposing camps that take place in the same arena, such as, for example, a demonstration and a counter-demonstration. In contrast, interactions are loosely coupled when they do not take place in the same arena, such as, for example, a demonstration against a legislative proposal. Thus, I agree with Meyer and Staggenborg (1996, 1632–33), who insist that such "opposing movements influence each other both directly and by altering the environment in which each side operates."

Taking into account adversaries within the protest arena and in the electoral arena is a first attempt to move beyond too static a focus on structural elements of the political context faced by challengers in the protest arena. Another idea that gets closer to processes taking place is the distinction between a "structural" and a "signal" model of political opportunities proposed by Meyer and Minkoff (2004). By introducing the two models, Meyer and Minkoff (2004, 1463) attempt to establish "to what degree activists are cognizant of changes in political opportunity." They want to see whether opportunities must be perceived in order to be seized. Some versions of the political process approach see activists as relatively rational actors who wait for signals from established political actors to start mobilizing (for example, Tarrow 1996, 1998). Other authors speak of an "optimistic bias" (Gamson and Meyer 1996, 286) of activists. In this spirit, activists "just keep trying and sometimes succeed in engaging a broader public" (Meyer and Minkoff 2004, 1464). Meyer (2004, 140) calls the former "strategic respondents" and the latter "consistent champions." To empirically assess the two models, Meyer and Minkoff (2004, 1470) distinguish between formal changes in rules and policies that affect political access and changes that "savvy activist entrepreneurs could read as invitations to mobilize." The former changes are labeled as structural; the latter as signaling elements of the political context. The authors claim that this allows us to come closer to the mechanisms linking opportunities and mobilization, insofar as we can assess whether "the signals sent by elite actors encourage mobilization, or whether structural changes in opportunity effectively allow ongoing efforts at mobilization to proceed further than they would under other circumstances" (Meyer and Minkoff 2004, 1464).[3]

To sum up, the political process approach stresses how various features of protest politics are influenced by the wider political contexts. However, the approach has been criticized because of its definitional sloppiness and encompassing nature. Answering such critics, I have focused on recent advances that attempt to be more precise in what is to be explained, move beyond too general and institutional opportunities, combine stable and volatile elements, and differentiate between structural features and more explicit signals sent out by established actors.

How to Incorporate the Recent Developments

The present book, which is firmly placed in the political process approach, also takes up the suggestions discussed so far. I now briefly explain how this will be done.

First, I try to clearly define my dependent and independent variables. As stated, *Protesting Culture and Economics in Western Europe* focuses on different features of the protest arena. Each chapter of Part II of the study deals with a different feature, which is systematically introduced at the beginning of the chapter. Furthermore, I develop new empirical indices to compare the structural settings of political mobilization across countries and, thus, allow other scholars to see how the six countries (and additional European states) are classified.

Second, this book includes both stable context factors and more dynamic aspects of the political context in its design. On the one hand, it focuses on the impact of the general setting of political mobilization, traditional and new cleavages in a cross-sectional way (for details, see chapter 3). On the other hand, it looks at the relationship between protest and electoral politics in a more dynamic way. As stated, the electoral arena is the main territory of political parties, which are major players in the configuration of actors faced by challengers in the protest arena. Such a research strategy is still far from the empirical complexity of the interaction between all the actors that are involved in and influence protest politics (Rucht 2004). At the same time, it is one step further in understanding the dynamic processes taking place across different political arenas.

Third, *Protesting Culture and Economics in Western Europe* takes into account both the configuration of power and more discursive and issue-specific aspects of electoral politics. The former, rather general aspects are often incorporated into quantitative studies of protest politics (for example, electoral strength and government participation).[4] In addition, the book covers the issue-specific contents raised in the electoral arena. In my opinion, such issue-specific claims or discursive opportunities are more explicit and unambiguous *signals*

of established political actors than formal changes in the balance of power brought about by election results. Using Meyer and Minkoff's (2004) terms, I classify these substantive aspects, therefore, as elements signaling the political context, whereas the formal aspects are more structural elements, and movement participants must find it harder to interpret them. Meyer and Minkoff (2004, 1468) classify a Democratic president as both a signaling and structural element of the political context because it "may represent both an actual increase in elite support and a signal that opportunities for activism are favorable." It may be better, however, to separate the two aspects more strictly. In this sense, the breakthrough of a party political ally in the electoral arena is a signal only when the ally explicitly advocates the goals of the challenger.

Only a few studies have, so far, incorporated the salience of issues in electoral politics as discursive opportunities for protest politics—for example, through parliamentary votes (Soule et al. 1999), parliamentary hearings (King et al. 2007; Soule et al. 1999), presidential speeches (Meyer and Minkoff 2004), mass media public claims (Giugni 2008; Koopmans et al. 2005), or party manifestos (Rucht and Volkens 1998). Rucht and Volkens's (1998) study of Germany is closest to this one: the authors focus on the relative salience of various issues in protest politics on the one hand, and party manifestos on the other (relying on Comparative Manifestos Project [CMP] data; see the Introduction). However, most of these studies are restricted to single-issue fields and/or countries. Furthermore, many studies focus only on the allies' side, and not on the adversaries' side (see van Dyke 2003). This book takes up these points by comparing issues and countries as well as by systematically looking at allies and adversaries in the electoral arena.

As highlighted in this section, adherents of the political process approach agree on the question of whether protest politics is related to its wider political context. A definitive "yes" is the preferred answer to this question. The question of how different arenas are related is more contested, however. Therefore, the final section of this chapter presents three different theses on the relationship between protest and electoral politics.

Congruence, Counterweight, or Different Logics?

In general, conceptual discussions on the directional nature of the relationship between protest politics and electoral politics are rare (but see van Dyke 2003). Early conceptual accounts focused on the interaction between specific movements and political parties as different "organizational forms for pursuing political ends" (Garner and Zald 1987, 312). In this context, authors tried to overcome the strict division of labor between movement and party research (for example, Kriesi 1986; Rucht 1987). Recently, McAdam and Tarrow (2010,

2013) have again urged researchers to overcome the rather "movement-centric" focus of most social movement scholarship by turning to the relationship between electoral politics and movement politics.

In this book, I also shift attention from specific movement–party relationships to the more general question of how the ebbs and flows of claims and actors in one political arena influence their presence in other arenas. More specifically, I introduce three different theses: the congruence, counterweight, and different logics theses. On an abstract level, the three theses suggest how the claims made in one arena (in my case, the electoral arena) might tell us something about the issues and positions raised in the other arena (in my case, the protest arena). The congruence thesis and the counterweight thesis do not take into account the idea that protest politics might be "both an alternative and a valuable supplement" (Goldstone 2003, 9) to other modes of mobilization, however. Therefore, a number of authors have criticized such simple models and emphasized different variables that might influence the directional nature of the relationship between protest and electoral politics (for example, della Porta and Rucht 1995; Kriesi 1995; Maguire 1995; van Dyke 2003). This book emphasizes that the political orientation of the actors involved might be another key variable explaining the various relationships between protest politics and electoral politics.

The Congruence Thesis: The "Positive" Standard Model of Social Movement Research

The congruence thesis postulates a simple positive correlation between protest and electoral politics, and this is still the most common starting point for recent studies on the relationship between protest mobilization and its political context. Stated simply, the more contested and salient an issue in the electoral arena becomes, the more it should give rise to protest activities. For example, the very informative study by Soule et al. (1999, 244) of the women's movement in the United States starts with a positive-sum relationship as the main expectation of how roll call votes can be "taken as signals of openness" by protest actors. In their empirical analysis, the authors find positive and negative relationships, depending on whether they focus on insider or outsider events and whether they focus on the House of Representatives or the Senate. They interpret this as "mixed support for political opportunity arguments" (Soule et al. 1999, 248). However, these are not mixed results for the political process approach in general, but only for the congruence thesis more specifically.

But how can we explain this positive correlation between the two sites of mobilization? For example, Tarrow (1989, 1990, 1998, 71–90) has suggested a number of reasons for the positive correlation. The approach argues that

controversy between established political actors increases the likelihood of sustained mobilization of protest. Divided elites, influential allies, and shifting political alignments—above all, a sense of electoral instability—constitute opportunities for political protest (see McAdam 1996). In liberal democracies, all of these aspects are closely interwoven with electoral politics. Thus, (1) if parties emphasize a certain issue or are divided over it, (2) if an influential party political ally supports a certain demand, or (3) if party politics becomes increasingly volatile, the likelihood that the issue will give rise to protest politics increases. In short, the congruence thesis expects a positive-sum relationship between electoral and protest politics. The latter type of mobilization is seen "chiefly as a response to growing hopes for change" (della Porta and Diani 2006, 218), and the claims and actors in the electoral arena are regarded as most explicitly indicating these hopes.

McAdam and Tarrow (2013, 332) clarify the argument by referring to substantive and psychological reasons that explain the positive-sum relationship between electoral and protest politics: "Substantively, those to whom the party in power owe electoral debts can be expected to enjoy more institutional access and responsiveness than opposition groups, encouraging them to mobilize; and psychologically, being on the political margins tends to demoralize and eventually encourage demobilization." For this reason, they go on to state that the congruent "waxing and waning of movement fortunes in connection with electoral alignments is exactly what the political process perspective would predict. Progressive left movements can be expected to flourish during periods of liberal institutional politics, while the right should be ascendant when conservatives hold institutional power." The pivotal point in the electoral arena (that is, national elections) shapes the longer-term ups and downs of protest politics because elections serve as "the symbol and vehicle of these institutional transitions" (McAdam and Tarrow 2013, 332).

The Counterweight Thesis: The "Negative" Counterargument

The counterweight thesis argues against this positive correlation between mobilization in the protest arena and in the electoral arena. It expects, instead, that protest and electoral politics move in opposite directions: the more contested and salient an issue becomes in the electoral arena, the less salient it is expected to become in the protest arena. Piven and Cloward (1977, 15–16) are among the most forceful adherents of this view, stating that in liberal democracies "ordinarily, defiance is first expressed in the voting booth." From their perspective, electoral politics "serves to measure and register the extent of the emerging disaffection." People will resort to protest mobilization only if their changing voting patterns have no effect. The researchers base their

argument on the assertion that "people have been socialized within a political culture that defines voting as the mechanism through which political change can and should properly occur." This is why issues that are already salient and controversial in electoral politics are less likely to become a main goal of action in the arena of protest politics.[5]

Recently, Koopmans et al. (2005, 187) have underscored the negative relationship between electoral and protest politics by focusing on the different forms of political mobilization that a collective actor (in their case, the extreme right) may take, that is, either party or extra-parliamentary mobilization. As certain claims become more important in one political arena, the other arena becomes a less viable alternative. Based on a spatial model of political behavior, Koopmans et al. (2005) state that the political space made available to certain claims in the protest arena depends on the positions put forward by political parties in the more institutional arenas (see also Giugni et al. 2005; Koopmans 1996a; Minkenberg 2003). The more salient and polarized an issue is in electoral politics, the less favorable are the conditions for protest mobilization on its behalf. In addition to the available political space, these authors explain the amount of protest activity by pointing to resource restrictions (Koopmans 1996a; Koopmans et al. 2005).

The Different Logics Thesis: Challengers from the Left and Challengers from the Right

The different logics thesis argues that the direction of the relationship between the two arenas differs with respect to the political orientation of the actors involved (see also Hutter 2012; Hutter and Kriesi 2013). More specifically, I argue that challengers from the left obey a different logic to challengers from the right. For the political left, I expect that the *more* salient the claims they put forward become in the electoral arena, the *more* salient these claims become in the protest arena as well. For the political right, I expect the opposite: the *more* salient their claims in electoral politics, the *less* often they give rise to protest mobilization.

There are not many studies dealing with the question of why the relationship of electoral politics and protest politics might depend on political orientation. Before the 1980s, the prevailing image of protesters was that they were powerless outsiders. For Lipsky (1968, 1144), for example, protesters lacked both conventional political resources and any sort of group cohesion. Thus, protest action was regarded as both "a political resource" (Lipsky 1968) and a way by which challenging groups were able to develop shared understandings and some sort of collective identity (see also Taylor and van Dyke 2004, 270). In their seminal article "Two Logics of Collective Action," Offe and Wiesenthal (1980) rely on a similar argument to explain why the powerless

(in their case, the workers) tend to rely on mobilization outside of institutionalized channels, while other collective actors (in their case, the capitalists) do not "need" to do so. "It is only the relatively powerless who will have reason to act nonindividualistically on the basis of a notion of collective identity that is both generated and presupposed by their association" (Offe and Wiesenthal 1980, 78). They relate this to the workers' interests, which "are exposed to structural ambiguities, and . . . require a collective discourse for their articulation and an ongoing dialogical pattern of communication between leaders and those whom they represent in order to become 'true'" (94). The authors expect the mode of participation in the electoral arena to be too individualistic and built on chains of representation that are too long to articulate the "true" preferences of workers. Thus, unions depend on dialogical forms of political participation, and need to simultaneously enter different political arenas to advance their claims. By contrast, business associations can rely solely on more institutionalized and representative political arenas.

Critics have argued that Offe and Wiesenthal (1980) exaggerate the different interest structures of capitalists and workers and that they neglect the role of historically contingent processes (for example, Roy and Parker-Gwin 1999; Schmitter and Streeck 1999). Thus, we have to turn to less structural and less ahistorical explanations of the fact of different logics being present on the left and the right. In the following, I suggest an explanation that emphasizes the value orientations and the strategies of the actors involved.

First, it is significant to note the legacy of the wave of political change that swept across Western Europe in the 1970s and early 1980s (see chapter 1). This both put cultural liberalism onto the agenda and increased the general salience of the protest arena for articulating political conflicts (Kitschelt 1993; Nedelmann 1984). Protest politics was not simply part of the action repertoire of the driving forces of the round, but part of the message itself. Thus, Snow et al. (2004, 4) argue that a major consequence of the movements from the late 1960s on was that they "pushed open the doors to the streets wider than ever before." In addition, I argue that these left-libertarian movements reinforced the general dominance of the libertarian left in Western European protest arenas which had existed since the 1950s. Unfortunately, not many quantitative studies cover the period following the end of the Second World War. But all available studies show that left-wing positions on economic issues and libertarian positions on cultural issues are far more salient than opposing views (Fillieule 1997, 241; Koopmans and Rucht 1995; Kriesi et al. 1981; Rucht 2003; Soule and Earl 2005, 356).

In addition, I suggest that the close link between the libertarian left and protest politics, on the one side, goes hand in hand with a close link between

the populist right and representative democracy on the other. Although the populist right fights for the common man and is highly critical of the political classes and of representative democracy, it mostly uses the channels of electoral politics. The populist radical right insists on the primacy of the people over the elite, but it portrays itself as representing the "general will" of the people and mainly relies on representative channels of mobilization. This "political paradox of the populist right" (Deiwiks 2009; Taggart 2002) can be explained with strategic and value-based factors.

First, I think the political paradox is part of a strategy of double differentiation. Populist right leaders and followers try to set themselves apart from their adversaries on the left, who are viewed as "chaotic" protesters (Haider 1993, 19–20; Le Pen 1984, 54–55, 69–70). Unfortunately, studies of the populist radical right focus on its general relationship to (representative) democracy (Mudde 2007). Its relation with protest politics is hardly ever addressed. From biographies of its most prominent representatives in the six countries covered (Christoph Blocher, Jörg Haider, and Jean-Marie Le Pen) and newspaper articles, the evidence shows strong opposition to the ideas and legacy of the protests associated with 1968. Jörg Haider rejected such activities most forcefully, and Christoph Blocher too takes a rather critical stance. Interestingly, protest events (co-)organized by the Swiss People's Party (SVP) are labeled as marches or manifestations to explicitly avoid the term *demonstration*—used to characterize their opponents' actions (NZZ *[Neue Zürcher Zeitung]* 1995; Skenderovic 2009). Jean-Marie Le Pen's critique of protest politics is less forceful, perhaps because of the French political context or Le Pen's own "student activism" (Marcus 1995, 30). More research is needed here, however. At the same time, populists try to set themselves apart from the extreme and neofascist right, not only for historical, but also for more practical reasons. If those who openly advocate the most right-wing and racist ideologies take part in protest events organized or supported by populist right parties, then the populists run the risk of being equated with them (Minkenberg 2003).

More important, I think that the different strategies are ultimately rooted in the basic *value-orientations* of the adherents and leaders. As Kriesi (1993, 250) argued in his study on the Netherlands, the affinity of the left to protest politics "reflects past alliances and mobilization efforts" while being "ultimately rooted in common political values and common structural locations." Rebels on the right tend to have authoritarian and materialist values and prefer (orderly) conventional political action over (disorderly) protest politics, while rebels on the left tend to share libertarian and postmaterialist values, which predispose them toward unconventional protest politics. For *both* the challengers on the left and on the right, the "medium is the message," that is, the choice

of the channel through which they express themselves seems to also be an expression of their underlying messages. Let me briefly elaborate on this point by referring to survey research.

Flanagan and Lee (2003), in their comparative analysis of authoritarian-libertarian value change in the twelve largest and most affluent Western nations, find differing orientations toward political involvement between authoritarians (who tend to be closer to the right) and libertarians (who tend to be closer to the left). Authoritarians are joiners of conventional groups in essentially equal proportions with libertarians. However, they are not as likely to join political action–oriented groups. Authoritarians have a more parochial and less cosmopolitan outlook on politics and, above all, they have a much lower protest potential than libertarians. Similarly, Gundelach (1998) explains individual involvement in four types of protest activities (signing petitions, attending lawful demonstrations, taking part in boycotts, and occupying buildings), what he calls "grass-roots activity," mainly in terms of value orientations characteristic of the left. In the twelve European countries that he analyzes, he finds that social or political libertarianism and postmaterialism were associated with grassroots activity, and postmaterialism turned out to be most important in stimulating such activity. Kriesi's (1993, 223–54) more detailed results for the Netherlands show that adherents of the left in general, and of the New Left in particular, shared the antiauthoritarian and emancipatory values of the new social movements.

There are two more relevant results from Flanagan and Lee (2003): they show that libertarians exhibit higher levels of organizational membership but are no more likely to perform unpaid voluntary work in the organizations to which they belong than authoritarians are. Moreover, authoritarians are vastly more likely to perform voluntary work out of a desire to be of service to others, while the motivations of libertarians seem to be more self-serving. Libertarians seem to prefer less continuous, more task-specific, more individualistic forms of political involvement—such as those provided by public protesting, while the more traditional forms of political involvement provided by party politics seem to correspond more to the worldviews of authoritarians. Similarly, Inglehart (1977, 2008) relates the positive relationship between postmaterialist values and protest activities, among others, to their issue-oriented and elite-challenging character.

Recently, van der Meer, van Deth, and Scheepers (2009, 15) have once again shown that left-wing citizens are more likely to turn to protest activities than their counterparts on the right in all the twenty Western democracies that they studied during the early 2000s.[6] Dalton, Van Sickle, and Weldon (2010) find a significant effect of postmaterialism and left-wing ideology on

protest behavior in their eighty-seven-nation study based on the World Value Survey (WVS) (wave 1999–2002). Using multilevel models, the authors reveal that both the effects of left-right self-placement and postmaterialist attitudes are magnified by the democratic and economic development of a country. More specifically, the effects are most pronounced in established and affluent democracies (measured by the World Bank rule of law index and gross domestic product [GDP] per capita, respectively) (Dalton et al. 2010, 69)—that is, countries like those on which this book focuses.

Overall, this argument suggests reasons why we should find different logics at work for challengers from the left and challengers from the right in the interplay of different political arenas. For the political left, I expect a positive correlation of salience across arenas. The more salient the left's claims in the electoral arena, the more salient these claims become in the protest arena as well. For the political right, I expect the opposite: the more successful the right is in electoral terms, the more it abstains from protest activities.

Summary

This chapter has dealt with yet another part of my simple model of political change, namely the political process. To begin with, five key differences between the protest arena and the electoral arena were introduced: the mode of political participation (vote versus protest), the main collective actors (political parties versus social movement organizations), the main sites of mobilization ("street" versus legislature), and the degrees of institutionalization and of issue linkage (high versus low). These differences highlight where and how one needs to look to empirically study the two arenas. The second part of the chapter focused on the relationship between the two arenas. More specifically, I summarized recent developments in the political process approach, which most explicitly deals with the relationship between protest activities and the broader political context. This study attempts to incorporate some of these developments, among others, by focusing on the electoral arena as a more dynamic aspect of the political context and by including issue-specific signals sent out by political parties. Finally, the chapter introduced three theses on how the claims made in the electoral arena might tell us something about the issues and positions being raised in the protest arena. The congruence thesis, which is still the standard model of movement research, posits a positive relationship (that is, openings in established political arenas lead to protest mobilization which advocates similar claims). The counterweight thesis argues the opposite: protest politics acts as an alternative for those groups and issues that have not yet entered electoral politics. By contrast, the different logics thesis introduces the political orientations of the actors involved as a key

explanatory variable. More precisely, this thesis assumes that there will be a positive relationship between protest and electoral politics on the left and a negative relationship on the right. Because we know that the initiative for restructuring Western European politics has shifted from the political left to the political right, this might be a key factor when explaining the differing impact of the new integration–demarcation cleavage on the two main arenas of mass mobilization.

Although it is important to take into account more dynamic aspects of the political context faced by protestors, I think we should not lose sight of the more stable aspects. Therefore, the next chapter empirically assesses the way four relatively stable contextual factors differ across the six countries.

3

The Context Faced by Challengers: Institutions, Prevailing Strategies, and Cleavages

This chapter is devoted to the question of how the political context faced by protestors differs across the six countries under scrutiny. More precisely, we turn to the hard core of the political process framework: *the political opportunity structures* (see Figure 3 in the Introduction). These structures are "expected to remain relatively stable, at least in the mid, if not necessarily in the long run" (Diani and van der Heijden 1994, 368) and to influence the way new cleavages manifest themselves in the protest arena of a given country. As stated in the previous chapter, focus on such relatively stable elements of the political context has been criticized.[1] Although not denying these objections, I still regard such context factors as valuable starting points for cross-national research. Moreover, focusing on political opportunity structures has proved useful in other research fields, too (for example, research on public debates [for example, Dolezal, Helbling, and Hutter 2010; Koopmans et al. 2005], on populist right parties [for example, Arzheimer 2009], and on associational involvement [for example, Morales 2009]). However, Meyer and Minkoff (2004, 1460) argue that it is not just that different elements are subsumed under the same label but that it is often unclear even how other political process analysts would apply the same categories to other cases. To answer such critics, I systematically conceptualize and operationalize the context factors not only for the six countries under scrutiny in this book but also for additional European states, thereby viewing the six cases from a larger comparative perspective.

In this book, I follow Kriesi et al.'s (1995) approach by focusing on the institutional structure of the political system and the informal strategies of political elites in dealing with challengers, on the one hand, and on the strength

of traditional and new cleavages in institutionalized political arenas, on the other. The former two context factors are most likely to influence the level of mobilization and the action repertoire used by protestors; the latter are more likely to affect the issues and demands being raised in the protest arena. Following this distinction, this chapter is divided in two main sections. In the first section, I propose a new index for assessing the state institutional strength and review recent work related to the concept of prevailing strategies. In the second section, I present an assessment both of the strength of the traditional class cleavage and of how forcefully the new cleavages have restructured electoral politics.

Institutional Settings and Prevailing Strategies

Since Eisinger (1973) introduced the term "political opportunity structures," movement scholars have mainly emphasized the degree of openness of political systems to conceptualize the institutional setting of political mobilization. That is, authors try to differentiate between structures that provide many access points and structures that make access difficult (for example, Kitschelt 1986). As stated, this book adopts the framework of Kriesi et al. (1995), who rely on Badie and Birnbaum's (1979) distinction between weak and strong states.[2] The institutional structure of strong states limits access options and makes the state capable of getting things done. By contrast, weak states are far more open to their environment and have only a limited capacity to act. Thus, the two distinguishing features are (1) autonomy vis-à-vis the environment and (2) the state's internal structure (see also Chazel 2007).

A New Index to Measure Institutional State Strength

I propose a new quantitative index to measure state strength. The index is inspired by two recent studies. The first is Kriesi's (2007a) comparison of the performance of weak and strong states. The other is Morales's (2005, 2009) work connecting state structures to organizational membership in Western Europe. Although both studies far more rigorously operationalize institutional structures than is usually done in social movement research, they do *not* cover the full array of conceptual dimensions emphasized by Koopmans and Kriesi (1995) in their discussion of state strength: (1) the general structural parameters, (2) the parliamentary arena, (3) the administrative arena, and (4) the direct-democratic arena. I suggest an index covering all these dimensions to assess the institutional setting faced by challengers in the protest arena. Let me briefly sum up each dimension and the specific indicators used:

General structural parameters are not restricted to a specific political arena. Here, I look at the degree of territorial centralization and functional power

sharing. Both aspects increase the number of access points and decrease the capacity of any actor to act. The two aspects are measured by Lijphart's (1999) federal-unitary dimension and Tsebelis's (2002, 2009) index of government agenda control.

In the *parliamentary arena,* access depends both on the number of political parties and their unity (Kitschelt 1986, 63). The number of political parties is related to national cleavage structures and the electoral system. For example, proportional systems facilitate access for challengers, as the threshold to enter the parliamentary arena is lower and the number of potential allies is thus higher than in majority systems. The first concept is measured by the effective number of parties. Party unity is measured by the Rice index of party cohesion, which indicates differences in voting behavior within individual parties (ranging from 0 to 100).

In the *administrative arena,* formal access and the capacity to act are mainly determined by the power of the administration. With the French master case in mind, Badie and Birnbaum (1979) emphasize bureaucracy, whose power is defined by its resources, coherence, internal coordination, and professionalization. To determine the administration's capacity, an index proposed by Schnapp (2004) is used. The index measures the administration's political influence potential. However, in the administrative arena, not only the administration's power but also the established system of interest intermediation determines how accessible the state is to (new) challengers. Therefore, Koopmans and Kriesi (1995, 31) argue that "a well-resourced, coherently structured, and professionalized system of interest groups may also be able to prevent outside challengers from having access to the state." Most often authors distinguish between pluralist and corporatist systems. Here, I rely on Siaroff's (1999) condensed index of corporatism to get closer to the "porousness of the interest-representation" system.

In the *direct-democratic arena,* both the availability and type of direct-democratic instruments matter for challengers. Instruments that can be initiated by nongovernment actors and a minority of voters are more likely to provide additional access points (Birnbaum 1988, 183; Kriesi and Wisler 1996). To measure this aspect, a new index of direct-democracy proposed by Vatter (2009) is used. Vatter's index includes different kinds of direct-democratic instruments (for example, ad hoc, mandatory, and optional referenda, as well as popular initiatives) and measures both formal decision rules and the practical use of the different instruments.

Based on these aspects, I calculate two overall indices by standardizing all the different measures and giving the same weight to the different conceptual dimensions emphasized by Koopmans and Kriesi (1995). Since most

of the measurements are already composite indices, the countries differ widely, and the standardization does not overemphasize small differences. Two overall indices are calculated, since the corporatism index is not very closely connected to the initial conceptual discussion of Badie and Birnbaum (1979), who focused more closely on the state and especially the administration. One index includes the corporatism measure, while the other excludes it.

Table 2 shows the values for all dimensions and indicators used to assess state strength. Furthermore, the table provides information on the ranking of the thirteen countries (1 "strongest" state to 13 "weakest" state). As the results in Table 2 show, the rank order based on the four dimensions varies considerably, indicating that we must cover all the different arenas and parameters to get closer to the multidimensional character of the institutional context faced by protestors. Unsurprisingly, Badie and Birnbaum's (1979) French master case is the strongest state examined if we exclude corporatism from the overall index. Based on this index, Portugal ranks second, followed by the United Kingdom and Ireland. If we turn to the index including corporatism, the United Kingdom, Norway, and Ireland show slightly higher values than France (ranked fourth). Austria also ranks among the first half of the thirteen countries based on both overall indices. Switzerland, by contrast, is the weakest of all the European states covered. This confirms Badie and Birnbaum's (1979) argument that Switzerland has neither a center nor a state. Germany and the Netherlands, that is, the other two countries covered in this book, are intermediate cases. Overall, the Dutch case leans more toward the weak states than Germany. This confirms Koopmans and Kriesi's (1995, 37) descriptive accounts of the institutional setting faced by challengers in the four countries covered by their study (that is, France, Germany, the Netherlands, and Switzerland), and it also confirms how they classified their illustrative examples, Austria and Britain.[3]

Prevailing Strategies: Inclusive versus Exclusive

However, the access of challengers might depend not only on the formal institutional setting but also on more informal preconditions. Focusing on both sides of structural arrangements is a common feature of neoinstitutional approaches. In his analysis of full-employment strategies, Scharpf (1984, 260), for example, speaks of dominant strategies as being an "overall understanding, among those who exercise power, of a set of decision premises integrating world-views, goals, and means." Thus, such dominant strategies refer to informal premises of procedure and shared understandings emerging from the policy process and guiding the actions of the authorities. Based on the work of Scharpf, Koopmans and Kriesi (1995) introduced the concept of "prevailing

Table 2. State strength in thirteen European countries

	General institutional context				Parliamentary arena				Administrative arena				Direct-democratic arena		Overall index			
	Liphart's federal-unitary dimension		Tsebelis's index of government agenda control		Effective number of parties**		Rice's index of party cohesion		Schnapp's index of administrative political influence		Siaroff's condensed index of corporatism		Vatter's index of direct-democracy**		Excluding corporatism		Including corporatism	
	-	rank	-	rank	*N*	rank	%	rank	-	rank	1 to 5	rank	0 to 12	rank	-	rank	-	rank
UK	*1.19*	*1*	*0.690*	*1*	*2.20*	*1*	*99.25*	*4*	*–0.72*	*13*	*1.58*	*11*	*0.0*	*1*	*0.39*	*3*	*0.46*	*1*
Norway	0.65	5	–0.063	6	3.61	8	95.90	9	0.10	7	4.92	2	0.0	1	0.22	7	0.38	2
Ireland	0.42	6	0.519	2	2.76	3	100.00	1	0.42	5	2.05	10	2.0	10	0.56	2	0.37	3
France	*0.17*	*8*	*0.333*	*3*	*3.54*	*7*	*99.33*	*3*	*0.79*	*1*	*1.46*	*12*	*1.0*	*7*	*0.68*	*1*	*0.34*	*4*
Austria	*–1.08*	*11*	*–0.044*	*5*	*2.72*	*2*	*98.68*	*6*	*0.57*	*3*	*5.00*	*1*	*2.0*	*10*	*0.23*	*6*	*0.27*	*5*
Portugal	0.70	4	0.147	4	3.33	5	-	-	0.08	8	1.00	13	0.5	5	0.39	4	0.19	6
Belgium	–0.21	9	–0.170	11	5.49	12	99.06	5	0.60	2	2.75	9	0.0	1	0.26	5	0.08	7
Germany	*–2.53*	*13*	*–0.126*	*8*	*2.84*	*4*	*96.33*	*8*	*0.44*	*4*	*3.31*	*8*	*0.0*	*1*	*0.11*	*8*	*0.03*	*8*
Sweden	0.79	3	–0.427	12	3.52	6	96.57	7	–0.46	12	4.81	3	1.5	9	–0.34	11	–0.05	9
Netherlands	*–0.35*	*10*	*–0.527*	*13*	*4.68*	*9*	-	-	*–0.31*	*10*	*4.27*	*4*	*0.5*	*5*	*–0.33*	*10*	*–0.12*	*10*
Denmark	0.38	7	–0.106	7	5.11	10	99.93	2	–0.08	9	3.58	5	3.0	12	–0.31	9	–0.22	11
Finland	0.83	2	–0.148	10	5.17	11	88.63	11	–0.42	11	3.46	6	1.0	7	–0.62	12	–0.46	12
Switzerland	*–1.61*	*12*	*–0.135*	*9*	*5.57*	*13*	*91.88*	*10*	*0.31*	*6*	*3.37*	*7*	*7.5*	*13*	*–1.23*	*13*	*–1.27*	*13*
Mean (*N* = 13)	–0.05		–0.004		3.89		96.87		0.10		3.20		1.5		0.00		0.00	
Standard deviation	1.09		0.350		1.17		3.65		0.47		1.36		2.1		0.47		0.54	
Mean (*N* for all countries)	0.00 (*N* = 36)		0.000 (*N* = 18)		3.27 (*N* = 36)		97.14 (*N* = 17)		0.00 (*N* = 18)		2.65 (*N* = 24)		2.1 (*N* = 24)					

Note: The ranking runs from 1 ("strongest" state) to 13 ("weakest" state). The overall index is calculated as the mean of all standardized indices. For the overall index, all four subaspects are given the same weight and the indicators with stars (**) have been multiplied by –1, so that higher values always indicate a stronger state. The six core countries covered by the present study are highlighted in italics. Sources: Lijphart (1999, 312) for federal-unitary dimension and effective number of parties, 1971–96; Tsebelis (2002, 104; 2009, 16) for governmental agenda control; Depauw and Martin (2008, 105) for party cohesion in ten countries, 1990s; Gallagher (2005, 560) and Heidar (2006) for qualitative information about party cohesion in the Netherlands, and Leston-Bandeira (2009) about party cohesion in Portugal; Schnapp (2004, 322) for the political influence of the bureaucracy, 1990s; Siaroff (1999, 198) for the condensed index of corporatism; Vatter (2009, 140–41) for the index of direct democracy, 1997–2006.

strategies" to the study of social movements. Prevailing strategies refer to the kind of strategies authorities usually employ when dealing with challengers. Koopmans and Kriesi distinguish between inclusive and exclusive strategies. A strategy of exclusion is characterized by repression and tends to lead to a polarization of conflicts, while a strategy of inclusion tries to incorporate challengers and might lead to a moderation of conflicts.

Other scholars also argue that aspects related to the national political culture affect the activities of challengers in the protest arena (for example, della Porta 1996; Flam 1994), and similar concepts have been used in other research fields. Schofer and Fourcade-Gourinchas (2001), for example, show that the number and types of associations depend on both institutional access options and the conceptions of statehood and society prevalent in a given country. At the same time, several authors have criticized Koopmans and Kriesi (1995), asserting that the strategies used when dealing with challengers are far less stable and general than they assumed. Rootes (1999, 82) argued that "whilst 'the predominant patterns' of such strategies may indeed be 'deeply embedded,' their employment is more contingent or conjunctural."[4] Despite being aware of time- and issue-specific differences, in this book, I still attempt to assess the very general strategies of political elites that prevail in a given country, and to see whether and how they are related to the empirical patterns found in the protest arena (especially in chapter 4). However, the concept is far more difficult to operationalize than the institutional structure of political systems. Unfortunately, developing a rigorous quantitative index measuring prevailing strategies across a wide range of European countries is beyond the scope of this book. Thus, I rely on the existing literature to roughly categorize the six core countries covered by here.

To begin, it is of significance that these prevailing strategies have a long history and are linked to a country's institutional structure (Kriesi 2004, 71–72). Thus, we can turn back to the institutional structure and to the way older conflicts were resolved to get closer to the prevailing strategy in a given country. In general, authorities in consensus democracies are more likely to rely on integrative strategies than are authorities in majoritarian systems. In consensus democracies, the tendency to rely on integrative strategies is often the result of experiences with the resolution of religious conflicts. These conflicts had torn these countries apart for centuries, but their resolutions provided models for dealing with political challengers for centuries to come. Switzerland and the Netherlands are two good examples of this constellation. Although the specific strategies for the resolution of religious conflicts differed (federalism versus pillarization), both countries relied on inclusive strategies. By contrast, exclusive strategies tend to be more common in majoritarian

systems (or countries with an absolutist past). Gallie (1983), for example, traces the repressive reactions of French authorities to the labor movement protests after the First World War back to the earlier experience of repressing the Parisian Commune in 1870.

More recently, Bartolini (2000) published a comprehensive study on how repression by state authorities differed across Western Europe during the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries and how this influenced the mobilization of the labor movement at that time. To assess the degree of repression, he focused on how much states restricted fundamental liberties: freedom of the press, the freedom to associate, and the freedom to strike. According to Bartolini (2000, 312–34), the six countries covered here can be categorized as follows: The Netherlands, Switzerland, and the United Kingdom belong to the group of countries with low levels of repression, while Austria, France, and Germany to that with rather high levels of repression.

Another way to examine the prevailing strategy is to look at the main conceptions of statehood and state–society relations prevailing in a given country. Again, this aspect refers to institutional logic (and not the manifest institutional setting). Following Jepperson (2000, 2002), societies differ from one another mainly in the organization and location of political sovereignty. In his detailed study, he combines two dimensions ("statism" and "corporateness") to arrive at a fourfold classification. The concept "statism" can be seen as the ideational supplement to institutional state strength and comes closest to the notion of prevailing strategies in which I am interested. It refers to a continuum between two ideal types: a centralized and totally autonomous state apparatus at one end and a totally decentralized form of political power within an active and organized society at the other. According to Jepperson, the six countries under scrutiny here can be categorized as follows: Britain, the Netherlands, and Switzerland are less "statist" than Austria, France, and Germany.

Thus, in both Bartolini's (2000) study of the European left and Jepperson's (2002) work on institutional logics, the six countries are classified similarly. As Britain and Germany illustrate, the institutional setting does not necessarily correspond to the traditionally employed strategies in dealing with challengers. As Koopmans (1995b), in his detailed study on Germany, highlights, the institutional structure of the Federal Republic was rebuilt after 1945, but the strategies used to respond to new challengers were still marked by the past (especially those of the Weimar Republic). More specifically, Koopmans (1995b, 65) argues, in the context of the country's self-image of a militant democracy *(wehrhafte Demokratie),* "The West German

political elites compulsively sought to keep any trace of extremism from the political stage." Britain is the most opposite example, because British challengers face a rather facilitative prevailing strategy in a strong state. As shown by Gallie (1983) and Bartolini (2000), the British authorities reacted with integrative measures to the political challenge posed by the labor movement, and British politics is still characterized by a focus on cooperation and integration. As Jordan and Richardson (1982, 81) underscore, British policy making tends to "emphasize consensus and a desire to avoid the imposition of solutions on sections of society." Thus, in Britain, formal strength is used with a certain informal restraint (Berrington 1984).

However, prevailing strategies are not set in stone. The Austrian case forcefully illustrates that prevailing strategies are far from historically predetermined and fixed. Based on past experiences, Austria would be classified as following an exclusive strategy (see previous). However, after the Second World War the Austrian authorities explicitly broke with the past (Hanisch 1994), and nowadays the Austrian political culture is primarily characterized by a strong consensus orientation that can also be seen when studying challengers in the protest arena (Dolezal and Hutter 2007, 339–40). Similarly, the prevailing strategies in the other countries are not immutable. For example, Rucht and Roth (2008, 660) are absolutely right when they argue that protest activities have also become "normalized" in Germany in the past couple of decades. This is especially apparent when considering the decisions of the German Federal Constitutional Court (for a detailed case study, see Quint 2008). In its Brokdorf decision (May 1985), for example, the Federal Constitutional Court explicitly recognized the role of peaceful demonstrations as a vital part of democracy, and its Sit-in decision (January 1995) even decriminalized a main form of civil disobedience used by peace activists of the 1980s.

Unfortunately, a systematic comparative study of changes in prevailing strategies is missing from the literature—and far beyond the scope of this book. Although it is important to take this into account, I still classify the countries based on the information provided previously. To sum up the discussion on institutional factors and prevailing strategies, I divide institutional state strength into three categories (weak-intermediate-strong) and prevailing strategies into two categories (inclusive versus exclusive). Doing this, we see that this book covers five out of the six possible combinations: Austria and Britain (strong states with an inclusive strategy), France (strong state with an exclusive strategy), Germany (intermediate state with an exclusive strategy), the Netherlands (intermediate state with an inclusive strategy), and Switzerland (weak state with an inclusive strategy).

The Strength of Old and New Cleavages

So far, I have focused on very general context factors that might mainly affect the level and forms of mobilization in the protest arena. Now, I examine how the strength of old and new cleavages varies across countries. Note that the impact of the new integration–demarcation cleavage on protest politics is the major dependent variable of this book, and protest events are the most obvious candidates for assessing the cleavage's salience in this arena (see part II). Therefore, in this chapter, I focus on (1) the strength of old cleavages and (2) the way the new cleavages on the rise since the 1960s have restructured more *institutionalized* political arenas. Both might be crucial context factors to explain cross-national differences in the way new cleavages manifest themselves in the protest arena.

But how can we measure the strength of a given cleavage? According to Bartolini and Mair (1990), closure and salience are the two key aspects in this regard. Closure refers to the question of how segmented and internally integrated the social groups constituting a cleavage are. Salience, by contrast, indicates the degree to which a certain conflict structures political action. Because measuring cleavage strength in general and closure in particular is rather difficult (see Lachat 2007; Stoll 2008), I mainly look at salience to assess the strength of traditional and new cleavages.

The Strength of the Traditional Class Cleavage

Before assessing the strength of traditional cleavages, let me answer the question of why we should care about traditional cleavages when studying the emergence of new conflicts. Following Rokkan (2000), traditional cleavages limit the space for the mobilization of new political potentials (see also Bartolini 2000, 411–501; Brand 1985, 322–23; Kriesi and Duyvendak 1995; Lipset and Rokkan 1967, 51). More specifically, the strength of traditional cleavages might restrict political mobilization linked to new social divides for at least three reasons.

First, if traditional collective identities still help social groups to interpret their environment, they diminish the room for the establishment of new collective identities. Furthermore, these traditional identities preclude the successful framing of new actors, which depends on a favorable discursive context (for example, Koopmans and Statham 1999a; Snow and Benford 1988; Snow et al. 1986).

Second, if traditional organizations still allocate most of their resources (for example, money, time, and commitment) to potential participation in collective action, they make it difficult for new collective groups to mobilize

their own resources for sustained collective action (for example, McCarthy and Zald 1977).

Third, if allies in the institutionalized system are still heavily engaged in traditional conflicts, they are not very responsive to new societal demands. In turn, it is less likely that new alliances between challengers and established political forces will be formed. Such allies are, however, an important condition for the emergence of strong and sustained protest mobilization.

This book focuses on the strength of the *traditional class cleavage,* because it is the most ubiquitous traditional cleavage in Western Europe (Bartolini 2000, 10). Furthermore, it was the most proximate cleavage with respect to the left-libertarian round, as both the Old and the New Left competed for very similar constituencies (see Alber 1989; Kriesi 1993). With respect to the right-populist round, we can make very similar statements, because parts of the working class are also expected to be highly affected by globalization and to be the main social group supporting the populist right (for example, Oesch 2008).

For the traditional class cleavage, I assess its strength in institutionalized and noninstitutionalized terms. Three indicators are used to assess the institutionalized strength of the traditional class cleavage: net union density (Ebbinghaus and Visser 2000), the Thomsen index of class voting (Nieuwbeerta and De Graaf 1999), and the salience of traditional left–right issues in party manifestos (Keman 2007; Keman and Krouwel 2006).[5] These measures indicate the organizational density, political encapsulation, and the salience of the traditional class cleavage in institutionalized political arenas. Institutional strength is high if people are attached to one of its key organizations (that is, unions), if they tend to vote in line with their traditional class location, and if political parties still compete over the main issues linked to this divide. By contrast, strike activity is used to measure the cleavage's strength outside of institutionalized political channels. More specifically, I rely on the number of working days lost per one thousand workers (International Labour Organisation [ILO]). This indicator was available for all six countries throughout the research period.

Figure 9 presents the strength of the traditional class cleavage in eleven European countries during the 1960s and 1970s. The correlation coefficient indicates that the two measures are only weakly related to each other ($r = 0.23$) (see also Bartolini 2000, 305). Thus, we can identify four different groups of countries. Germany, the Netherlands, and Switzerland are located in the bottom left-hand corner, as they were and are characterized by a very open and pacified class cleavage in institutionalized and noninstitutionalized terms. Although the class cleavage was no longer very salient in noninstitutionalized

terms in Austria, it was still very salient in institutionalized terms, which is indicated by high rates of union membership, pronounced class voting, and party conflicts over traditional left–right issues. In fact, Austria ranks highest on this dimension when one excludes those Scandinavian countries with a Ghent system of unemployment insurance (Denmark, Finland, and Sweden), which is known to boost union membership (for example, Scruggs 2002). By contrast, France is located in the bottom right-hand corner. In France, strike activity was comparatively strong in the 1960s and 1970s, but the impact of the class cleavage on electoral politics and union membership was limited. Finally, in Britain, we observe a strong class cleavage both in institutionalized and non-institutionalized terms.

Although I expect that the situation at the beginning of my research was important for the breakthrough of new challengers from both the left and

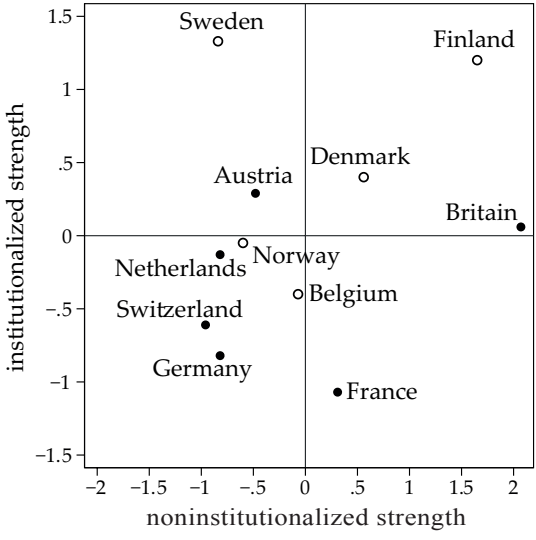


Figure 9. The strength of the traditional class cleavage during the 1960s/70s. R= *0.28 (*N = *11). Institutionalized cleavage strength is a composite index of (1) net union density 1965 and 1975, (2) the Thomsen index of class voting 1961–79, and (3) the salience of traditional left–right issues in party manifestos 1960–79. Noninstitutionalized cleavage strength is measured as working days lost because of strikes per 1,000 workers 1960–79. All indicators are standardized.*

the right, the old class cleavage has decreased in importance since the 1970s. Comparing the situation in the 1960s and 1970s with that of the 1980s and 1990s, one observes that the class cleavage has become weaker in all countries in the combined measure of union density, class voting, and left–right salience in party manifestos. Concerning strike activity, only two out of the eleven countries show increasing levels (Sweden and Norway) (results not shown).

The Institutionalized Strength of New Cleavages: The Two Rounds Compared

In the following, I assess how forcefully the cleavages associated with the left-libertarian and right-populist rounds have restructured institutionalized politics. Regarding the left-libertarian round, the most prominent "offspring" in electoral politics are Green parties. This can be seen when looking at the supply of Green parties and their electors (for example, Dolezal 2010). Thus, a first measure of the round's institutionalized strength is the vote share of Green parties (measure 1). Apart from the Greens, a number of other organizations that advocate cultural liberalism and other new social movement issues emerged. This is taken into account by looking at the share of people belonging to human rights, women's, peace, or environmental organizations (measure 2). A further measure of the institutionalized strength of the left-libertarian round is the salience of cultural liberalism in party manifestos (measure 3).[6] All measures refer to the situation in the 1980s.

As the label suggests, populist right parties are the main parties linked to the right-populist round. Again, we see this when looking at their programs and voters. Thus, a first measure refers to the vote share of new or transformed populist radical right parties (measure 1).[7] Furthermore, I look at the salience of the two globalization issues emphasized by the populist radical right: Europe and immigration. This takes into account cases in which established parties absorb the new potentials brought about by globalization. Again, the Comparative Manifesto Project (CMP) data are used to put the six countries into a larger comparative context. With these data, measuring the salience of European integration is quite easy, because two clear-cut categories measure the share of positive and negative statements about Europe in party manifestos (measure 2). Unfortunately, assessing the salience of migration-related issues is more difficult. Ultimately, the salience of multiculturalism (measure 3) is used. Even though the category is more restricted, it is the best proxy available for immigration in the manifesto data (Keman and Krouwel 2006, 28). Here, the focus is on the institutionalized strength of the right-populist round during the 1990s and early 2000s.

To assess the institutionalized strength of the two rounds, the different measures were standardized and an average calculated. As can be seen from

Figure 10, this average institutionalized strength of the two rounds is not systematically related. This casts doubt on the notion of the right-populist round being a direct counter-revolution to the left-libertarian round, as suggested by the reverse new politics argument (chapter 1). If we look at the six core countries, we see that Switzerland and Britain constitute the most opposite cases. Both the left-libertarian and right-populist rounds shook up institutionalized politics in Switzerland. The British case, by contrast, is characterized by below-average values for both rounds. Austria and France are located

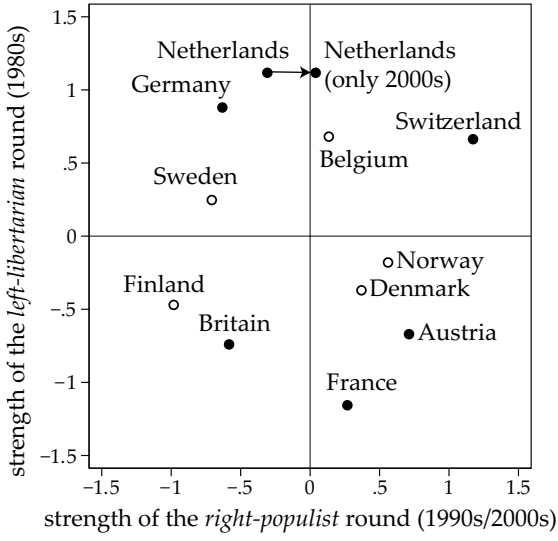


Figure 10. Institutionalized strength of the left-libertarian and right-populist rounds. R = *−0.06 (*N = *11). The institutionalized strength of the left-libertarian round is measured by (1) the vote share of Green parties, 1980–89, (2) the share of members in human rights, women's, peace, and environmental organizations, and (3) the salience of cultural liberalism in party programs, 1980–89. The institutionalized strength of the right-populist round is measured by (1) the vote share of populist radical right parties, 1990–2005, (2) the salience of European integration in party programs, 1990–2003, and (3) the salience of immigration in party programs, 1990–2003. All indicators are standardized.*

in the bottom right-hand corner. Although the left-libertarian round was "underdeveloped," both countries are witnessing a comparatively strong right-populist round—at least in its institutionalized form. Germany shows a completely different pattern. The left-libertarian round was comparatively strong; the right-populist round has been comparatively weak. Finally, the Dutch case is located close to the German one. As the right-populist round is still ongoing, I have examined whether a country changes its position when we compare the 1990s with the early 2000s. This is only the case for the Netherlands. Although the Dutch case resembled the German one in the 1990s, it moved closer to the Swiss case in the early 2000s (see Figure 10), illustrating that the Dutch right-populist "challenge . . . was rather slow in coming" (Kriesi and Frey 2008a, 154).

Linking the Traditional Class Cleavage with the Strength of New Cleavages

Finally, I link the strength of the traditional class cleavage to the strength of the new cleavages in institutionalized arenas. This should allow the formulation of even more precise expectations on how the contents of protest politics might differ across countries (part II of this book). As stated before, researchers mainly suggest a zero-sum hypothesis: the stronger traditional cleavages are, the less likely new political potentials are being mobilized in a given country. Thus, the stronger the traditional class cleavage is, the weaker the left-libertarian and right-populist rounds are expected to be. However, della Porta's (2007a, 236) comparative study on the global justice movement suggests a counter-hypothesis; she expects that globalization conflicts will revitalize "a social cleavage that had appeared as tamed, if not pacified." Thus, she expects comparatively strong protests on global issues in countries with a traditionally strong class cleavage.

To test these competing hypotheses, Figure 11 groups the countries in below- and above-average cleavage strength. At first sight, the findings in Figure 11 again support the zero-sum hypothesis, because no country can be found in the upper left-hand or bottom right-hand boxes. Thus, whenever the class cleavage is comparatively weak, at least one of the two turns is comparatively strong. Regarding the left-libertarian round, the zero-sum hypothesis is supported by nine out of the eleven countries covered. Thus, countries with a comparatively strong class cleavage (in its institutionalized and/or non-institutionalized form) witnessed a more forceful left-libertarian round in the 1980s (see della Porta and Rucht 1995; Kriesi and Duyvendak 1995). This holds true for all six countries under scrutiny. The results are less clear-cut for the right-populist round. The zero-sum hypothesis is only supported in seven out of the eleven cases. Three of the core countries (Austria, Britain,

Traditional class cleavage strength	Institutionalized strength of the left-libertarian round and of the right-populist round			
	Both below average	Right-populist above average	Left-libertarian above average	Both above average
Below average	-	Norway	*Germany*	*Netherlands* *Switzerland* Belgium
Above average	*Britain* Finland	*Austria* *France* Denmark	Sweden	-

Note: The six core countries covered by my study are highlighted in italics. The strength of the class cleavage is based on the average of the institutionalized and noninstitutionalized strength (see Figure 9).

Figure 11. The traditional class cleavage and the two rounds of Western European politics.

and Germany), as well as Denmark, do not support it. In Germany, a pacified class conflict is not linked to a comparatively strong right-populist round. In Austria and France, the right-populist round is strong despite (or even because of) a traditionally strong class cleavage.

To conclude, the zero-sum relationship between the traditional class cleavage and the *institutionalized* strength of the left-libertarian round captures the situation during the 1980s nicely. The pattern for the right-populist round is less clear-cut (neither supporting the zero-sum hypothesis nor the revitalization hypothesis). On the one hand, this might be because of the declining strength of the traditional class cleavage. On the other hand, we should keep in mind that institutionalized politics is only part of the story. This picture might change when we cover protest politics as well.

Summary

This chapter has focused on four rather stable features of the context faced by protestors. By focusing on institutional state strength and the prevailing strategies in dealing with challengers, the present study closely mirrors Koopmans and Kriesi's (1995) four-country study. However, I have introduced a new quantitative index to measure state strength and made use of recently published work on the strategies that prevail in dealing with challengers. The results highlight that this book covers different combinations of institutional state strength and prevailing strategies. Switzerland and France are the most opposite cases: a weak state with an inclusive strategy versus a strong state with an exclusive strategy. By contrast, Austria and Britain are examples of strong

states relying on an inclusive strategy. Germany and the Netherlands are intermediate cases regarding the institutional setting. However, in Germany, the authorities traditionally relied on a more exclusive strategy, while the Dutch elites favored cooperation and inclusion. It needs to be seen whether these differences are (still) related to different levels of mobilization and action repertoires in the protest arena.

In addition, the strengths of both traditional and new cleavages were introduced as context factors that might mainly affect the contents raised in the protest arena. Again, I developed quantitative measures to show how the contexts faced by challengers vary across a broader sample of European countries. With respect to the six countries covered in part II of this book, three were still characterized by a rather salient class cleavage during the late 1960s—that is, Austria, Britain, and France. By contrast, Germany, the Netherlands, and Switzerland were characterized by a comparatively weak class cleavage. We can observe the same groups of countries when we turn to the impact of the left-libertarian round on institutionalized politics: weak in the first group and strong in the second. Thus, the present chapter has confirmed the zero-sum relationship between old and new conflicts when looking at the left-libertarian round in the 1980s. However, we cannot observe this close relationship for the right-populist round. In Austria, France, Switzerland, and the Netherlands, the right-populist round has been comparatively strong in institutionalized terms, while it has been comparatively weak in Britain and Germany.

Part II of this study systematically links these context factors with the different features of protest politics (ranging from mobilization levels via issue divides to the actors involved in protest events).

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II
Empirical Analyses of Protest Politics

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4

A New Protest Wave in the Age of Globalization?

This chapter commences the second part of the book, on whether and how protest politics in Western Europe has changed because of a rise of a new integration–demarcation cleavage. Part II, which consists of four chapters, empirically traces developments in the protest arena. Each chapter focuses on different features of protest politics. As stated in the Introduction, conflict intensity and transnationalization are the features discussed in this chapter, while chapters 5 and 6 are devoted to the issue divides in the protest arena. Studying these features seems crucial because manifest *conflicts over core issues* linked to a given cleavage are key indicators for tracing the strength of cleavages (Bornschier 2010a). Furthermore, focusing on the transnationalization of protests allows us to test the claim that the conflicts brought about by globalization are most likely to be articulated and mobilized at the national level (Kriesi and Grande 2004). Finally, chapter 7 turns to the relationship between protest and electoral politics to elaborate on the differing patterns of change found in the two arenas. The relationship is traced by looking at issue salience and positions, as well as by comparing the activities of political parties in the two arenas. Details of the protest event data used to empirically study the (changing) landscape of political protest in Western Europe can be found in Appendix A.

The chapter deals with two features that have become crucial to social movement research in recent years: changes in conflict intensity (traced by the development of protest waves) and the scope of protests. As della Porta and Tarrow (2005a, xiv) observe, recent scholarship has reacted to "what appears to be a new cycle of protest at the global level." With respect to conflict

intensity, my major hypothesis is that if the restructuring force of the new integration–demarcation cleavage is as powerful as assumed (and as shown in terms of electoral politics), then we should witness major waves of mobilization in the protest arena, too. There is much empirical evidence for a wave in the early 1980s in many Western European countries. The same is not yet the case with respect to developments since the 1990s. Although many scholars speak of a new protest wave (for example, della Porta 2007c; Moghadam 2009; Podobnik 2005), its strength is still contested—in absolute terms, in comparison to earlier waves and across countries.

Regarding the scope of protest, we must remember that "modern social movements developed with the creation of the nation-state, and the nation-state has for many years been the main target for protest" (della Porta and Tarrow 2005b, 1). As argued in chapter 1, globalization induces not only new political potentials in Western European societies but also leads to multiple and diverse new structures of governance beyond the national level. Thus, the "target structure" (Almond 1958, 278) of political mobilization has changed. Although most authors agree that nation-states as sites of mobilization have by no means become obsolete, there is still no agreement on the extent and the main forms of the transnationalization of protest. This book contributes to the literature by assessing how salient specific forms of transnationalization have become and by comparing transnationalization across issues (for example, Balme and Chabanet 2008; della Porta and Caiani 2009). This helps to assess whether the rise of the integration–demarcation cleavage is related to an increasing transnationalization of political conflicts.

The chapter is structured as follows. It begins by focusing on the general salience of the protest arena for articulating political conflict. The second section is then devoted to the number and the timing of protest waves in Western Europe from 1975 until 2005. Thus, the discussion shifts to the ebbs and flows of protest mobilization. Protest waves, however, are more than just shifts in the number of people involved in protest events. Therefore, I introduce a new composite measure that takes into account the various features common to any protest wave. The third section examines the extent to which protest politics has gone transnational in the age of globalization, as well as how the extent and forms of transnationalization differ across issues. The final section concludes the chapter by summarizing its main findings and relating them to the larger research question.

Level and Forms of Mobilization in a Comparative Perspective

I start with a brief note on the national electoral arena. The mobilization levels in this arena vary immensely across countries, which is apparent when one

compares turnout rates. The average turnout in national elections was 70.5 percent in the six countries during the 2000s. Yet it ranged from only 47.2 percent in Switzerland to 80.5 percent in Austria. By drawing from Jackman's (1987) pioneering study, subsequent researchers have mainly explained the relatively stable cross-national variations in turnout through the institutional factors (for example, electoral systems, unicameralism) that increase the salience and competitiveness of elections (compare Blais 2006, 2007). At the same time, voter turnout is relatively stable over time in a given country (Franklin 2004).

Turning from electoral politics to protest politics, the question is whether cross-national differences are also as consistently linked to the general structural setting of political mobilization discussed in the previous chapter. Again, the number of people involved in protest activities seems a good indicator for comparing mobilization levels in this arena of mass politics. However, mobilization levels in the protest arena appear to be less stable over time, and vary even more across countries than electoral turnout does. For example, the European Social Survey (ESS) data for the early 2000s show that the share of respondents who took part in legal demonstrations was 3.8 times higher in the country with the highest share (14.2 percent in France) than in the country with the lowest share (3.4 percent in the Netherlands) of all six countries under scrutiny. The results are based on rounds 1 to 3 of the ESS. The shares for the other countries are 4.3 percent (Great Britain), 6.3 (Austria), 7.4 (Switzerland), and 8.7 (Germany).

Regarding *institutional context factors,* della Porta and Diani (2006, 205) conclude their review by stating, "Institutional arrangements do not appear to have much weight in relation to levels of mobilization . . . , since this appears to be more sensitive to contingent circumstances than to structural variables." Based on survey data, Balme and Chabanet (2008) and Morales (2009) have also shown that institutional context factors have only limited effects on protest levels. In contrast to these studies, Koopmans and Kriesi (1995) based their four-country study on protest event analysis (PEA) and found that the structural setting is closely related to mobilization levels and action repertoires for the years 1975 to 1989. The authors conclude, "The aggregate level of mobilization increases with the weakness of the state and the inclusiveness of elite strategies, and will be highest where both combine" (46). Similarly, Nam (2007) relies on the European Protest and Coercion Data (EPCD) and finds that a weak legislature (associated with a strong state) is positively related to the protest level in Western countries.

In view of the general setting of political mobilization discussed in the previous chapter, Koopmans and Kriesi (1995) would suggest that the six

countries covered by this book should differ as follows: the Swiss context (a weak state with an inclusive strategy) is expected to be the most facilitative for political mobilization and to offer relatively high success chances for challengers. The bulk of the strong mobilization, however, should fall upon moderate action forms and upon more institutionalized arenas. France is expected to be the opposite. As Koopmans and Kriesi (1995, 43) argue, "The French situation of exclusion clearly constitutes the most unfavorable setting for social movements. Lack of facilitation and success chances will lead to a relatively low aggregate level of mobilization." In addition, the action repertoire is expected to be the most radical, because the French state provides less access chances and opportunities for social movement organizations (SMOs) to institutionalize than other countries do. Austria and Britain, in contrast, are characterized by strong states that rely on inclusive strategies. Such states are fairly closed, capable of acting, and tend to incorporate challengers by offering (often informal) access to more institutionalized arenas. We should thus observe the lowest levels of mobilization in Austria and Britain. Germany and the Netherlands are intermediate cases with respect to state strength, and they differ in their prevailing strategies. As argued in chapter 3, Germany has traditionally relied on a quite exclusive strategy. The Dutch have followed a strategy of subsidization and co-optation. Overall, the German protest arena should thus be closer to the French arena, and the Dutch protest arena should be closer to the Swiss one.

Let us now examine these expectations by relying on the protest event data used in this book (see Appendix A). Are the levels and forms of mobilization (still) closely related to the structural setting of a given country, as suggested by Koopmans and Kriesi (1995)? Or do the empirical findings (which now cover more countries and years) support researchers who refute such a close relationship? To answer this question, I rely on the number of protest participants per million inhabitants. First of all, Figure 12 underlines that a large number of people have participated in protest events. This indicates the general salience of the protest arena for articulating political conflict in Western Europe and underscores its importance in a cleavage analysis. Furthermore, the general salience varies greatly across countries. The number of participants per million inhabitants is three times higher for the most "contentious" country (France) compared to the least "contentious" one (Great Britain). More specifically, Figure 12 indicates two groups of countries when looking at the *overall* mobilization level: France, Switzerland, and Germany, on the one side, with very high mobilization levels, and the Netherlands, Austria, and Great Britain with rather low levels on the other.[1]

When excluding events that call for the lowest level of involvement (that is, petitions and political festivals), Figure 12 tends to support Koopmans and

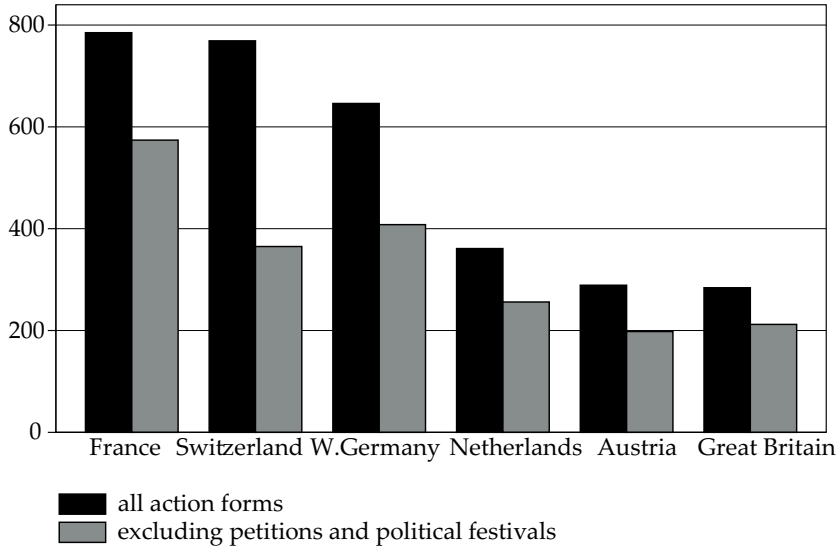


Figure 12. Protest participants per million inhabitants, 1975–2005 (in thousands). The absolute number of participants is divided by the number of inhabitants in the year 1990.

Kriesi's (1995) expectations. Switzerland changes its relative position most markedly. The figure drops from around 770,000 to around 370,000 participants per million inhabitants. Like Germany, Switzerland becomes an intermediate case. The French are far more involved in demonstrations and confrontational protests than are all the others. Thus, the strong French state, with an inclusive strategy, is characterized by the highest level of mobilization with respect to the more "unconventional" action forms. As expected, the level is lowest in Austria and Britain for both measures.

At the same time, the differences are not as strong as expected, and some countries do not fit the pattern. For example, the Netherlands is not an intermediate case situated between France and Switzerland. Instead, the Dutch level of mobilization comes closer to those of Austria and Britain. These mixed findings are even more apparent if we compare the period 1975 to 1989 with the period 1990 to 2005 (results not shown). This comparison shows that protest politics is a persistent phenomenon. The number of events coded per year for the latter period is roughly the same as for the late 1970s and 1980s, and the average number of people involved is even increasing over time. However, although stable or increasing levels of protest mobilization are observed in five of the six countries, the Dutch mobilization level decreased tremendously

over time. It is almost four times lower during the later period, and by far the lowest of all six countries covered. This demonstrates that although the rather stable structural setting of political mobilization does influence the levels and forms of mobilization, the relationship is far from deterministic, and other more contingent circumstances seem to play a role too (see also Balme and Chabanet 2008; Morales 2009).

Tracing Protest Waves

So far, we have seen that the protest arena is a major site of political conflict and that its salience varies immensely across countries. Next, we turn to the question of whether Western Europe saw new waves of protest in the 1990s or whether massive protests were a phenomenon confined to the period from the late 1960s to the early 1980s. New protest waves would indicate that protest politics might be affected by the rise of the new integration–demarcation cleavages. Before presenting the empirical findings, I discuss how one can identify protest waves and introduce hypotheses on how the strength of the waves might vary cross-nationally. Note that the present discussion focuses on the relative strength of the two waves *within* a given country. More detailed hypotheses on how the salience of new issues might vary *across* countries can be found in chapter 6, which focuses on the issue divides from a comparative perspective.

A Composite Measure and Country Hypotheses

Following Tarrow (1998, 142), a protest wave is defined as "a phase of heightened conflict across the social system." By reviewing Tarrow's (1989, 1995a, 1998) and Koopmans's (1993, 2004b) studies, one can identify four key features of such waves. First, a protest wave is characterized by an increasing and then decreasing number of interrelated collective actions and reactions. Such collective actions are not restricted to protest activities in the streets. Nonetheless, protest events are a major part of any protest wave. Second, protest waves extend over a longer period of time. Third, protest waves expand beyond single movements or policy fields and affect most of the national territory (or even transcend national borders) (compare, White 1995). Fourth, protest waves transform contention and bring about changes in different areas (for example, frames, issues, alliance structures, identities) that arise from dynamic interactions. This underlines the fact that without pronounced ups and downs in mass mobilization, one can hardly speak of a protest *wave*. At the same time, these various features of protest waves illustrate that the phenomenon cannot be traced using just one indicator. This is why I rely on a composite measure that covers all four features of a protest wave: peaks in mobilization levels, conflicts across the social system, transformations of contention, and temporal extent.

Again, I focus on the strength of the traditional class cleavage to form expectations of how visible the two waves might be within a given country. As shown in chapter 3, the left-libertarian round's new issues and organizations could establish themselves very firmly in *institutionalized* arenas in countries where the class cleavage was peaceful and open. Furthermore, many authors have shown that the wave of protest in the 1980s was strongest in countries with weak traditional class conflict (for example, della Porta and Rucht 1991; Kriesi and Duyvendak 1995). In the other group of countries, the old class cleavage was still a very powerful shaping force of individuals' loyalties and actions, and in those countries, pronounced protest waves in the late 1970s and early 1980s were not observed. This is the so-called *zero-sum hypothesis*. I will test this hypothesis on an extended sample of six Western European countries.

However, for our purposes, the key focus is on the consequences that the strength of the traditional class cleavage might have on the emergence of new protest waves since the 1990s. Here, we can formulate the following two hypotheses. If it is correct that the second round is a counter-reaction to the first round, we can expect that countries with a peaceful class cleavage saw both a strong first wave and a strong new wave starting in the 1990s *(reverse new politics hypothesis).* In contrast to this expectation, other scholars argue that since the 1990s a traditionally strong class cleavage could well be linked to more vigorous protest mobilization. The new political potentials should revitalize old class-based conflicts (della Porta 2007a). Thus, countries with a strong class cleavage are expected to show no major waves during the early 1980s, but major waves since the 1990s *(revitalization hypothesis).*

Empirical Findings: How Many Protest Waves?

Figure 13 presents how the averages of the composite measure developed from the mid-1970s to the mid-2000s across the six Western European countries. The composite measure is operationalized as indicating whether

1. We observe above-average rates of protest participants and events in a given year (for years when the magnitude of protest events or participants is above the average of the thirty-one-year period, we assign a value of 1; the most contentious year is coded as 2).
2. We observe peaks in numbers both of protest participants and of events on various protest issues. This takes into account the fact that a protest wave has to expand beyond a single movement or policy field (if more than one issue out of twenty-two issues peaked in a year, the year is coded as 1; the year when the most issues peaked is coded as 2).

3. "New" issues peaked in a given year. Although conflict over new issues is only one aspect of protest politics, the rise of new issues (or frames) tends to be a major transformative moment that is common to all protest waves. More specifically, I look at the new issues related to the left-libertarian and the right-populist rounds (if the main issues of either round peaked, the year is coded as 1).
4. The wave extends over a longer period of time and does not only reflect relatively short-term ups and downs in mobilization (for this purpose, moving averages are calculated). The figure shows the overall average for all six countries.

Figure 13 shows the yearly averages as well as a three-year moving average. The moving average accounts for the fact that protest waves should extend over longer periods of time and we should not overemphasize short-term ups and downs in mobilization levels. First of all, the figure indicates that, on average, the six countries saw the most clear-cut protest wave in the early 1980s. This confirms much empirical evidence of a wave of protest in many Western European countries in the early 1980s (for example, Kriesi et al. 1995; Rucht 1994). Second, the figure also suggests that there was some remobilization during both the early 1990s and the early 2000s. However, the later wave seems less pronounced than that of the early 1980s (as indicated by the higher moving averages). Thus, the results tend to support (and simultaneously

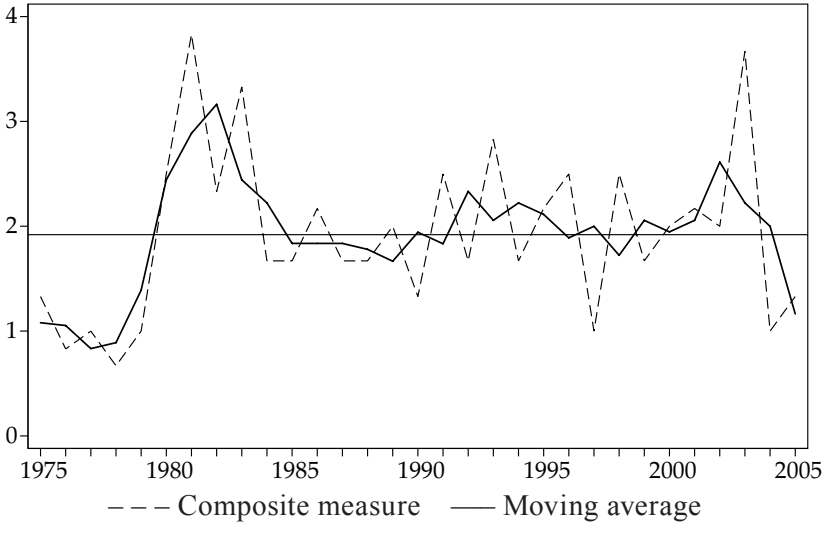


Figure 13. Composite measure of protest wave (overall average).

moderate) the claim that a new wave of protest has swept across Europe since the 1990s (for example, della Porta 2007c; Moghadam 2009; Podobnik 2005).

There is, however, considerable variation once we look at the six countries individually. First, Figure 14 confirms the earlier findings that the protest wave in the 1980s was strongest in countries where the class conflict was peaceful and no longer shaped political loyalties and actions. Accordingly, the earlier wave was most pronounced in Germany, the Netherlands, and Switzerland, and least pronounced in France. Second, the new wave is not only weaker than the first one, its size and timing are also more variable. Thus, the Netherlands saw no new wave at all. In France, by contrast, major waves took place after the 1990s (Tartakowsky 2007, 314). The other four countries saw protest waves of variable size both during the early 1980s and later on. However, the timing of the later waves varies considerably: In Austria, France, Germany, and Switzerland, the new waves had already emerged during the early 1990s. In Britain, the main remobilization took place during the late 1990s. These country-specific patterns of variation in Figure 14 neither support the revitalization hypothesis (which argues that the new conflicts linked to globalization revitalize the old class-based struggles), nor the reverse new politics hypothesis (according to which the new waves constitute a right-wing reaction to the left-libertarian waves of the 1970s and 1980s). However, we need to focus more closely on the issues of protest to systematically test these hypotheses (see chapter 5).

When looking at the composite measure, four out of the six countries have seen waves of protest since the 1990s. This highlights that protest politics

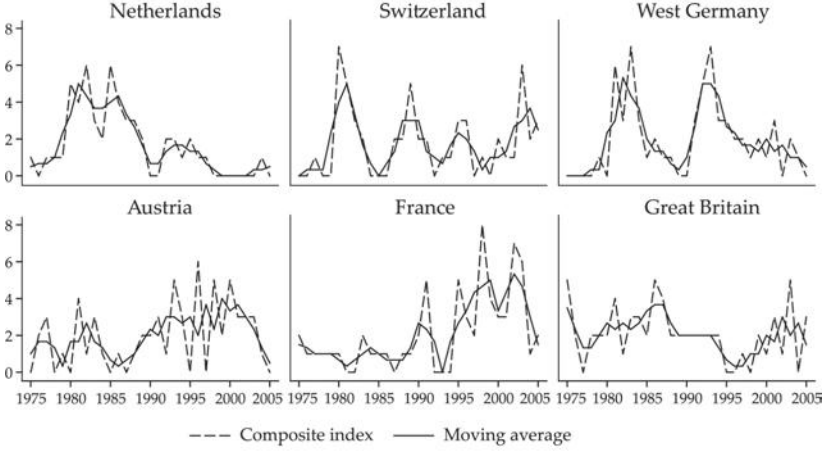


Figure 14. Composite measure of protest waves by country.

is in flux across Western Europe in the age of globalization. However, when turning to the issues of protest politics, we need to find out whether these waves are linked to the new globalization conflicts and are therefore clearly related to the rise of an integration–demarcation cleavage in Western Europe. First, however, we turn to the questions of whether the articulation of political conflicts has become more transnational in Western Europe in the age of globalization or whether the new conflicts brought about by globalization are still mainly fought within national boundaries, as suggested by Kriesi and Grande (2004).

Going Transnational?

Can we observe an increasing upward scale shift in the various dimensions of protest politics over time? What forms of transnationalization are on the rise? Are the conflicts over issues that are linked to the new integration–demarcation cleavage more likely to be transnationalized than other issues? Summarizing the literature, Uggla (2006) identifies two conflicting views on the transnationalization of protest. Although some authors argue that "globalization occasions substantial shifts in the demands and targets of contentious actions, others see the strategic transformations attributed to economic and political globalization as more limited" (Uggla 2006, 51). The former school of thought regards "states and domestic political institutions [as] no longer the dominant targets of political protest" (Ayers 2002, 202). The latter stresses that spectacular transnational events (for example, the "Battle of Seattle") constitute only exceptions to the general rule of national or subnational protest politics (for example, Rucht 2000, 2002). Similarly, Kriesi and Grande (2004) argue that the new political potentials brought about by globalization are most likely to be articulated at the national level, because political rights remain almost exclusively attached to the nation-state and the heterogeneity of the new potentials makes it difficult to mobilize the new social groups across countries.

What does empirical research tell us about these two conflicting views? For some answers we can turn to research on the Europeanization of protest, which uses quantitative studies that assess the relative importance of transnationalized protests. Until the mid-1990s, Tarrow (1995b, 224) observes, "the lack of attention to grassroots collective action in the emerging European polity is puzzling." For the following years, however, a Europeanization of protest politics, that is, a European dimension of issues, addresses, and/or actors, has been treated by various studies (for example, Balme and Chabanet 2008; Balme et al. 2002; della Porta and Caiani 2009; Imig and Tarrow 2001a; Reising 1999; Rucht 2000, 2002; Uba and Uggla 2011).[2] Overall, quantitative protest studies show that (1) only a limited transnationalization

or Europeanization of protest politics takes place, (2) national actors and institutions are the main addressees of protest mobilization, even for protests over transnational issues, and (3) transnational events tend to be linked to a more moderate action repertoire.

The Degree and Forms of Transnational Protests

Empirically, transnationalization can be charted with the help of four indicators. The first indicator is the level to which the protesters address their demands. The second indicator distinguishes transnational issues from national issues. I define transnational issues as those affecting the international situation as a whole (for example, global climate change), relating to another national context (for example, peace in another country), or involving international cooperation or competition (for example, European integration, development aid, arms buildups, international competitiveness).[3] The third indicator takes into account whether newspapers report protest events that take place in a foreign country but are linked to a national event. The fourth indicator allows us to see whether people from other countries are reported as having been present at an event. The first and the second indicators refer to what I call the "thematic transnationalization of protest." These are available for the whole research period. The third and the fourth indicators refer to the organizational side of a given protest event and are available only for the most recent updates of the data set. Overall, the four indicators are able to trace the most visible signs of transnationalization that newspapers reported. Unfortunately, less obvious and gradual forms of transnationalization are not covered by the available information (see Tarrow 2005, 33).

Table 3 shows the average share of transnational events and participants by decade. The table includes information on all four indicators separately as well as on the combined measures. For the latter, an event was categorized as transnational if it met at least one of the criteria. For example, an event is treated as transnational in thematic terms if the protestors either address a transnational target or focus on a transnational issue. Focusing on the first two indicators reveals that the late 1970s are the least transnationalized period covered by this book. Since those years, the share of transnational addressees and issues has risen. The early 2000s are characterized by the highest share of protest events and participants that target an addressee beyond the national level. During this period, more than 20 percent of all coded events address a transnational institution or actor, and around 25 percent of all reported participants were involved in these events. We observe a similar share of events on transnational issues, and the share of protestors involved in such events even rises above 30 percent. However, when looking at the transnational scope

of the issues, one notices that the most transnational period is the 1980s, followed by the early 2000s.

If we compare the thematic aspects with the organization aspects, the former are more transnationalized than the latter. Thus, domestic participants addressing transnational issues or addressees are more common than protest events that are linked across countries or attract participants from different countries. For example, 23.9 percent of all events were transnational in thematic terms in the period from 2000 to 2005, but only 8.4 percent were transnational in organizational terms. At the same time, note that all four indicators show that protest politics is more transnationalized in the early 2000s than in the 1990s. The share of participants in protest events that simultaneously take part in different countries increased the most (see Wood 2005). Thus, protest politics becomes more transnational in the age of globalization. But the bulk of protest mobilization still primarily demands actions from national or subnational bodies (for example, Rootes 2003b; Rucht 2000, 2002).

Della Porta and Tarrow (2005b, 7) argue that these general trends are not the most important trends to track. Rather, they feel it is crucial to monitor the rise of *transnational collective action,* which is defined as "coordinated international campaigns on the part of networks of activists against international

Table 3. Degree of transnationalization of protest politics

		1975–79 %	1980–89 %	1990–99 %	2000–2005 %
1 Addressee	Events	14.0	15.6	16.4	21.0
	Participants	13.1	19.1	13.7	24.9
2. Issue	Events	12.6	23.0	17.1	20.0
	Participants	10.3	41.8	21.3	33.8
3. Linkages	Events	-	-	3.9	4.9
	Participants	-	-	7.1	19.1
4. Participants	Events	-	-	3.1	4.0
	Participants	-	-	9.6	11.1
Thematic 1 or 2	Events	16.9	27.4	21.3	23.9
	Participants	16.2	46.4	23.9	37.7
Organizational 3 or 4	Events	-	-	6.7	8.4
	Participants	-	-	16.4	25.2
Overall 1, 2, 3, or 4	Events	-	-	25.5	28.6
	Participants	-	-	28.9	42.5

Note: The indicators used are described in the text. The average values for all six countries are reported. Indicators 3 and 4 are available from 1990 (A, D, F, GB, NL) and 1993 (CH), respectively. Excluding Switzerland for the 1990s does not significantly change the results.

actors, other states, or international institutions." To test this claim, I rely on the original typology proposed by Imig and Tarrow (2001c, 17) and combine the variables on transnational linkages (actors in a protest) and the level of the addressee (target of a protest). The authors distinguish purely domestic protests from domestication (transnational addressee), cooperative transnationalism (national addressee and transnational linkages), and collective transnationalism (transnational addressee and transnational linkages).[4] The latter category corresponds to what della Porta and Tarrow (2005b) call "transnational collective action."

Table 4 shows the distribution of the four forms in the years 1990 to 2005 when we have information on both variables. As can be seen, nearly 80 percent of all coded events are purely domestic protests, and these events involve around 70 percent of all reported participants. Based on the share of events, domestication (that is, a domestic actor addressing a transnational target) is the most important form of transnationalization. This confirms Imig and Tarrow's (2001b) findings on Europeanized protests (see also Bush and Simi 2001; Uba and Uggla 2011). At the same time, all forms of transnationalization are equally important when we focus on the share of participants. As the results in Table 4 indicate, around 8.2 percent of all participants are involved in domesticated protests; the shares are only slightly higher for cooperative transnationalism (10.5 percent) and collective transnationalism (9.3 percent). Furthermore, there is a certain shift away from routine domestic events toward transnational events from 1990 until 2005. In the period 1990 to 1994, 81.8 percent of all events and 79.7 percent of all participants are concerned with routine domestic events. The shares decrease to 75.4 and 65.1 percent for the period 2000 to 2005. As della Porta and Tarrow (2005b) anticipated, the share of collective transnationalism is on the rise. Only 5.5 percent of all protest participants took part in such events during the early 1990s, whereas their share increased to 15.3 percent during the early 2000s. Looking at events, one

Table 4. Forms of transnationalization, 1990–2005

		Target of the protest	
		Domestic	Transnational
Actors in the protest	Domestic	Routine domestic protest 79.3 (events) / 72.0 (participants)	Domestication 13.3 / 8.2
	Transnational	Cooperative transnationalism 3.3 / 10.5	Collective transnationalism 4.1 / 9.3

Note: Average values for all six countries are reported (as a percentage of all events and participants).

sees a more moderate increase: from 3.7 to 4.9 percent. Although transnational collective action is on the rise, it is still marginal when compared to all protest events reported in national newspapers.

Transnationalization by Issue

Finally, let us look at the impact of issues on transnationalization. How do the three globalization issues differ from other protest issues (particularly cultural liberalism)? Is the rise of the new integration–demarcation cleavage associated with a transnationalization of political conflict? To answer these questions, I perform logistic regressions and use single protest events as my cases (for similar strategies, see Soule and Davenport 2009; van Dyke et al. 2004; Walker, Martin, and McCarthy 2008). In addition, dummy variables are included to account for country and decade effects. The number of participants and the actors supporting protest events serve as additional control variables (Walker et al. 2008, 52). At first, the analysis is restricted to the level of the addressee, which is available for the whole research period. Afterward, I focus on the most demanding form of transnationalization (that is, collective transnationalism) and restrict the analysis to the period from 1990 to 2005.

Compared to cultural liberalism, only global justice has a positive impact on transnationalization (see Table 5). Unsurprisingly, these events often target an addressee beyond the national level, because a main goal of those who favor global justice is to criticize the supposed promoters of neoliberal globalization, such as the G8, World Economic Forum, World Bank, or the World Trade Organization. The character of the protests related to neoliberalism contrasts sharply with protests over another globalization issue—immigration. Protests over immigration—above all, those fighting it—are far more likely to focus on the national or even subnational level. Although it is one of the main issues linked to globalization processes, the political mobilization of migration-related questions is firmly confined to the national level (Balme and Chabanet 2008, 239–41; Koopmans et al. 2005, 74–106). The second model in Table 5 illustrates why movement scholars who focus on global justice mobilization see collective transnationalism as the "most dramatic change" (della Porta and Tarrow 2005b, 6). Conflicts over global justice and European integration are most likely to be the subject of protest events that target a transnational addressee *and* involve transnational linkages and/or participants. Thus, collective transnationalism is more likely to arise from globalization issues than from cultural liberalism, as the main issue associated with the new class cleavage that has emerged since the late 1960s.

To sum up, the scope of protest has become more transnational since the mid-1970s, but most protest events can still be labeled "routine domestic

Table 5. Logistic regressions of transnationalization on protest issues and actor types

	Transnational addressee			Collective transnationalism		
	Coef.	SE	$P > z$	Coef.	SE	$P > z$
Issues (cult-lib = ref.)						
Global justice	2.79	0.36	***	2.56	0.28	***
Europe	0.32	0.37	ns	1.42	0.45	**
Environment	−1.75	0.08	***	−1.66	0.24	***
Economic (residual)	−2.22	0.14	***	−1.80	0.29	***
Immigration	−2.57	0.10	***	−2.20	0.22	***
Culture (residual)	−2.71	0.18	***	−4.48	1.01	***
Welfare	−3.20	0.33	***	−3.53	0.73	***
Actors						
SMO	0.21	0.06	***	−0.03	0.15	ns
Established (others)	0.18	0.11	ns	0.51	0.23	*
Political party	0.16	0.10	ns	−0.19	0.24	ns
Union	−0.35	0.12	**	−0.22	0.24	ns
Number of participants	0.09	0.03	***	0.38	0.06	***
Country (France = ref.)						
Netherlands	0.86	0.10	***	0.86	0.25	***
Switzerland	0.65	0.11	***	−0.98	0.34	**
Germany	0.31	0.09	***	0.27	0.18	ns
Britain	0.28	0.11	***	−1.21	0.36	**
Austria	0.27	0.19	ns	0.44	0.38	ns
Decade (1970s or 1990s = ref.)						
1980s	−0.07	0.09	ns			
1990s	0.27	0.10	**			
2000s	0.78	0.11	***	0.46	0.15	**
Constant	−1.64	0.12	***	−3.37	0.26	***
N	13,908			6,958		
Pseudo-r^2	0.22			0.27		

*** $p < 0.001$, ** $p < 0.01$, * $p < 0.05$; unstandardized coefficients

Note: Because multiple organizations are present at the same event, there is no reference category for the actor variable; the number of participants is classified into five groups: < 100 = 1; 101–1,000 = 2; 1,001–5,000 = 3; 5,001–10,000 = 4; > 10,000 = 5.

protest," that is, protests by national actors targeting national addressees. Moreover, not all globalization issues associated with the integration–demarcation cleavage are more likely to be raised in transnational protest events as compared to cultural liberalism. Most important, protests over immigration are firmly embedded in the national context. This might already point to the "political paradox of globalization" suggested by Kriesi and Grande (2004). That is, because of their heterogeneity and the structure of the political opportunities

for their articulation, the conflicts brought about by globalization are mainly articulated and mobilized at the national level. However, we need to compare the salience of the different globalization issues to see whether this paradoxical situation holds not only for electoral politics but also for protest politics.

Summary

The protest arena is a major site of political conflict in Western Europe and is thus an important research object for cleavage analysis. Yet it is important to remember that the arena's salience (as indicated by mobilization levels) varies across countries. In part, the differences can be traced back to state strength and prevailing strategies. However, the mixed results underscore that one should not lose track of the more conjunctural factors that influence participation rates (see also Balme and Chabanet 2008; della Porta and Diani 2006; Morales 2009; Rootes 1999). Furthermore, this chapter has traced the ebbs and flows over time. Overall, the results suggest that protest politics is in flux. Western Europe saw waves of protest both during the early 1980s and from the 1990s. At the same time, the findings put the new waves of the 1990s and early 2000s into perspective. The new waves seem to be less pronounced than the waves of the early 1980s, and their timing varies more across countries.

Although globalization has unleashed a certain denationalization of protest, which was most visible in the early 2000s, the trend remains fairly limited. At the same time, the findings highlight that there is a shift from purely domestic protest to forms of transnational collective action, that is, transnational actors targeting addressees beyond the national level (della Porta and Tarrow 2005b, 7). Comparing issues indicates that conflicts over immigration (one of the globalization issues) are predominantly national, whereas global justice mobilization tends to be more transnationalized than protests focused on cultural liberalism. With respect to the different forms of transnationalization, it is above all collective transnationalism that is most likely to manifest itself when citizens raise their voices about global justice and European integration.

All in all, we now know more about how conflicts are articulated in the protest arena in the global age. At the same time, it remains to be seen whether the transformations observed are caused by the rise of a new integration–demarcation cleavage brought about by globalization. As stated initially, conflicts over core issues linked to a given divide are key indicators of a cleavage's strength. This is why the next two chapters focus on the issue divides in the protest arena.

5

Issue Divides in the Protest Arena: The Big Picture

The next two chapters focus on the issues and demands raised by protestors. By studying issue divides, we come closer to seeing whether and how the integration–demarcation cleavage has transformed protest politics. I highlight both the salience of issues and differing issue positions, because the term *divide* "effectively captures the notion of distinct sides" (Deegan-Krause 2007, 539). As argued in chapter 1, issue divides lie at the heart of a perspective that takes the role of contemporary political conflicts in the perpetuation and transformation of cleavages seriously (Bornschier 2010a, 53–70). In line with a twofold transformation, left-libertarian challengers and their demands for cultural liberalism are expected to be most salient during the late 1970s and early 1980s. Since the 1990s, in contrast, conflicts over economic, cultural, and political globalization should be on the rise. Although social movement scholars increasingly turn to conflicts over globalization issues, they mainly take a cross-sectional look at single-issue fields or movements (for example, Balme and Chabanet 2008; della Porta 2007b; Koopmans et al. 2005). This book attempts to move forward by tracing the salience of, and positions taken on, these issues during thirty-one years in six European countries, as well as by studying how salient the globalization issues are relative to each other, to cultural liberalism (the main issue of the left-libertarian round), and to more traditional issues.

The present chapter focuses on *cross-arena differences* and looks at the overall averages for the six countries. The big picture based on the six countries is instructive, but it also conceals interesting cross-national differences. Therefore, chapter 6 shows how the issue divides vary across the six countries.

The present chapter, on the big picture, is divided into four sections. To begin with, I introduce two contrasting expectations on how the integration–demarcation cleavage leaves its imprint on protest politics. Both expectations assume that globalization issues have become more salient in the protest arena since the 1990s. However, one expectation emphasizes opposition against economic globalization, while the other expectation emphasizes support for cultural globalization as the main motive for change in the protest arena. These expectations are tested in three steps. First, the analysis focuses on the salience of, and the average positions taken on, cultural and economic issues. This allows us to answer the questions of which issue dimensions and ideological orientations prevail in protest politics and whether we observe any changes over time. Second, closer look is taken at the more specific issue categories (especially cultural liberalism and the three globalization issues). Here, we come closest to assessing the impact of the integration–demarcation cleavage on protest politics. Finally, the rise of the globalization issues in electoral and protest politics is compared to investigate the differing ways in which the rise of the integration–demarcation cleavage has transformed the two arenas of mass mobilization.

Note that in chapters 5 and 6, on issue divides, the relative share of protest events and the number of participants per million inhabitants are used to compare the salience of an issue across countries. I do not take into account the absolute number of protest events coded per issue because this measure depends very much on the size of the country and the number of big or important cities. Thus, it is less useful for comparative research.

Resistance to Economic Globalization or Support for Cultural Globalization?

In the literature, two contrasting expectations on how the integration–demarcation cleavage might have affected the issue divides in the protest arena can be found. Both emphasize that globalization issues have become salient since the 1990s, but they differ with regard to the driving motive for change. I label the first expectation "resistance to economic globalization" and the second one "support for cultural globalization." Both expectations can be linked to the way the integration–demarcation cleavage has restructured electoral politics and to the conceptual discussion about protest politics and electoral politics.

The *economic resistance expectation* figures prominently in the literature on the global justice movement (for example, Bandler and Giugni 2008; della Porta 2007b; Fillieule 2007). This expectation maintains that neoliberal globalization (or alternatively, global justice) should be a very salient protest issue, because there are no strong challengers in the electoral arena that consistently and forcefully oppose economic globalization. Thus, the protest arena

is expected to become the main site in which challengers oppose neoliberal reforms and the further integration of national economies. Or, as Kitschelt (2003, 98) argues, the losers from economic transformations might most frequently resort to protest activities "as the only way to make their voices heard." This expectation is linked to success of the populist right in the electoral arena. Sketched in very bold strokes, in their defense of the losers from globalization, populist right-wing parties have emphasized cultural protectionism, that is, the defense of national identity. Their position on the economic dimension is less clear. While some of these parties have moved away from Kitschelt's (1995) "winning formula" and nowadays advocate both cultural and economic demarcation, others still support economic integration. Thus, to the extent that protest politics might act as a counterweight to electoral politics, resistance to economic globalization should have become more salient in the protest arena since the 1990s.

The *cultural support argument* builds on the fact that actors from the left have dominated protest politics in Western Europe since the end of the Second World War (for example, Fillieule 1997; Koopmans and Rucht 1995; Kriesi et al. 1981; Rucht 2003). Moreover, this argument assumes that the left's alliance with the new social movements in the 1970s and 1980s has important implications for the articulation of the new globalization conflicts. These left-libertarian challengers have always mobilized in support of solidarity with immigrants, for human rights, and for the oppressed and persecuted all over the world, and they are most likely to continue to do so. The appeal of the left to the new middle-class winners and its openness in cultural terms have contributed to the rise of cultural issues quite generally and undermined their appeal to the losers in economic terms in the electoral and protest arenas. The cultural support argument, therefore, expects the protest arena to be dominated by the left and by cultural issues, where the left takes a generally cosmopolitan, culturally liberal position. As argued in chapter 2, the libertarian left's preference for protest politics is assumed to be not just a pragmatic choice of action forms but also an expression of its underlying message, just as the populist right's preference for electoral politics is an expression of its core beliefs. According to this argument, the new challengers from the right who fight for cultural demarcation resort to protest activities only when they are not firmly established in the electoral arena (for a detailed analysis of this assumption, see chapter 7). Based on this reasoning, the support for the cultural globalization argument expects that, as in electoral politics, questions related to national identity and community are on the rise in protest politics. However, protest politics is expected to be mainly the terrain of those who oppose tough stances on immigration.

Let us now see which dimension (economic or cultural) and which more specific issues prevail in protest politics and how these changed from the mid-1970s to the mid-2000s.

The Salience of and Positions on Economic and Cultural Issues

Studying the salience of, and the positions taken on, cultural and economic issues in the protest arena allows us to determine which of the two dimensions structuring Western European political spaces is more salient, and how the salience has developed over time. Furthermore, by focusing on issue positions, we can see whether positions favoring integration or demarcation prevail in the protest arena. As stated in the introduction, the classification here of specific issues is based on the *empirical* findings of Kriesi et al. (2008b) and those presented in chapter 1 (the specific issues covered by the two dimensions are listed in Figure 2 in the Introduction to this book).

Figure 15 shows how the average *salience of cultural and economic issues* developed in the six countries over the decades. The left-hand graph shows the share of protest events as a percentage of all coded events, while the right-hand one indicates the standardized number of participants involved in protests over cultural issues and economic issues. If one examines Figure 15, it is notable that cultural issues are far more salient than economic issues in protest politics.

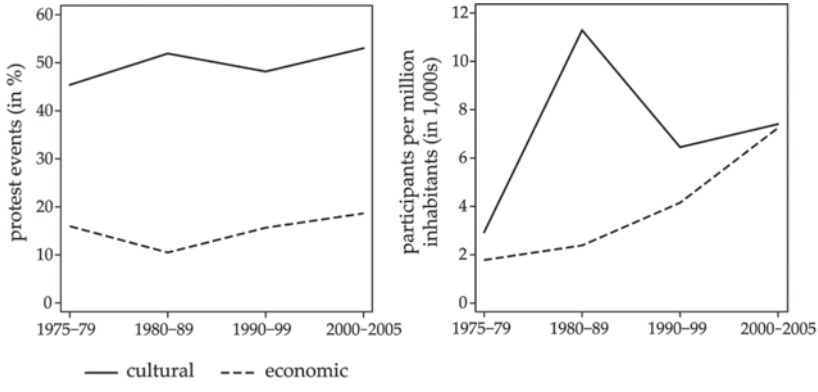


Figure 15. Salience of cultural and economic issues by decade. Share of events that focus on either cultural or economic issues as a percentage of all coded events in that period: percentages do not add up to 100 percent because of other issue categories that are not classified into one of the two groups (for the issue classification, see Figure 2 in the Introduction to this book). Number of participants per million inhabitants that take part in protest events: the values shown are yearly averages to compare the different time periods.

This also holds when taking the selection bias of the newspaper data into account (for details, see Appendix A). For example, cultural issues are also far more salient during the week: the ratio of cultural to economic events is 4.9 at weekends and 3.3 on weekdays (national average from 1990 until 2005). Based on their share of events, protest activities have been mainly used by actors pushing cultural issues in Western Europe since the mid-1970s. Over time, the share of "cultural" events varies less than does the share of "economic" events. This share was also very salient in the 1970s, with protests focusing on cultural issues comprising 45.4 (1970s) to 52.9 percent (2000s) of all coded events. Figure 15 reveals the first peak of cultural issues during the 1980s when focusing on the number of events. This peak is, however, most clearly shown by the number of protestors involved. Thus, the average figures indicate that the heyday of cultural issues was in the 1980s, and in terms of participants, cultural issues have since declined in significance (albeit with a small increase from the 1990s to the early 2000s).

If one looks at the number of participants in protests on economic issues, then one sees that economic issues have a moderating effect on the "cultural bias" in the protest arena. Figure 15 shows that since the 1990s, there has been a return of economic issues to the protest arena. However, one sees that this return is rather modest when looking at the share of protest events. Economic issues accounted for only 10.5 percent of all events during the 1980s and rose afterward to 18.8 percent in 2000–2005. The number of protestors who raised their voices over economic matters, however, has more than tripled since the 1970s. By the early 2000s, economic issues accounted for almost the same number of participants as did cultural ones.

Let us now turn to the average *issue positions* being raised to get closer to answering which of the two expectations introduced previously is most likely. For this purpose, I calculate an average position by coding all protests advocating a libertarian or integrationist position on cultural issues as +1 and all protests favoring an opposite position as –1. By contrast, all protests favoring left-wing or protectionist positions on economic issues are coded as –1 and all opposite positions as +1. For example, the positions of protests fighting for the rights of migrants are coded as +1, while protests against cuts in welfare state spending are coded as –1. Note that that this measure indicates both average positions and the degree of polarization in the protest arena. The closer an average position is to the extreme values +1 or –1, the less polarized the issue is in this arena because there are almost no *counter*-positions raised in the protest arena itself.

Again, Figure 16 shows the average positions in the six countries by decade. As the figure highlights, protests over cultural issues mainly put forward

integrationist or libertarian positions (as indicated by the solid line), while protests over economic issues mainly advocate demarcation or left-wing positions (as indicated by the dashed line). This indicates that there are virtually no protests advocating economic integration, which means favoring economic liberalism, reducing the welfare state, or enforcing budgetary rigor. This is not only interesting in terms of a cleavage analysis, but it also runs against the thesis of a "normalization" of protests—if it implies not just the spread of protests but their use to advance almost any political position (for example, Meyer and Tarrow 1998b; van Aelst and Walgrave 2001). Instead, this result confirms the expectation that the contemporary protest arena is the preferred terrain for voicing positions that are nowadays most closely associated with the political left: defensive on the economic dimension and integrationist or libertarian on the cultural dimension (see also Fillieule 1997, 241; Koopmans and Rucht 1995; Soule and Earl 2005, 356–57). Such a left-libertarian accent in the protest arena is found from the mid-1970s onward, with only limited movement away from a very integration-friendly position on the cultural dimension. On average, statements favoring cultural integration continue by far to outweigh statements favoring cultural demarcation. There are almost no trends regarding economic questions, as can be seen from Figure 16.

Summing up the results on the average salience of the broad categories of cultural and economic issues, we can state that protest politics is the terrain of cultural issues. Although the peak of cultural issues was in the 1980s and economic issues became more salient from the 1990s, cultural issues are still more salient than economic issues in Western European protest arenas at the turn of the century. Furthermore, most protests over cultural issues favor an integrationist or libertarian position. This confirms a key assumption behind the argument that protest politics is mainly the terrain where positions in support of cultural globalization are raised: left-libertarian positions dominate protest politics in Western Europe. However, to test the differing expectations on the central motive for change in the protest arena, we need to examine the more specific issues raised by the protestors. This is what we turn to in the next section.

The Salience of and Positions on Traditional and "New" Issues

It is well known that left-libertarian challengers and their demands for cultural liberalism dominated protest politics during the 1970s and early 1980s, but can we observe the rise of globalization issues in the protest arena from the 1990s? How salient are conflicts over globalization issues as compared to other protest issues? Which of the three globalization issues (that is, global

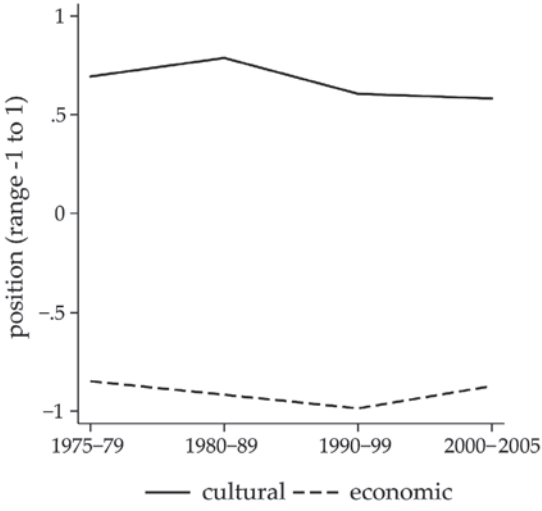


Figure 16. Positions on economic and cultural issues by decade. All events that advocate an integrationist position are coded as +1 and all events in favor of demarcation as –1. The values refer to the average position of all coded events that focus either on cultural or economic issues in that period. The values indicate the average position in all six countries.

justice, Europe, and immigration) is most salient in the protest arena? To answer these questions, the following analyses focus on the more specific issue categories introduced in the Introduction. I first look at the overall salience of the different issue categories from 1975 to 2005, before then describing their development over the decades. As previously mentioned, this chapter's focus is on the averages observed across the six countries, and chapter 6 is devoted to a comparative analysis.

Issue Salience

Figure 17 presents the overall share of issues with respect to events and participants from 1975 to 2005. This allows an assessment of the salience of the globalization issues relative to each other, relative to cultural liberalism (as the key issue associated with the new class cleavage), and relative to more traditional issues. It can be seen from Figure 17 that cultural liberalism is by far the most salient issue category, both by share of protest events and by share

of participants. Around one-quarter of all coded protests deal with cultural liberalism, while almost a third of all protest participants reported in the newspapers were involved in protests over cultural liberalism. A more detailed analysis shows the most salient subcategory of cultural liberalism to be international peace. Compared to all protests focusing on cultural liberalism, protest events for (or against) international peace account for 37.2 percent of events and 67.5 percent of participants. Solidarity (external) is the second most important subcategory of cultural liberalism, accounting for 23.2 percent of events and 14.9 percent of participants. Other issues (that is, women, homosexuals, and alternative lifestyles) account for 39.7 percent of all events, yet only 17.6 percent of all participants within the category "cultural liberalism."

In terms of events, environment and immigration come after cultural liberalism, while global justice and Europe come last. Thus, immigration is the most salient globalization issue. On average, immigration protests are 16.8 percent of all events and involve 9.0 percent of all protest participants. Furthermore, Figure 17 shows that the share of events and participants are quite

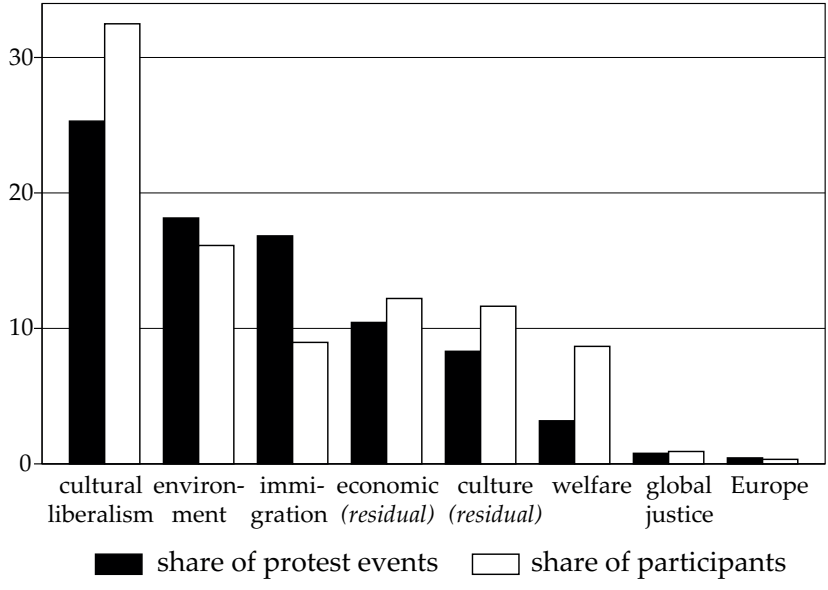


Figure 17. Salience of specific issues, 1975–2005. Share of events that focus on a specific issue as a percentage of all coded events; share of participants mobilized on a specific issue as a percentage of all participants; percentages do not add up to 100 percent because other issues are omitted. The values indicate the average salience in all six countries.

similar across the eight issue categories (r = 0.83). Immigration and welfare are the main exceptions, with the former more important in terms of events than participants, whereas the latter attracts more participants than its share of events would suggest. Although many protest events center on migration-related issues, the number of people mobilized in these events is below average. Because both measures reveal different faces of an issue's salience, the reader should, however, not underestimate the importance of immigration in Western European protest arenas.

As stated before, the other two globalization issues (that is, Europe and global justice) are far less salient than immigration. Only 0.4 percent of events have European integration (major reforms, enlargement processes) as the central focus, and the share of participants is minimal (N = 52). Thus, Europe has yet to become a major issue in national protest politics (see also Balme and Chabanet 2008; della Porta and Caiani 2007; Imig 2004; Imig and Tarrow 2001b; Rucht 2002; Uba and Uggla 2011).[1] Similarly, only an average of 0.8 percent of events and 0.9 percent of all participants covered by the present data promote or oppose global justice as their primary goal, which means they make claims for or against neoliberal globalization or its supposed main promoters (including the G8, World Economic Forum, World Bank, or World Trade Organization) (N = 124). Although this may be an over-restrictive coding of global justice, it does raise the question of just how relevant a force the contemporary global justice movement is in Western Europe. The results highlight the small number of protest events whose primary focus is neoliberal globalization, although this does not mean that the frames and organizations emerging out of the global justice movement(s) are unimportant in Western European protest arenas (see Ancelovici 2002).

What might account for the different salience of the three globalization issues in the protest arena? I suggest, in line with the political process approach, that the differing political context is a main explanatory factor. Issues of economic globalization and European integration are far more often the objects of political negotiations beyond the national level. They follow a logic of highly visible but infrequent international events staged by governmental actors. Although these events provide windows of opportunity for highly publicized protest events, their scope is far more restricted and short lived than the more continuous and localized struggles over migration-related issues. This has already been indicated by the analysis in chapter 4, showing that protests over immigration—above all, those fighting it—are far less likely to address a transnational target than protests on Europe or global justice. Of course, there might be other reasons for the differences in salience, including other issue characteristics (for example, complexity, obtrusiveness, emotionality) or

movement–countermovement interactions. I return to the latter in chapter 6 when comparing the issue divides across countries.

Issue Positions

As stated before, salience is only one aspect covered by the term "issue divide." Therefore, let us now turn to the average positions taken on the eight specific issues shown in Figure 17 (ranging from –1 to +1). All events favoring a given issue are coded as +1 and all events opposing an issue as –1. Positive values indicate integrationist or libertarian positions on cultural issues and traditionally left-wing positions on economic issues. Thus, average positions close to +1 indicate support for cultural liberalism, immigration, Europe, global justice, welfare, and environmental protection. With respect to the cultural residual category, +1 indicates support, among others, for civil rights and education. With respect to the economic residual category, +1 indicates support for left-wing positions on economic issues (for example, against budgetary rigor or cuts in subsidies). The reported values indicate the average position in all six countries. Again, the results highlight the left-libertarian "accent" of the protest arena. The average position for the eight issues is 0.68. Apart from Europe and immigration, the average positions range from 0.78 (cultural residual category) to 0.99 (welfare). Conflicts over immigration and Europe are most polarizing in the protest arena, as indicated by the average positions of 0.36 for immigration and –0.34 for Europe. This is most interesting for immigration, because the issue is far more salient than European integration. However, it is significant to note that the average position on immigration is more pro-immigration when we base our position measure on the number of protest participants taking part in pro- and anti-immigration events (+0.48). Thus, while we observe considerable numbers of protests against immigration, these events attract far fewer participants than those countering tough stances on immigration.

To sum up, we have seen that cultural liberalism is the most salient protest issue when we look at the whole research period from 1975 to 2005. At the same time, immigration seems to be the only salient globalization issue. By contrast, European integration and global justice are far less important in the protest arena. However, protests over immigration differ from protests over the other issues, because their share of events is much higher than their share of participants. Furthermore, immigration is the only salient issue that is related to a certain polarization of conflict within the protest arena.

Changes over Time: A Shift from Cultural Liberalism to Globalization Issues?

Let us now turn to the trends over time. Looking at changes in the salience of cultural liberalism and the three globalization issues should allow us to see

more clearly whether we do in fact observe two rounds of Western European protest politics. Again, Figure 18 shows developments based on the share of events and the standardized number of participants involved in protests over these issues. By and large, cultural liberalism lost ground after the 1980s, as one can see from the precipitous drop in the number of protestors. However, the issue does not fade away. In contrast, cultural liberalism is again on the rise during the early 2000s, that is, after a period when most scholars (for example, Giugni and Passy 1999) observed the institutionalization of its main proponents.

If one looks at the share of events, then it is immigration that has been responsible for the increasing salience of cultural issues since the 1990s. Based on this measure, immigration became even more salient than cultural liberalism by the 1990s. For example, the share of immigration protests is 24.6 percent in the early 2000s as compared to 19.3 percent for protests over cultural liberalism. Therefore, my results forcefully underline the claim that "immigration and ethnic relations . . . constitute since the early 1990s the most prominent and controversial fields of political contention in West European polities" (Koopmans et al. 2005, 3). At the same time, the number of participants puts this into perspective. As shown by Figure 18, although the number of participants focused on immigration increased after the 1970s, the levels never reached the high values of cultural liberalism, and the level declined after its peak in the 1990s.

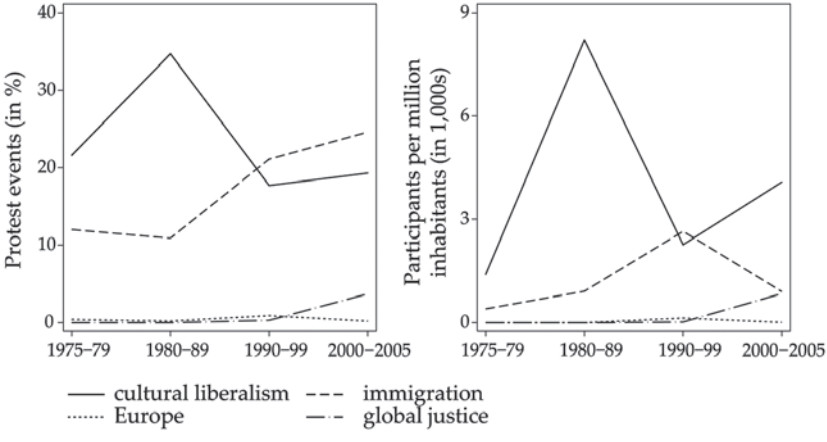


Figure 18. Salience of cultural liberalism and globalization issues by decade. Share of events that focus on an issue as a percentage of all coded events in that period; number of participants per million inhabitants that take part in protest events. The values indicate the average salience in all six countries.

Moreover, Figure 18 shows that European integration remained at a very low level throughout the research period, while global justice as a key protest issue is a phenomenon of the early 2000s. After its international "take-off" in Seattle in 1999 (for example, Levi and Murphy 2006; Smith 2002), the global justice issue entered the arena of Western European protest politics. There were certainly protest events beforehand that centered on neoliberal globalization (Holzapfel and König 2001; Pianta and Marchetti 2007, 32–39), but the present findings highlight that global justice remains relatively insignificant, with only 3.7 percent of all reported events and 3.6 percent of all participants (2000–2005) addressing neoliberal globalization or accusing a suspected actor as "the key evil and central target" (Rucht et al. 2007, 180).[2] As argued, global justice protests mostly take the form of counter-summits or other activities targeting international events that are organized by established actors. Often, these protests are extensively covered by the media (for example, Beyeler and Kriesi 2005; Rucht and Teune 2008). Compared to other issues, they are, however, still far less numerous and also do not attract enough participants to outweigh the smaller number of events. Other research on "global civil society events" (Pianta 2001; Pianta and Marchetti 2007, 39–43), "anti-globalization protests" (Holzapfel and König 2001), and "globalization protests" (Podobnik 2005) confirms that the number of such protests rose after 1999, but that the overall number still remains fairly low. For example, Pianta and Marchetti (2007, 41) report 194 "global civil society events" from 1990 until 2005. Fewer than ten events are covered per year until 1999. After that, the number of events covered by the authors increased, reaching a peak in 2005 (33 events). Similarly, Podobnik (2005) reports only 1,178 globalization protests carried out in 107 countries from 1990 until 2004. Unfortunately, he does not report the number of events per region.

Which side of the new conflict is mainly responsible for this shifting salience? Can we observe differences across the issues? To answer these questions, we focus on cultural liberalism and immigration, that is, the two most salient issues related to the rise of new cleavages since the 1970s. Again, I look at the average issue position raised in the protest arena (positive values indicating support for cultural liberalism and immigration, respectively). As Figure 19 demonstrates, libertarian or integrationist positions dominate with respect to both rounds, because positions in favor of cultural liberalism and of immigration always dominate. Yet there is a contrast between the rise of cultural liberalism and of immigration. When cultural liberalism is the issue in the arena of protest politics, it is almost exclusively affirmatively so. People protest to fight *for* individual autonomy, a free choice of lifestyle, or other

universalistic values (such as solidarity with the developing world or international peace). Conflicts over immigration are far more polarized, and they have become more polarized over time, as can be seen from Figure 19: the average position on immigration dropped rather strongly from the 1980s (0.52) to the early 2000s (0.22). The rise of immigration as a topic is connected to a certain return of the right, hence to positions that favor cultural demarcation. However, the trend toward tougher stances on immigration is less pronounced when one looks at the number of participants rather than the number of events; here the decrease is –0.22 from the 1980s to the early 2000s as compared to –0.30 based on events.

By looking at the more specific issue categories, we have seen that protest politics is also affected by the rise of an integration–demarcation cleavage. Immigration, that is, the key issue linked to cultural globalization, became

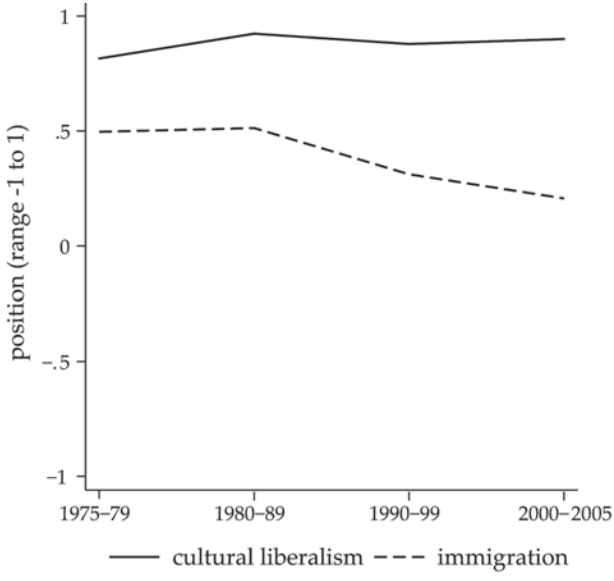


Figure 19. Positions on cultural liberalism and immigration by decade. An event in favor of cultural liberalism or immigration is coded as +1, an event against as –1. The values indicate the average positions in all six countries. For example, the average position on immigration was 0.50 in the 1980s. This means that about every third protest event related to immigration was a anti-immigration event.

more salient in the protest arena from the 1990s. Furthermore, its rise was linked to an increasing polarization of conflicts over immigration in the protest arena itself. Thus, we see a rising share of protest events that support anti-immigration claims. However, this finding needs to be qualified because the changes are far less pronounced both when one focuses on the number of protestors involved and when one takes into account the fact that cultural liberalism is still very salient in protest politics. To assess the impact of these changes in the protest arena more systematically, the final section of this chapter compares the changes observed in the protest arena with those observed in the electoral arena.

Patterns of Change across Arenas

To compare the rise of globalization issues in protest politics and electoral politics, I focus on how immigration and Europe, as issues, entered the two arenas. This brings to light similarities and differences in how the issue divides linked to the integration–demarcation cleavage have played out in the two sites of mobilization. As before, these two issues are contrasted with cultural liberalism as the key issue of the left-libertarian round. The media data of Kriesi et al. (2008b, 2012) are used to assess the transformations in electoral politics. Unfortunately, these data do not allow me to systematically compare the changes related to the economic dimension (that is, to compare the salience of global justice across arenas). To take both salience measures for protest politics into account, I calculate an average based on the shares of events and participants for the following comparison. The salience of an issue in electoral politics is based on the share of sentences related to the issue during election campaigns.

Table 6 again underscores that immigration and Europe arose as issues in both arenas from the 1980s. Row 1 of the table shows that the two issues have become more salient compared to all other issues. The share of the two issues increased from 3.9 percent (1970s) to 11.2 percent (2000s) in the electoral arena. In the protest arena, the increase is most pronounced from the 1980s (9.0 percent) to the 1990s (20.6 percent). This indicates that the integration–demarcation cleavage left its mark on electoral and protest politics. At the same time, the low percentages show that the two issues are far from dominating either mobilization site. I also present the shares for immigration and Europe as percentages of all cultural issues (row 2). This is an answer to critics who might explain the high salience of the two issues in the protest arena by referring to the sampling strategy used, which overestimates the salience of cultural issues in general (see Appendix A). However, the results reported in Table 6 show that the cross-arena differences are not affected by this (differing) selection bias of the two data sets.

Table 6. Salience of Europe/immigration by arena and decade (in percentages)

	Electoral politics				Protest politics			
	1970s	1980s	1990s	2000s	1970s	1980s	1990s	2000s
Immigration	35.2	-	44.7	61.4	97.1	98.4	93.9	99.0
Europe	64.8	-	55.3	38.6	2.9	1.6	6.1	1.0
Total	100.0	-	100.0	100.0	100.0	100.0	100.0	100.0
1. Salience as percentage of *all issues*	3.9	-	13.5	11.2	9.6	9.0	20.6	14.4
2. Salience as percentage of *all cultural issues*	11.2	-	29.4	26.6	21.9	15.7	43.0	28.1
3. Salience as percentage of cult-lib, immigration and Europe	24.4	-	55.0	50.3	31.0	18.7	52.6	36.2
N	5,307	-	16,545	17,949	2,336	6,000	6,118	2,861

Notes

Issue categories: The list of issue categories covered by the cultural category can be found in Figure 2.

Measures: Electoral politics refers to the share of core sentences; *protest politics* refers to the mean based on the share of protest events and participants respectively. *N* is the total number of coded actor–issue core sentences and protest events, respectively. All values are country averages.

Interpretation: The first two rows present the shares of immigration and Europe as percentages of all coded observations dealing with either Europe or immigration. Rows 1 to 3 present the average shares of immigration and Europe as percentages of all coded observations as well as percentages of all cultural issues and compared to cultural liberalism. For example, the value 3.9 in the first column indicates that only 3.9 percent of all coded core sentences dealt with either Europe or immigration during the 1970s. Furthermore, immigration and Europe are the issue of 11.2 percent of all actor–issue sentences about any cultural issues during that decade. Finally, the share of immigration/Europe is 24.4 percent of all issues related to immigration, Europe, or cultural liberalism.

There is not much difference between the arenas with respect to the overall salience of immigration and Europe. What varies between them is the internal distribution of the two issues and their salience as compared to cultural liberalism. As can be seen, immigration increased in salience in both arenas, while Europe is a substantial issue for party competition but not yet an issue for protest mobilization. The first two rows in Table 6 illustrate this, because more than 90 percent of all protest events on the two globalization issues deal with immigration. This again moderates the claims of an "awakening" of the European integration issue outside of electoral politics (compare Hooghe and Marks 2009). Furthermore, cultural liberalism is more important in the protest arena than in election campaigns during the 2000s. In that decade, cultural liberalism on the one hand and immigration/Europe on the other hand are equally important in national electoral politics. With respect to protest mobilization, cultural liberalism is once again far more salient than immigration/Europe. The situation is like that of the 1970s and 1980s, before the restructuring force of globalization accelerated. As can be seen from Table 6, row 3, the salience of cultural liberalism protests is almost twice as high as that of immigration/Europe in the early 2000s (results based on the shares of events and participants).

Apart from issue salience, two other findings highlight how the impact of the integration–demarcation cleavage differs across arenas. These differences are most obvious when focusing on immigration. On the one hand, positions that call for tougher stances on immigration are far more salient in national party competition, an arena in which challengers from the right set trends and are heard. Protest activities focusing on immigration, by contrast, are far more likely to *counter* populist radical right-wing activity in the electoral arena. This can be seen when one compares the average positions raised in the two arenas (see Figure 20). This difference is by far the highest in conflicts over immigration (0.88). Based on share of protest events and participants, the average position raised in the protest arena is 0.56, while the average position based on party statements is –0.32. By comparison, the difference between protest and electoral politics is just 0.40 with respect to cultural liberalism and 0.29 with respect to European integration.

On the other hand, positions against immigration in protest politics are often far more extreme than those found in electoral politics. Many anti-immigration events promote xenophobic claims and directly attack asylum seekers and other migrant groups. Only a minor fraction deals with specific proposals for immigration and integration policy. A prominent exception is the German Christian Democrats' petition drive against reforming the law on citizenship during the late 1990s (Holmes Cooper 2002). Other examples

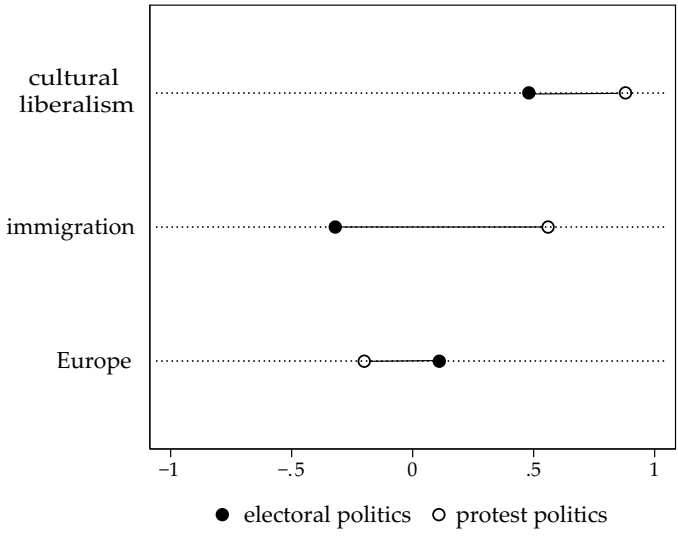


Figure 20. Positions on cultural liberalism, immigration, and Europe by arena. Electoral politics refers to the average issue position raised during election campaigns. Protest politics refers to the mean based on the share of protest events and participants. The values are country averages across the 1970s, 1990s, and 2000s. Positive values indicate support for cultural liberalism, immigration, and European integration (range −1 to 1).

are protests by local residents who try to prevent the creation of refugee camps or mosques in their neighborhood (for example, Dolezal, Helbling, and Hutter 2008, 2010). Koopmans et al. (2005, 83) argue that the different degree of "civil society activism" in specific subfields of the immigration issue is due to field-specific opportunities. More specifically, they state that the focus on "racism and xenophobia" in the protest arena is related to the fact that this field is far more characterized by *direct* interaction between migrants and their host societies in the public domain. This reduces the role of state actors and thus encourages activities in less institutionalized political arenas. By contrast, conflicts over immigration and integration policies mainly take place in governmental or other intermediary arenas (see also Helbling, Hoeglinger, and Wüest 2012).

Summary

This chapter has looked at the issue divides in the protest arena by studying both issue salience and issue positions. To examine whether and how the

integration–demarcation cleavage affects protest politics, I examined the broad categories of cultural and economic issues (that is, the main dimensions structuring Western European political spaces) before turning to the more specific issue categories (cultural liberalism and the three globalization issues). Overall, the results highlight that the protest arena is dominated by cultural issues and positions that are nowadays closely associated with the political left: defensive and protectionist on economic issues and libertarian or integrationist on cultural issues. Focusing on the more specific issue categories, the results indicate that both electoral politics and protest politics have witnessed a rise in conflicts over globalization issues, but the patterns of change differ. The national electoral arena seems to be the main site where the integration–demarcation cleavage has left its mark. Mobilization is about immigration and Europe, and the struggle is quite polarizing. That is, positions taken both for and against immigration and Europe are salient in electoral politics. Cultural liberalism, the issue of the left-libertarian round, continues to shape protest politics more forcefully than electoral politics. As for issues linked to globalization, only migration-related issues are on the rise in the protest arena, while European integration and global justice remain less important.

The rise of immigration as an issue is linked to a certain return of right-wing voices to the protest arena. In other words, as immigration became more salient, it became more contested in the protest arena. However, protests by, and on behalf of, immigrants still outweigh protests against them by far. In this sense, the challenge posed by the populist radical right is reflected in the protest arena but most often in the form of events that counter its stance on immigration. In view of the two expectations formulated at the beginning of this chapter, the big picture for the six countries clearly indicates that conflicts over globalization have become more salient in protest politics but mainly in the form of events that support the cultural opening-up of national boundaries. This is in line with the general left-libertarian "accent" of the contemporary protest arena in Western Europe.

However, this is only the big picture based on the average values for the six countries under scrutiny. Because this big picture might conceal important national differences, the next chapter looks more closely at how the patterns of change found vary across countries. Furthermore, the next chapter also examines whether the cross-national differences are systematically related to the context factors discussed in chapter 3: the strength of the traditional class cleavage and the way the new cleavages manifested themselves in more institutionalized political arenas.

6

Issue Divides in the Protest Arena: The Comparative Picture

This chapter traces the questions of how the issue divides in the protest arena differ across countries and whether these differences can be linked to the relatively stable aspects of the political context faced by protestors, that is, to the strength of the traditional class cleavage and the way the new cleavages manifested themselves in more institutionalized political arenas. Does the strength of the traditional class cleavage negatively or positively affect the salience of conflicts over globalization in protest politics? Are protests over globalization most salient and polarized in countries where the integration–demarcation cleavage has most fundamentally transformed electoral politics? To answer these questions and to highlight the specific patterns found for the integration–demarcation cleavage, this chapter focuses not only on the three globalization issues but also on cultural liberalism, the main issue associated with the new class cleavage that restructured Western European politics in the 1970s and 1980s. Thus, the chapter takes up Kriesi and Duyvendak's (1995) analysis of the impact of the old class cleavage on the salience of new social movement issues. However, this question is answered by relying on an extended sample of countries and by focusing on the period from 1975 to 2005.

The chapter is structured as follows. The first section presents the hypotheses about cross-national differences. Simply stated, I expect that protests over cultural liberalism were most salient in countries with a weak traditional class cleavage and where the new left-libertarian challengers were comparatively successful in restructuring institutionalized politics (see della Porta and Rucht 1995; Kitschelt 1988; Kriesi and Duyvendak 1995). The situation becomes more complicated when we turn to protests over globalization. On

the one hand, the literature offers contrasting hypotheses on the relationship between traditional cleavages and the salience of globalization conflicts (see della Porta 2007a; Kriesi 2008). On the other hand, the strength of the integration–demarcation cleavage in institutionalized terms is not consistently related to the strength of the old class cleavage. Thus, I end up with three differing sets of hypotheses. In the following sections, these hypotheses are empirically examined. At first, the focus is on the salience of cultural and economic issues in general, before the following two sections zoom in on cultural liberalism and the three globalization issues. The findings confirm the hypothesis on the salience of cultural liberalism in the 1970s and 1980s, but the salience of the globalization issues is not systematically related to the two context factors. However, conflicts over immigration in the protest arena tend to be more polarized in countries where the changes induced by the integration–demarcation cleavage are comparatively weak in the electoral arena. The final section takes up this finding and highlights how conflicts over immigration differ across countries. More specifically, I rely on Zald and Useem's (1987) distinction of closely and loosely coupled tangos of mobilization and demobilization to describe the cross-national patterns (chapter 2).

Expected Country Differences

In the following, the theses on the relationship between electoral and protest politics are linked with the empirical results on the strength of the traditional class cleavage and the institutionalized strength of the new cleavages. As shown in chapter 3, the two context factors are closely related when it comes to the left-libertarian round in the 1970s and 1980s: a strong traditional class cleavage was related to weak left-libertarian challengers and less salient conflicts over cultural liberalism in institutionalized political arenas at the time. Thus, the expectations about the salience of cultural liberalism in the protest arena do not differ according to the two context factors. More specifically, I expect that protests related to cultural liberalism are most salient in countries where the class cleavage was comparatively weak but the new issues and actors were comparatively strong in institutionalized arenas (see Figure 21). This is expected to be the most favorable context for protests over cultural liberalism. On the one hand, if the old class cleavage was still very powerful in shaping individuals' loyalties and actions, the breakthrough of the new issues and organizations should be blocked (as has already been shown by others, for example, della Porta and Rucht 1995; Kitschelt 1988; Kriesi and Duyvendak 1995). On the other hand, I expect to find congruent patterns of change in electoral and protest politics because the driving forces of change were closely associated with the political left (see chapter 2). Thus, countries with comparatively

strong left-libertarian parties and salient conflicts over cultural liberalism in institutionalized political arenas should have witnessed comparatively salient conflicts over cultural liberalism in the protest arena, too. To sum up, the expectation is that cultural liberalism protests are more salient in Germany, the Netherlands, and Switzerland as compared to Austria, Britain, and France.

The hypotheses on the *salience of globalization issues* in the protest arena are less consistent. This is because scholars put forward differing hypotheses on the impact of the traditional class cleavage on the salience of globalization issues. Furthermore, the strength of the traditional class cleavage is not as closely related to the impact of the integration–demarcation cleavage on institutionalized politics. As shown in chapter 3, we can found a comparatively strong presence of populist radical right-wing challengers and their claims in the electoral arena of both countries with a traditionally weak class cleavage (for example, Switzerland) and a traditionally strong class cleavage (for example, Austria and France). This is why we end up with three different sets of hypotheses on the salience of the globalization issues (for a summary, see Figure 21).

If we assume that a traditionally strong class cleavage still hinders the breakthrough of globalization conflicts (Kriesi 2008), the pacemakers of the left-libertarian round should also be most forcefully affected by the rise of globalization issues. This is also what the "reverse new politics" argument introduced in chapter 2 would suggest, because it treats the right-populist round as a direct counter-reaction to the left-libertarian round. Thus, conflicts over globalization issues should be more salient in the Dutch, German, and Swiss protest arenas than in Austrian, British, and French protest arenas. By contrast, following della Porta (2007a), a strong traditional class cleavage could also boost conflicts over the globalization issues. According to this positive-sum or revitalization argument between old and new conflicts, we should find exactly the opposite pattern as described previously: more salient conflicts over globalization in the protest arenas in Austria, Britain, and France than in Germany, the Netherlands, and Switzerland.

However, if we base our expectations on the way the new integration–demarcation cleavage has affected electoral politics, we end up with another set of hypotheses. As shown in chapter 3, the key actors and issues associated with the integration–demarcation cleavage have most fundamentally restructured party competition in Austria, France, and Switzerland, while this transformation has been the least pronounced in Britain and Germany. The Netherlands are an intermediate case. However, the Dutch case moved closer to the first group of countries during the early 2000s. Because the main driving forces of this turn come from the political right, I assume that protest politics acts as a counterweight to electoral politics. As argued in chapter 2,

	Context factors			Expected salience in protest politics				
		Institutionalized strength of the new cleavages		*Cultural liberalism*		*Globalization issues*		
	Strength of the old class cleavage	Left-libertarian round	Right-populist round	Class cleavage (zero-sum hypothesis)	Congruence and different logics theses	Class cleavage (zero-sum hypothesis)	Class cleavage (revitalization hypothesis)	Counterweight and different logics theses
Germany	Weak	Strong	Weak	High	High	High	Low	High
Netherlands	Weak	Strong	Intermediate	High	High	High	Low	Intermediate
Switzerland	Weak	Strong	Strong	High	High	High	Low	Weak
Austria	Strong	Weak	Strong	Low	Low	Low	High	Weak
France	Strong	Weak	Strong	Low	Low	Low	High	Weak
Britain	Strong	Weak	Weak	Low	Low	Low	High	High

Note: For the measurement of the two context factors, see chapter 4.

Figure 21. Expected salience of cultural liberalism and globalization issues in protest politics.

challengers from the right are expected to enter protest politics only if they are not successful in more institutionalized arenas. Thus, protests over globalization issues should be most salient in the countries where the changes in the electoral arena were the least pronounced, that is, in Britain and Germany. In Austria, France, and Switzerland, by contrast, we should observe less salient conflicts in the protest arena because the driving forces of change successfully entered more institutionalized political arenas. The Netherlands are expected to be an intermediate case.

The following sections test these hypotheses by presenting the salience measures for each country (not just the average values as in the previous chapter 5). Before discussing the salience of the specific issue categories (that is, cultural liberalism and the three globalization issues), the next section compares the salience of cultural issues and economic issues across the six countries.

Cultural and Economic Issues in a Comparative Perspective

Are cultural issues more salient than economic issues in all the countries under scrutiny? To answer this question, Figure 22 shows the share of cultural issues and economic issues as percentages of all coded events by country and decade. The figure indicates two groups of countries: Switzerland, the Netherlands, and Germany, on the one side, and Austria, France, and Great Britain on the other. The first group is characterized by a higher salience of cultural issues than the second group. This difference corresponds to the strength of the traditional class cleavage in the 1960s and 1970s, and it is during the peak of cultural issues in the 1980s that the groups of countries differ most. In other words, in Austria, France, and Great Britain, a strong traditional class cleavage tends to go hand in hand with a lower salience of cultural issues during the 1980s. This also holds if we look at the number of participants involved (values based on the number of participants can be found in Appendix B). Hence, one sees virtually no indication of a first peak of cultural issues in these three countries. By contrast, the first peak of cultural issues in the 1980s is quite visible in the Netherlands, Germany, and Switzerland. In this group of countries, cultural issues account for more than 55 percent of all events coded for that decade. At the same time, Figure 22 shows that there has been a convergence in countries' shares of cultural issues since the 1990s. In the Swiss and Dutch cases, on the one hand, they seem to have settled at a plateau below their earlier peak. In Austrian and British protest politics, on the other hand, cultural issues have steadily risen. Germany is the exception here, because cultural issues dominated its protest landscape throughout the research period, reaching an all-time high of 74.4 percent in the early 2000s. However, in terms of participants, the German pattern is very similar to those of

the Dutch and the Swiss. The largest level of participation on behalf of cultural issues in West Germany also occurred during the 1980s.

As shown in the previous chapter, there were very high numbers of participants focused on economic issues during the early 2000s. Here, one needs to add that this was mainly because of massive protest waves sweeping across France. Without the French case, the increase is still significant, but it is far less pronounced. If one excludes France, the average number of "economic" protestors is only half as high in the early 2000s. This confirms other research that stressed the revival both of protest generally and of protests focused on social issues in France (Ancelovici 2008; Tartakowsky 2004; Waters 2003, 2004). Still, the trends over time are quite consistent across countries. Five out of the six countries show an upward trend in the salience of economic issues toward the end of the research period. Only Great Britain deviates here. In the German case, it is difficult to identify this development based on the

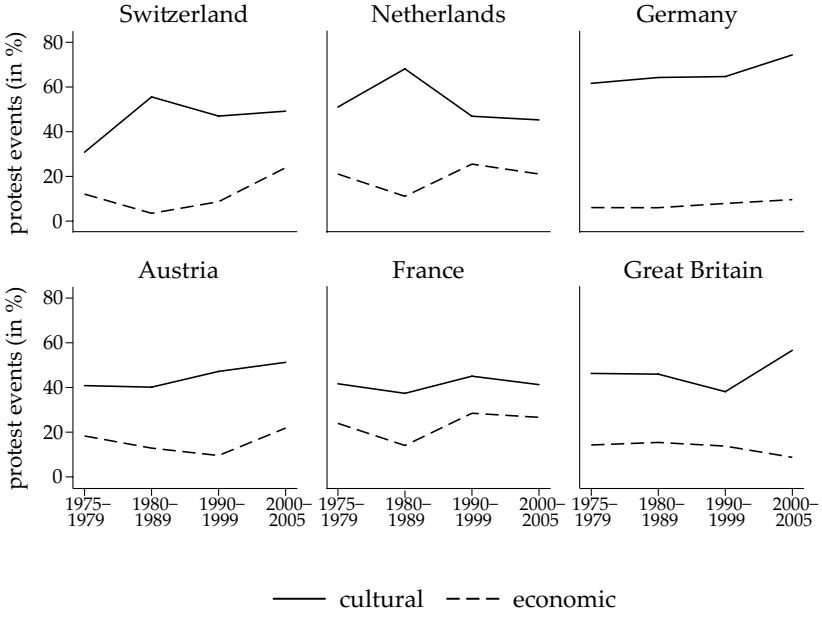


Figure 22. Salience of cultural and economic issues by decade and country. Share of events that focus on cultural or economic issues as percentages of all coded events in that period; percentages do not add up to 100 percent because of other issue categories that are not classified into one of the two groups (for the classification, see Figure 2 in the introduction to the book). For example, 30.8 percent of all Swiss protests in the late 1970s dealt with cultural issues, and 12.1 percent with economic issues.

share of events shown in Figure 22. However, if one focuses on participants, the rise of economic issues is also strongly supported, which is mainly because of massive protest campaigns against welfare state reforms (for example, Baglioni et al. 2008).

Summing up, cultural issues are more salient in all countries, but we observe quite pronounced differences in the 1980s. During that decade, cultural issues were most salient in countries characterized by a comparatively weak class cleavage. To see whether this is related to the (differing) impact of new cleavages, let us now focus on the more specific issues hidden behind the two broad categories.

Cultural Liberalism in a Comparative Perspective

First, I focus on the salience of cultural liberalism and how it developed from the mid-1970s. As for all cultural issues, we observe the same two groups of countries during the peak of protests over cultural liberalism, that is, the late 1970s and 1980s. In Germany, the Netherlands, and Switzerland, cultural liberalism was more salient than in Austria, Britain, and France. As can be seen from Table 7, in the first group the share of protest events related to cultural liberalism ranged between around 40 percent (Germany and Switzerland) to around 50 percent (Netherlands) in the period 1975 to 1989. By contrast, the values were below 25 percent in the second group of countries. Based on the number of participants, cultural liberalism was most salient in Germany and the Netherlands but least salient in Austria and France at the time. This tends to support the hypothesis presented at the beginning of this chapter. Conflicts over cultural liberalism were more salient in countries where the traditional class cleavage was pacified and where the new challengers and demands were most successful in restructuring institutionalized politics. This confirms Kriesi and Duyvendak's (1995) findings, which are based on only four countries (see also della Porta and Rucht 1995).

At the same time, the results in Table 7 indicate that the second group of countries was not unaffected by the left-libertarian round in the 1980s. The present data support Rootes (1992, 171), who argues that Britain was *not* "the chief exception to this wave of change," as claimed by Eyerman and Jamison (1991, 37). As can be seen from Table 7, cultural liberalism is more salient in Britain in the late 1970s and early 1980s as compared to Austria and France. This is mainly due to the revival of the Campaign for Nuclear Disarmament during the early 1980s (Byrne 1988; Lent 2001, 123–33). Only for France, the main "low salience case" in the study Kriesi and Duyvendak (1995), can we observe an interrupted protest wave in the late 1970s, when the share of cultural liberalism events was higher than ever since (see also Duyvendak 1995).[1]

Table 7. Salience of cultural liberalism by country

	Netherlands	Germany	Switzerland	Britain	Austria	France	Mean
a. Share of protest events (%)							
1975–1989	49.3	41.3	39.5	24.5	20.2	14.3	31.5
1990–2005	17.7	20.3	27.5	21.9	11.8	9.2	18.1
b. Number of participants							
1975–1989	13.2	10.7	6.1	3.9	1.8	1.9	6.3
1990–2005	1.0	2.8	3.5	5.9	1.0	2.8	2.8

Note: Share of events that focus on cultural liberalism as a percentage of all coded events in that period; number of participants per million inhabitants that take part in protest events (in 1,000s; yearly averages). For example, 49.3 percent of all coded protest events were related to cultural liberalism in the Netherlands from 1975 to 1989, while around 13,200 participants per million inhabitants took part in these events. The values by decade can be found in Appendix B.

From the 1990s, the salience of cultural liberalism converged in the six countries. In the Netherlands, a master case of new social movement mobilization in the late 1970s and early 1980s (for example, Klandermans 1990; Kriesi 1989a, 1993), the salience of cultural liberalism declined the most, to only 17.7 percent of all coded events in the period 1990 to 2005. Furthermore, the number of participants involved in such events dropped tremendously in the Netherlands (only Austria has an equally low number of participants involved in cultural liberalism protests). Similarly, France is no longer as exceptional, above all when focusing on the number of participants. Thus, the data support and simultaneously moderate Appleton's (1999) claim that France was hit by a "second wave" of new social movements' mobilization from the mid 1980s.[2] However, the most dramatic changes can be seen when looking at the British case. In the period 2000 to 2005, cultural liberalism became even more salient in Britain (29 percent) than in all the other countries covered by this book.

Protests related to international peace are mainly responsible for the continuing salience of cultural liberalism from the 1990s. This time, the massive protests against the war in Iraq in 2003 are most important (Walgrave and Rucht 2010). This protest wave culminated on February 15, 2003, when approximately 16 million people around the globe took part. As Verhulst (2010, 16–17) reports, around 1.7 percent of the British population was on the street on that day. The percentages are far lower in the other countries covered here: 0.7 percent in Germany, 0.6 in Switzerland, 0.5 in France, 0.4 in the Netherlands, and 0.3 in Austria. The differences are even more pronounced when one takes into account all events in the year 2003 (own data). In Britain, the number of reported participants was 4.2 percent of the population compared to 1.5 percent in Switzerland, 1.4 in Germany, 0.5 in the Netherlands and Austria, and 0.4 percent in France.

I examine whether the countries differ in their average position on cultural liberalism raised in the protest arena, too. In general, the results indicate that the protest arena is almost the exclusive terrain for fighting *for* cultural liberalism, and we do not find major cross-national differences with respect to the polarization of struggles within the national protest arenas.[3] Thus, we can conclude that the salience of cultural liberalism in the protest arena in the 1970s and 1980s was negatively related to the strength of the traditional class cleavage, and that there were congruent patterns of change in protest politics and more institutionalized political arenas at that time. This confirms Kriesi and Duyvendak's (1995) results. At the same time, the updated data highlight that this no longer holds for the years from 1990 to 2005 because the salience of cultural liberalism converged in the six countries examined. Let

us now see whether the conflicts over globalization in the protest arena are systematically linked to the strength of traditional cleavages and the way the integration–demarcation cleavage restructured electoral politics.

Globalization Issues in a Comparative Perspective

How does the salience of immigration, Europe, and global justice vary across the six countries? How do the single countries deviate from the general pattern described in the previous chapter? And can we trace the cross-national variation back to one of the two context factors, as suggested by the hypotheses introduced at the beginning of this chapter (again, see Figure 21)? To answer these questions, Table 8 presents the salience of the three issues by country for the years 1990 to 2005. This is the time period during which the integration–demarcation cleavage should have left its mark on political conflict in the various political arenas. Again, the table shows salience in terms of shares of events and the number of protestors involved. The salience is shown both relative to all coded issues and relative to the overall salience of the three globalization issues.

Focusing on the *salience of all three globalization issues,* the findings in Table 8 indicate three groups of countries. On the whole, the three globalization issues were by far most salient in Germany. In Germany, globalization issues account for more than 40 percent of all coded events in that period, and the number of participants involved is more than twice as high as the country mean. In terms of the overall salience, Germany is followed by a second group of countries including France, Switzerland, and Austria. This is most evident when focusing on the number of protestors. The number of participants per million inhabitants ranges from 41,200 in Austria, to 44,900 in Switzerland, to 46,100 in France. This contrasts with the participation rates in the third group of countries, that is, Britain and the Netherlands. Although around 14,100 participants were recorded for the Netherlands, the number is only 8,900 for Great Britain. This order of countries does not support one of the initial hypotheses. Thus, the salience of the three globalization issues does not seem consistently related to the strength of the old class cleavage (neither confirming the zero-sum hypothesis nor the revitalization hypothesis). Furthermore, the salience measures are not systematically related to the strength of the integration–demarcation cleavage in institutionalized political arenas. Although Germany supports the different logics argument because the new conflicts are most salient in a country where the populist radical right actors and demands are comparatively weak in electoral politics, the British case disconfirms the hypothesis because the globalization issues are by far least salient in the British protest arena.

Table 8. Salience of the three globalization issues by country, 1990–2005

a. Share of protest events as percentages

	Germany		France		Switzerland		Netherlands		Austria		Britain		mean	
Immigration	42.0[1]	(98.6)[2]	22.0	(93.4)	16.6	(71.5)	20.9	(93.9)	16.2	(87.3)	15.3	(94.7)	22.2	(90.9)
Global justice	0.4	(1.0)	1.2	(5.1)	5.7	(24.6)	0.5	(2.0)	1.0	(5.5)	0.6	(4.0)	1.6	(6.4)
Europe	0.2	(0.4)	0.3	(1.4)	0.9	(3.9)	0.9	(4.1)	1.4	(7.3)	0.2	(1.3)	0.7	(2.7)
All three issues	42.6	(100.0)	23.6	(100.0)	23.2	(100.0)	22.2	(100.0)	18.5	(100.0)	16.2	(100.0)	24.4	(100.0)

b. Number of participants per million inhabitants

	Germany		France		Switzerland		Austria		Netherlands		Britain		mean	
Immigration	69.0[1]	(99.4)[2]	36.3	(78.7)	25.0	(55.7)	40.4	(98.1)	11.1	(78.8)	4.0	(44.9)	30.9	(82.6)
Global justice	0.3	(0.4)	8.9	(19.3)	15.6	(34.7)	0.6	(1.5)	0.1	(0.7)	4.7	(52.8)	5.0	(13.4)
Europe	0.1	(0.1)	0.9	(2.0)	4.3	(9.6)	0.2	(0.5)	2.7	(20.6)	0.2	(2.2)	1.5	(4.0)
All three issues	69.4	(100.0)	46.1	(100.0)	44.9	(100.0)	41.2	(100.0)	14.1	(100.0)	8.9	(100.0)	37.4	(100.0)

[1] Number of participants per million inhabitants (in 1,000s) (calculated using the number of inhabitants in the year 2000)

[2] Share of participants as percentage of all participants taking part in protest events on immigration, global justice, or Europe

Note: The values by decade can be found in Appendix B.

If we compare the salience of the three globalization issues, Table 8 underscores that *immigration* is by far the most salient in all six countries. This supports the big picture presented in the previous chapter. The bulk of protests over globalization issues deal with immigration, and migration-related protests attract the most participants. Apart from Germany, protests focused on immigration were never as salient as those focused on cultural liberalism in the 1980s. From 1990 to 2005, the share of immigration protests as a percentage of all coded events ranged from 15.3 percent in Britain to 42.0 percent in Germany. The other four countries, that is, Austria, France, the Netherlands, and Switzerland, come closer to the British case, with no more than 22 percent of protests by, against, or on behalf of migrants. In these four countries the populist right-wing challengers were comparatively successful in restructuring electoral politics, and although immigration was on the rise from the 1990s, its salience remains limited—above all based on the number of participants. Furthermore, the participation rates indicate that the timing of this development differs across the countries. France saw some mass mobilization in the 1980s. The Netherlands, by contrast, never saw large-scale protests on immigration issues, and the height of such protests in Austria and Switzerland was in the 1990s.

What about the two countries where the populist radical right was not as successful in entering electoral politics? As shown, only Germany confirms the counterweight argument. While the German electoral arena transformed the least, its protest arena was most forcefully shaken by the rise of migration-related events. Immigration protests were almost nonexistent in Germany before the 1990s but dominate the German protest landscape thereafter (see also Grumke 2008; Karapin 2007; Koopmans and Olzak 2004; Rucht 2003). Immigration is even more salient in Germany when we include events taking place in the eastern part of the country (immigration accounts for 79.9 percent of all the events coded in East Germany from 1990 to 2005).[4] As already stated when focusing on all globalization issues, Britain, the other country with no strong populist radical right party, does not support the counterweight argument. However, we witness a revitalization of migration-related protests in Britain, too.

In all countries, *global justice* is less salient than immigration in terms of events and participants. As the findings in Table 8 show, Switzerland is the only country where global justice events account for more than 5 percent of all reported events in the period 1990 to 2005 (see also Hutter and Giugni 2009). In addition, in Switzerland, we observe quite a significant level of mobilization when looking at the number of protestors per million inhabitants involved in global justice mobilization. Relative to immigration and European

integration, around a quarter of all events and a third of all participants concerned global justice in Switzerland. Apart from the G8 summit in Evian in 2003, protests surrounding the annual World Economic Forum in Davos are responsible for the high salience of global justice in Switzerland (see also Bandler and Giugni 2008; Eggert and Giugni 2007). With respect to the number of people taking part in global justice protests, Switzerland is followed by France and Britain, where the mobilization levels are far higher than in Austria, Germany, and the Netherlands. From 1990 to 2005, the standardized number of participants in the latter group of countries is almost negligible. Note that the massive protests focused on global justice in Germany took place in the year 2007, when the G8 heads of government met in Heiligendamm. All these findings suggest that the salience of global justice protests seems not to be systematically related to the strength of traditional cleavages or party competition. By contrast, it simply seems that it is the location of international events and organizations that explains cross-national differences (Hadden and Tarrow 2007a, b). This again underscores that conflicts over global justice tend to follow a logic of highly visible but infrequent international events staged by established political actors (which might be a reason for the rather low salience of the issue as compared to immigration, see chapter 5).

Finally, *European integration* is not a salient issue in any of the countries under scrutiny. The share of protest events on European integration is highest in Austria, but still accounts for only 1.4 percent of all coded events and 7.3 percent of all protests over the three globalization issues in the period 1999 to 2005. Only in the nonmember state, Switzerland, does the number of participants per million inhabitants indicate some mass involvement in protests related to constitutional aspects of European integration. This is mainly because of mass demonstrations that took place after the highly politicized referendum campaign on Switzerland's membership of the European Economic Area in 1992. Switzerland is also among those countries where European integration has been quite salient in electoral politics. However, European integration is not a salient protest issue in Britain, where the public is relatively apprehensive about European integration and where we observe a comparatively salient debate over European integration in election campaigns, too. Thus, it is hard to explain the cross-national pattern by relying on the same explanatory factors as found for electoral politics (see Kriesi 2007b). In any case, one should not overemphasize the differences shown in Table 8, because European integration is a low salience issue in all countries.

Because the salience of the globalization issues in the protest arena is not systematically linked to the context factors introduced at the beginning of this chapter, I turn to the question of how the *degree of polarization* varies

across the six countries. More specifically, I focus on conflicts over immigration. This is because the number of events coded allows more detailed analyses and because the averages presented in the previous chapter already indicated quite polarized struggles within the protest arena itself. Most important, the data indicate that British and German protest politics are the most polarized in conflicts over immigration. This is illustrated by Figure 23, which shows the share of pro- and anti-immigration claims in the protest arena by country.[5] Here, we see that the degree of polarization is higher in Britain and Germany (the two countries with no strong right-populist challenger in the electoral arena) than in the other four countries, where the activists in the protest arena mainly try to counter the populist radical right's activities in the electoral arenas (see Giugni et al. 2005). This tends to support the thesis of an inverse relationship between electoral and protest politics on the political right. Voices *against* immigration are relatively more prominent in the protest arenas of those countries where the populist radical right could not as successfully establish itself in the electoral arena.

To sum up, the protest event data do not confirm the hypotheses that the salience of globalization protests is systematically related to the strength of the traditional class cleavage in a given country. Thus, the results do not support

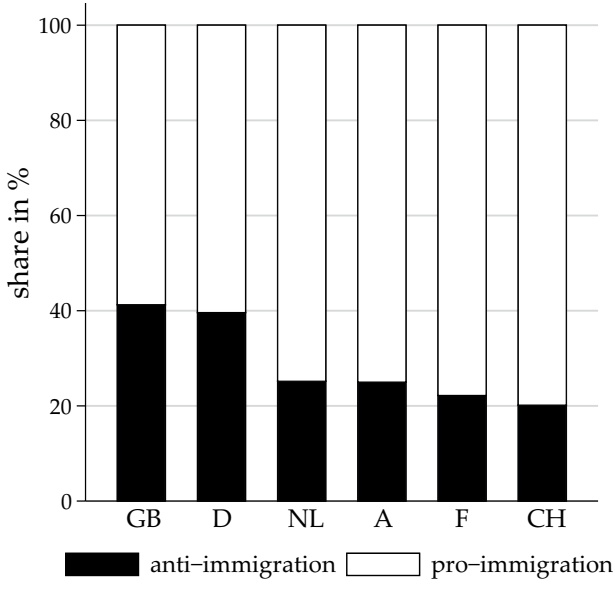


Figure 23. Pro- and anti-immigration events by country. Share of anti- and pro-immigration events as percentage of all migration-related events coded from 1975 to 2005.

Kriesi's (2008) zero-sum hypothesis nor the revitalization hypothesis proposed by della Porta (2007a). In addition, the way the integration–demarcation cleavage affected electoral politics also does not seem to be systematically related to the salience of globalization issues in the protest arena. However, conflicts over immigration (that is, over the most salient globalization issue) seem to be most polarized in countries where the populist radical right and its political demands could not so successfully enter electoral politics. Thus, the strength of the new integration–demarcation cleavage in electoral terms might not influence the salience of globalization conflicts in the protest arena but rather the way the conflicts are fought. This underscores that it is important to study issue divides by looking at salience and polarization. To shed more light on how the conflicts vary across countries, the final section takes a closer look at the dynamics of mobilization and counter-mobilization both in the protest arena and across arenas. More specifically, I zoom in on the conflict over immigration by relying on additional information provided by the protest event data and by quoting specific examples of immigration protests hidden behind the aggregated figures that I have presented so far. This should give us a preliminary answer to the question of whether the new challengers from the right follow an either/or logic when it comes to the interplay of protest and electoral politics.

Conflicts over Immigration and the Dynamics of Counter-Mobilization

This section takes up the idea that those interested in the relationship between protest activities and their broader political context should look at the interactions between adversaries within and across political arenas (sees chapter 2). Following Zald and Useem (1987, 257), we can talk about closely or loosely coupled "tangos." *Closely coupled* refers to interactions that take place in the same arena. By contrast, interactions are *loosely coupled* when they do not take place in the same arena. Taking up this distinction, I elaborate on two major findings presented so far. First, conflicts over immigration differ from conflicts over other issues because we find a more closely coupled interaction between adversaries in the protest arena itself. Second, this closely coupled pattern is most pronounced in countries where the populist radical right challengers were less successful in the electoral arena.

Findings Based on the Protest Event Data

To begin with, I assess the closely coupled interaction in the protest arena with the help of the protest event data. On the one hand, I rely on a variable that indicates whether a certain protest was explicitly organized as an event to *counter* another protest. Unfortunately, the variable is not available for the

whole research period.[6] Out of all events for which the variable has been coded (N = 7,272), only 396 protests are coded as counter-events. On average, 57.5 percent of all counter-events center on immigration, followed by cultural liberalism with 14.6 percent. To put it differently, this means that 13.7 percent of all immigration events are explicit counter-events (the corresponding share is only 4.1 for cultural liberalism). This again emphasizes that conflicts over immigration are far more polarized in the protest arena than are conflicts over cultural liberalism and other protest issues.

On the other hand, I look again at the issue positions and run simple bivariate regressions to see whether the advocates of tougher immigration and their opponents wax and wane congruently in the protest arena (for a similar strategy, see Koopmans and Duyvendak 1991). At first, let us look at the share of pro-immigration and anti-immigration protests as percentages of all coded events per decade to examine long-term changes over time. Figure 24 shows these values as well as a linear trend line. As can be seen from the figure, the shares of pro- and anti-immigration protest events per country and decade are closely related to each other (r = 0.74). The evolution of participant rates shows a similar pattern (r = 0.70). Both relationships also hold when controlling for decade and country effects in multivariate regressions (results not shown). In a comparative perspective, the simple regression analyses indicate that pro- and anti-immigration events are most closely related in Britain and Germany. We find a positive and significant relationship for these two countries based only on shares of events and participation figures by decade (N = 4 decades; results not shown). Although care should be taken when analyzing the salience of specific issues per year with the help of the present data set, I perform the same kind of analysis for single years. Again, the findings suggest that we observe the strongest positive relation between protests for and against immigration in Britain and Germany (r = 0.71 for Germany and 0.62 for Britain; N = 31 years).

Some Illustrative Examples

To conclude this chapter, I illustrate cross-national differences with respect to conflicts over immigration by briefly pointing to some of the most important protest episodes hidden behind the aggregated figures. As stated before, migration-related issues were almost absent from the German protest arena before the 1990s (Rucht and Heitmeyer 2008, 588). During the early 1990s, violent attacks against asylum seekers and other migrant groups shocked the country, reaching a peak during 1992 and 1993. The most well-known examples are the violent riots that took place in Rostock-Lichtenhagen in August 1992. These and other events led to a massive counter-mobilization that

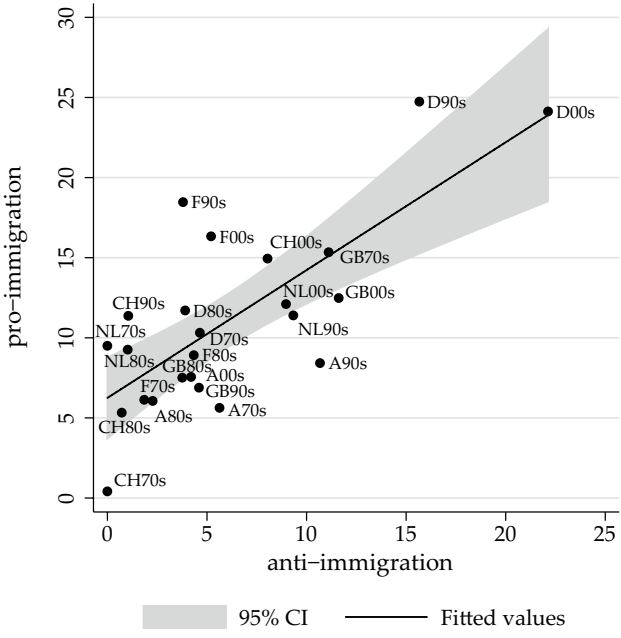


Figure 24. The share of pro- and anti-immigration events by decade and country. r = *0.74. Share of anti- and pro-immigration events as percentage of all coded events by decade and country. For example, the share of protests in favor of immigration was 15.1 percent in Britain in the 1970s, while the share of protests against immigration was 11.1 at the time.*

culminated in the *Lichterketten,* when up to 400,000 people took part in single protest events. Although the number of participants declined strongly in Germany in the early 2000s, the continual spiral of mobilization and countermobilization did not end. In part, this was caused by the strategy of Germany's National Democratic Party (NPD) to "battle for the street." Following this strategy, the party organized far more demonstrative events from the late 1990s, which then became the target of counter-events (Grumke 2008; Virchow 2007). This contrasts sharply with the strategies of the more successful parties in Austria, France, and Switzerland (see chapter 2).

In Britain, the mid-1970s already saw a rise in electoral support for the National Front and violent street-level conflicts with opponents, peaking in 1978 (Brittan 1987). Efforts to counter the radical right culminated in 1978 when *Rock against Racism* and the Anti-Nazi League (ANL) organized a march

and an open-air concert in London that attracted more than 80,000 people. The fact that migration-related issues later returned to the protest arena is again closely linked to the reemergence of a radical right-wing challenger, namely, the British National Party (Eatwell 2004). Riots in Bradford and other English cities in 2001 are another example of the close coupling of pro- and anti-immigration protests, because some of the riots were again triggered by the mobilization of the radical right on the streets (Bagguley and Hussain 2008). Bagguley and Hussain (2008, 63) argue, "The most important features of the events prior to the riots were the role of the mobilization of the far right and the South Asian communities' perception of a failure of the police to deal with this." Again, the British radical right's strategy was not restricted to the electoral arena but included demonstrations and even violent protest events, which provoked massive counter-mobilization.

In countries with more successful populist radical right parties, the main pro-immigration protests did not counter the right's activities on the streets but their success and claim-making in more institutionalized arenas. In Austria, for example, the most important pro-immigration protests challenged the FPÖ (The Freedom Party of Austria) initiated referendum "Austria first," which would have reduced the rights and number of immigrants living in Austria. In answer to the referendum, the anti-racist organization *SOS Mitmensch* was founded to co-organize the protests (Foltin 2004). As Thränhardt (2008, 5) states, the "protests against Haider's xenophobic agitation . . . culminated in the 'Wiener Lichtermeer' in 1993, the largest demonstration in Vienna since 1945." Similarly, in France, the emergence of pro-immigration protests during the 1980s is seen as a "direct reaction to the rise of the Front National" (Appleton 1999, 66; see also Taguieff 1995; Waters 2003). The huge demonstrations in 2002, when Le Pen succeeded in getting to the second round in the presidential elections, are a more recent example of how protests are used to counter the rise of the populist radical right in the electoral arena (Ancelovici 2008, 87). In Switzerland, a popular initiative supported by the SVP (Swiss People's Party) and other small radical right parties also provoked some of the largest pro-immigration protests in the year 2000. The initiative required that the proportion of foreigners should not exceed 18 percent of the Swiss population. All these examples underscore that protest politics is a main site where pro-immigration forces counter the anti-immigration discourse of the populist radical right in institutionalized arenas.

By focusing more closely on immigration and by giving examples of major immigration protests, I have shown that conflicts over the most salient globalization issue differ from conflicts over other protest issues because the conflicts are more polarized in the protest arena itself, and this closely coupled

tango of mobilization and counter-mobilization tends to be most pronounced in countries where the populist radical right-wing challengers were less successful in the electoral arena.

Summary

This chapter has analyzed the issue divides in a comparative perspective. First, I confirmed earlier research by showing that cultural liberalism (the key issue associated with the new class cleavage) was most salient in countries with a pacified class cleavage and where the left-libertarian forces were most successful in restructuring institutionalized politics. At the same time, the updated data highlight that the salience of cultural liberalism converged in the six countries from the 1990s. Thus, we no longer find such a close relationship with the strength of the traditional class cleavage. By contrast, the salience of globalization issues in general, and immigration more specifically, is neither closely related to the (declining) class cleavage strength nor to the institutionalized strength of the new integration–demarcation cleavage. However, conflicts over immigration in the protest arena tend to be more polarized in countries where no populist right-wing challenger could establish itself as a significant force in national party competition (that is, in Britain and Germany). This suggests that the populist radical right is characterized by an inverse relationship between electoral and protest mobilization. The more successful the populist radical right is in electoral terms, the less salient its claims are in the protest arena. Furthermore, conflicts over immigration are characterized by a *closely* coupled mobilization and counter-mobilization within the British and German protest arenas, while in the other countries we observe instead a *loosely* coupled conflict across arenas. That is, pro-immigration forces on the streets oppose the activities of the populist radical right in more institutionalized arenas.

By studying conflict intensity, transnationalization, and issue divides from 1975 to 2005, we have seen that protest politics is also affected by the emergence of a new integration–demarcation cleavage. However, the changes are less pronounced than both the earlier wave of political change driven by left-libertarian challengers and the changes in electoral politics. Chapter 7 examines more systematically the relationship between protest and electoral politics to see whether the different driving forces of change and their preferences for specific political arenas might explain these differences.

7

Different Logics at Work? The Relationship between Protest and Electoral Politics

The previous chapters have shown that globalization has led to new potentials on the demand side, and that these potentials have in turn restructured political mobilization. The patterns of change differ significantly across arenas of mobilization, however. The protest arena continues to be far more shaped by cultural liberalism, the main issue of the left-libertarian round, than does the electoral arena. During the years of the first round, the driving forces of political change were located on the political left in general and in new social movements more specifically. Since the 1990s, the momentum has shifted to the right, with its driving force—the populist radical right—forcefully restructuring party competition. By contrast, protest politics tends to be mainly the site of those who try to counter the rise of the populist radical right in more institutionalized settings.

The main goal of this chapter is to elaborate on these differences and explain the differing patterns of change. I do so by focusing on the relationship between electoral and protest politics, and, more specifically, by testing the three theses introduced in chapter 2: the congruence, counterweight, and different logics theses. The last thesis is most important, because it argues that the shift from left to right might be the source of the differing development paths the conflict structures have taken in electoral politics as compared to protest politics. Thus, this chapter systematically tests whether there are indeed different logics at work on the left and on the right: The left waxes and wanes at the same time in both arenas; for the right, when its actors and issue positions become more salient in one arena, their salience decreases in the other.

The relationship between electoral and protest politics is examined on two levels. One compares the salience of issue positions across arenas. The other looks at the role of political parties in both electoral politics and protest politics. Thus, left- and right-wing mobilization is inferred from the issue positions mobilized and from the ideological orientation of political parties. The first two sections are devoted to a comparison of issue positions. This part is structured according to the time span analyzed: moving from decades to legislative periods. Focusing on legislative periods allows the incorporation of the configuration of power faced by challengers, which mainly changes from one election to another. Afterward, I shift the perspective and study the activities of political parties in the electoral arena and in the protest arena. Here, I present another test of the different logics thesis by comparing the presence of party groups across arenas, and I compare which issues the different parties emphasize and which positions they take in the two arenas.

Tracing the Salience of Issue Positions over Decades

This section compares the salience of issue positions in electoral and protest politics over the decades. On the one hand, I focus here on cross-national differences and ask whether an issue position that is salient in the national electoral arena has below-average salience in the protest arena. This is the static variant. On the other hand, I also ask whether and how changes from one decade to the next relate across arenas. Does the rise of a certain issue position in the protest arena go hand in hand with a higher or lower salience in electoral politics? More specifically, the focus is on the cultural and economic dimensions of the political space, distinguishing between positions favoring integration and favoring demarcation. To repeat, the congruence thesis, which is still the standard model of movement research, posits a positive relationship, because openings in established political arenas should lead to protest mobilization advocating similar claims. The counterweight thesis argues the opposite: protest politics acts as an alternative for those groups and political demands that have not successfully entered electoral politics. Thus, if we found consistent patterns across the whole spectrum of issue positions, it would support the congruence thesis (positive sign) or the counterweight thesis (negative sign). The different logics thesis, by contrast, suggests that those striving for economic integration or cultural demarcation (that is, those on the right) systematically differ from those fighting for cultural integration or economic demarcation (that is, those on the left). In other words, the different logics thesis assumes that there will be a positive relationship between protest and electoral politics on the left, and a negative one on the right (again, see chapter 2).

When tracing the relationship over decades, the media data of Kriesi et al. (2008b, 2012) are used. Because of the number of elections covered by this data set, the analysis is restricted to three decades: the 1970s, the 1990s, and the 2000s. Salience in the electoral arena is measured by the share of core sentences, and salience in the protest arena by the relative share of protest events. For the static variant, I first standardize the shares by arena and decade to account for the differing selection biases in the two data sets (on the bias, see Appendix A). As a result, I obtain measures indicating how far the salience of an issue position in country X deviates from the mean obtained across all the countries examined. For example, the standardized salience of cultural integration in Austria is –0.67. This means that cultural integration is more than half a standard deviation less salient in Austria than across all six countries. For the more dynamic question, the relative changes from the 1970s to the 1990s and from the 1990s to the 2000s are calculated:

$$shift = \frac{salience\ t1 - salience\ t0}{salience\ t0}$$

The salience of cultural integration in the Austrian protest arena, for example, increased from 30.1 to 34.3 percent from the 1970s to the 1990s. This is a relative increase of 0.14.

Table 9 shows simple Pearson's correlation coefficients both between the standardized salience in the two arenas (static variant) and between the shifts in electoral and protest politics (dynamic variant). Overall, the empirical results support the different logics thesis. The correlation coefficients for challengers from the left are almost all positive, whereas those of challengers from the right are only negative. That is, the more the left dominates national electoral politics, the more salient its issue positions are in the protest arena. This can be seen both cross-nationally and longitudinally. In other words, when the left is on the rise in electoral politics, it is also more likely to be on the rise in the protest arena. The opposite patterns hold for challengers from the right. The more salient cultural demarcation and economic integration are during election campaigns, the less salient they are as a main goal of protest mobilization. Furthermore, the right's fortunes, over time, in the protest arena are negatively related to its fortunes in the electoral arena. Rising shares of its concerns (that is, cultural demarcation and economic integration) in one arena tend to lead to decreasing shares in the other arena.

With such a small number of cases, a few outliers might distort the measure tremendously. Therefore, the results based on the correlation coefficients are cross-checked by looking at scatter plots and two additional measures. First, the absolute difference was calculated, meaning how far the standardized

Table 9. The relationship between electoral and protest politics over the decades

	Static	Dynamic	N
Challengers from the left	0.31*	0.41**	36/24
Cultural integration	0.18	−0.04	18/12
Economic demarcation	0.44*	0.74***	18/12
Challengers from the right	−0.31*	−0.20	36/24
Cultural demarcation	−0.30	−0.13	18/12
Economic integration	−0.32	−0.35	18/12

Pearson's correlation coefficients; *** $p < 0.01$, ** $p < 0.05$, * $p < 0.1$

Note: The number of cases refers to country/time combinations. For the static variant, we look at decades (i.e., the 1970s, 1990s, and 2000s). For the dynamic variant, we analyze changes from one decade to another.

salience, or shifts in electoral politics and in protest politics, deviate from one another. Second, a dummy variable was calculated to establish whether the standardized salience or shifts have the same sign. For example, cultural integration has become more salient in both protest and electoral politics in Austria from the 1970s to the 1990s, so it is therefore coded as one, indicating a congruent shift across the two arenas. Note that the scatter plots and the other two measures support the general impression provided by the correlation coefficients: the absolute differences between the two arenas are smaller, and the share of congruent deviations greater for the left-wing issue positions as compared to the right-wing positions. Furthermore, these results are significant when country and decade effects are controlled for, as has been done in the regression models with the two additional measures as dependent variables (results available from the author). At the same time, it should be added that the results are not conclusive because the correlation coefficients are usually fairly low, and the results for the economic categories are more pronounced than the results for the cultural categories. Therefore, the next sections present additional tests by focusing on electoral periods and by comparing the activities of party groups across arenas.

Tracing the Relationship over Legislative Periods

Let us now look at the relationship between protest and its electoral context over legislative periods. Here, the question is whether and how an issue position's salience in protest politics is related to its electoral context in a given electoral period. To cover as many full electoral periods as possible, I take advantage of the longer time period covered by the Comparative Manifestos Project (CMP) (forty-three complete legislative periods are covered here).

Focusing on electoral periods most closely reflects the temporal changes in the configuration of power. A major aim of this section is to compare the impact of these more formal aspects of the context faced by protesters and the issue-specific signals sent out by political parties. As argued in chapter 2, I classify the latter as *signaling* elements of the political context and the former as *structural* elements, which movement protagonists must find harder to interpret. By introducing this distinction, I follow Meyer and Minkoff (2004, 1463), who attempt to answer "to which degree activists are cognizant of changes in political opportunity." This should help us to get one step further in understanding the dynamic interaction between protest and electoral politics.

Regarding the configuration of power, most scholars' attention has focused on the government participation of allies (for example, Kriesi 1995; Maguire 1995; van Dyke 2003). According to Kriesi (1989b; 1995), party political allies in opposition facilitate protest mobilization the most. Even though such allies cannot offer any substantial concessions, they are not bound by the constraints of established policies and the diverse societal forces that a government needs to take into account. At the same time, a party in government can offer at least some concessions to its allies in the protest arena, which, in turn, decreases the need for protest mobilization. In a similar vein, Maguire (1995, 99) argues that the reinforcing interaction between protest and electoral politics is particularly prevalent when the main party's political allies are in opposition because they try to build large social coalitions for electoral purposes and promise to deliver some policy goals when in power. Van Dyke (2003, 244) puts forward a very similar argument based on her findings for student protests in the United States. To explain the difference, she assumes also that allies in Congress are more accountable and accessible to their constituents than those in the executive branch.

The following analysis tests these claims by comparing the salience of issue positions in electoral and protest politics over legislative periods. The salience in protest politics is again measured by the relative share of an issue position in percentages of all protest events coded during a legislative period. *Electoral salience* refers to the share of sentences focused on a given issue position in percentages of all sentences in party manifestos. The values for the single parties included in the manifesto data are weighted by their vote share to gain a salience measure for the electoral arena as a whole. As argued, this measure can be interpreted as friendly signals sent out by political parties. Because protests favoring economic integration are relatively marginal (chapter 5), they are no longer covered when focusing on changes over legislative periods. The configuration of power is assessed by looking at the electoral strength of party political allies both in the legislative and in the executive.

The legislative strength is measured by the vote share of allies,[1] and the government composition is measured with the help of an index proposed by Schmidt (1992) ranging from 1 (right dominance) to 5 (left dominance) for challengers from the left and from 1 (left dominance) to 5 (right dominance) for challengers from the right.[2]

Ordinary least squares (OLS) regressions are used, and all models are cross-checked by running fractional logit models as well as by relying on yearly figures and time-series cross-section models. The results, however, do not significantly differ (results available from the author). Thus, I report the results from the simple OLS regressions only. There are two problems when including all variables on the configuration of power in a single model. First, and unsurprisingly, the electoral strength of allies is highly correlated with government composition. Second, the composition of the Swiss government does not change during the research period. Therefore, I always run five models. The first three models cover all forty-three electoral periods in the six countries. Model 1 includes the issue signals sent out in the electoral arena, and model 2 focuses on the effect of the vote share of allies on protest mobilization. This allows a comparison between the impact of discursive issue signals and the configuration of power. Model 3 includes both types of independent variables. Model 4 includes issue signals and vote share but excludes Switzerland (N = 36). Model 5 also excludes the Swiss cases but looks at the effects of government composition and of issue signals. Thus, the last two models allow me to compare the effects of the strength of allies in the legislature and the executive.

As can be seen from Table 10, we only find significant relationships between an issue positions' salience in protest politics and its electoral context when focusing on cultural integration and cultural demarcation. Neither the signaling nor the structural elements have a significant effect on the salience of economic demarcation in the protest arena. Most important, the directions of the significant effects do not differ between left-wing and right-wing mobilization (as inferred from the issue positions mobilized). Friendly issue signals of allies positively affect the salience of both cultural integration and cultural demarcation.[3] In other words, the more salient the two positions are in electoral politics, the more salient they are in protest politics. In contrast with friendly issue signals, the strength of allies both in the legislative and in the executive branches of government tends to decrease the likelihood of protest mobilization. This holds above all for cultural integration, although the signs of the relationship do not differ across the three issue positions. This finding supports others who have challenged the simple congruence thesis and argued that a strong ally in government tends to decrease protest mobilization (for example, Jung 2010; Koopmans and Rucht 1995; Kriesi 1995; Maguire

Table 10. The relationship between protest and electoral politics over electoral periods

	Model 1		Model 2		Model 3		Model 4		Model 5	
	Coef.	SE	Coef.	SE	Coef.	SE	Coef.	SE	Coef.	SE
Challengers from the left Salience of cultural integration							excl. CH		excl. CH	
Issue signals from Allies	0.90**	(0.45)			0.96**	(0.45)	1.27***	(0.46)	1.26***	(0.46)
Allies' electoral strength			−0.73*	(0.42)	−0.79*	(0.40)	−0.82**	(0.37)		
Government participation by Allies									−0.02*	(0.01)
N	43		43		43		36		36	
Pseudo r^2	0.25		0.24		0.30		0.43		0.41	
Challengers from the left Salience of economic demarcation										
Issue signals from Allies	−0.32	(0.33)			−0.28	(0.32)	−0.12	(0.34)	−0.18	(0.36)
Allies' electoral strength			−0.37	(0.28)	−0.35	(0.28)	−0.41	(0.28)		
Government participation by Allies									0.00	(0.01)
N	43		43		43		36		36	
Pseudo r^2	0.19		0.21		0.21		0.22		0.16	
Challengers from the right Salience of cultural demarcation										
Issue signals from Allies	0.61**	(0.23)			0.55**	(0.23)	0.56**	(0.27)	0.55**	(0.27)
Allies' electoral strength			−0.22*	(0.16)	−0.21	(0.15)	−0.21	(0.17)		
Government participation by Allies									−0.01	(0.01)
N	43		43		43		36		36	
Adjusted r^2	0.30		0.22		0.31		0.15		0.14	

*** p < 0.01, ** p < 0.05, * p < 0.1; OLS regressions, standard errors in parentheses; country dummies included in all models

Note: The number of cases refers to the number of electoral periods covered in all six countries. The dependent and independent variables are discussed in the text. Because protests favoring economic integration are relatively marginal, they are no longer covered in this section.

1995; Soule et al. 1999; van Dyke 2003). Comparing the results of model 4 and model 5 does not confirm van Dyke (2003), who argued that legislative allies are more accountable and accessible than executive allies. The differing results, however, might be because of the fact that here I focus mainly on parliamentary democracies. In this context, vote share and government composition cannot as neatly measure legislative and executive allies, as suggested by van Dyke (2003) for the United States.

What can we say about the difference between issue signals and the more structural elements faced by protestors? For cultural integration and economic demarcation, the adjusted r^2 does not indicate a higher explanatory power of issue signals as compared to the more structural elements measured by electoral strength and government composition. Issue signals tend to be only a little more powerful in explaining the salience of cultural demarcation in protest politics. Unfortunately, this does not give a clear answer to the question of whether challengers in the protest arena should be conceptualized as "strategic respondents" who mainly react to signaling elements or as "consistent champions" who profit from structural changes (Meyer 2004).

To sum up, the findings based on the salience of issue positions suggest that, with respect to the interplay of the arenas, different logics are at work on the left and right when looking at the broad shifts over decades. However, these different logics are no longer observable when focusing on electoral periods and yearly figures. This suggests that the trends of left-wing and right-wing claims in electoral and protest politics might follow different logics in the long run. Therefore, the next section comes back to the different logics argument by focusing on the involvement of left- and right-wing party groups in protest and electoral politics.

Political Parties in Protest and Electoral Politics

The Presence of Party Groups in Protest and Electoral Politics

So far, I have inferred left- and right-wing mobilization from the issue positions mobilized. In the following, I take a closer look at the presence of different party groups in protest and electoral politics. Political parties "enter" both arenas, so we can compare their presence, issue salience, and positions. Political parties are the most important players in the electoral arena, but parties are also involved in protest events; they both stage their own and coorganize or support events by other actors. Parties were involved in 7.8 percent of all protest events coded, and around 15 percent of all protest participants are involved in party-supported events.

For the following analyses, the political parties are divided into four groups: the radical left includes the old communist and the new libertarian

left (including Green parties and new left parties), the moderate left corresponds to the Social Democrats, the moderate right is composed of Liberals, Conservatives, and Christian Democrats, while the radical right includes new populist right and smaller radical right-wing parties, as well as the transformed mainstream parties in Austria (The Freedom Party of Austria, FPÖ) and Switzerland (Swiss People's Party, SVP). My interest is in how mobilization in the two arenas is related, whether there are systematic differences between political parties on the left and on the right, and whether the different logics thesis is borne out. Are political parties on the left more likely to support protest activities the more successful they are in electoral terms? Can we observe an inverse relationship between mobilization attempts by the radical right in electoral and protest politics?

The presence of a party group in the two arenas is compared by relying on its share of all party-sponsored protest events, as well as its share of all core sentences. Another measure for its strength in the electoral arena is added, namely, its share of the vote. Because this measure is available for the whole period, we can examine how a party's presence in election campaigns and in the protest arena differs from its electoral success.

As Figure 25 shows, there are hardly any differences between campaign presence and vote share in the electoral arena. The moderate parties on both the left and the right are more salient in the electoral arena than their radical counterparts are. We observe a completely different pattern when looking at the protest arena, however. The radical left is by far the most important party group in the arena of protest politics (Kriesi 1995, 68.). Furthermore, both the radical left and the radical right are far more salient in protest politics than in the electoral arena. Thus, the radical factions of both the left and right dominate in protest politics. The moderate right is least often reported as supporting protest activities. The most important party group in the electoral arena is therefore the least often heard in the protest arena.

In a comparative perspective, the dominance both of left over right and of radical party groups over moderate groups is supported (results not shown). The left is more salient than the right, and the radical left dominates over the moderate left in five of the six countries.[4] As for the right, two countries—Austria and Switzerland—deviate from the dominance of the radical right within the right. Thus, the two most successful right-populist challengers at the polls push their claims less often through the channel of protest politics than do the mainstream parties on the right in their respective countries. Again, this tends to support the expectation that the populist radical right is less involved in protest politics once it has successfully entered institutionalized channels of interest mobilization.

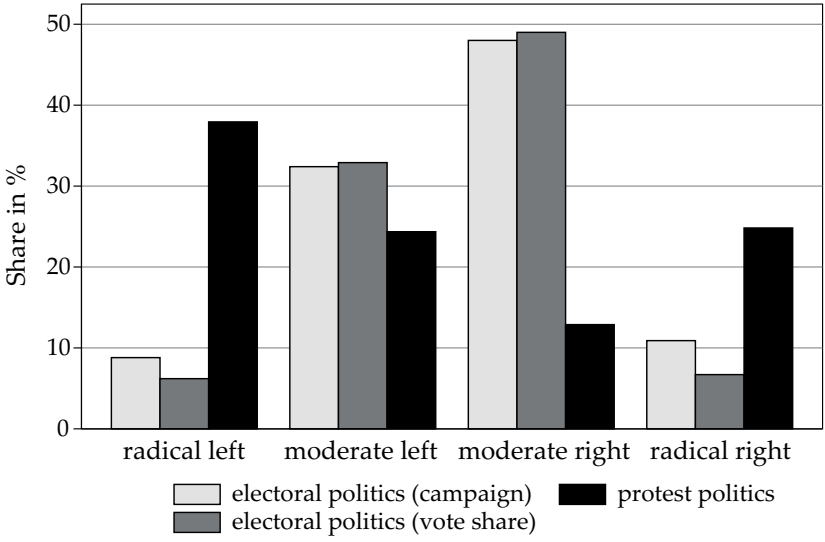


Figure 25. Presence of party groups by arena. Electoral politics (campaign) refers to the share of core sentences with the respective party as subject-actor as a percentage of all coded sentences (N = 37,283); electoral politics (vote share) refers to the share of votes in the first round for the first chamber of the national parliament; protest politics refers to the share of all protest events that involve at least one party (N = 1,899). The values shown are country averages for the 1970s, the 1990s, and the early 2000s.

To show that different logics are at work on the left and on the right more systematically, I run a straightforward regression analysis. I look at the presence of the four party groups in protest and electoral politics in the individual decades. For the electoral arena, the vote shares are used. For the protest arena, a party group's share of all coded events is used. The multivariate models include dummy variables to control for country and decade effects. The dependent variable is the relative importance of a party group in protest politics.

The first model in Table 11 shows that the two party camps on the left are, indeed, more likely to turn to protest activities than the party groups on the right. The radical right is not significantly more salient than the moderate right. Furthermore, if party groups are controlled for, electoral strength does not have an added impact on how forcefully different parties enter the protest arena. The second model includes all interactions of party group and vote share.[5] It shows that the direction of the relationship between the two

arenas indeed depends mainly on the party group. The radical left, moderate left, and radical right-wing parties are more likely to enter the protest arena than the moderate right is. The interaction terms, however, confirm that different logics are at work on the radical left and the radical right: the more successful the radical right is in electoral terms, the more it abstains from protest activities. By contrast, the more voters the radical left attracts, the more present it is in protest politics. Again, this indicates that the political left and the political right follow different logics regarding the long-term relationship between mobilization in the protest arena and the electoral arena.

Table 11. Impact of party group and electoral strength on presence in protest politics

	Model 1			Model 2		
	Coef.	SE	*P* > *t*	Coef.	SE	*P* > *t*
Party group						
Radical left	2.16	1.26	*	1.95	0.68	***
Moderate left	1.37	0.69	**	1.64	0.53	***
Radical right	0.25	1.26	ns	1.91	0.63	***
Moderate right (ref.)						
Presence in electoral politics						
Share of votes	–0.02	0.03	ns	–0.00	0.04	ns
Share of votes* radical left				0.16	0.07	**
Share of votes* moderate left				–0.04	0.07	ns
Share of votes* radical right				–0.15	0.06	**
Decade and country dummies						
1980s	0.39	0.56	ns	0.41	0.52	ns
1990s	0.01	0.59	ns	0.07	0.58	ns
2000s	0.48	0.56	ns	0.50	0.56	ns
1970s (ref.)						
Switzerland	–0.58	0.74	ns	0.28	0.75	ns
Netherlands	–1.15	0.68	*	–0.84	0.71	ns
Germany	0.76	0.68	ns	1.04	0.70	ns
Austria	–0.24	0.68	ns	0.58	0.72	ns
Great Britain	–1.17	0.68	*	–0.63	0.76	ns
France (ref.)						
Constant	2.86	1.44	*	1.68	0.66	**
(*N*)		(92)			(92)	
Adjusted r^2		0.24			0.34	

*** $p < 0.01$, ** $p < 0.05$, * $p < 0.1$; OLS regressions, unstandardized coefficients

Note: The dependent variable is the share of protest events that are supported by a party group as a percentage of all coded protest events. The number of cases equals four party groups multiplied by four decades multiplied by six countries; missing values for Switzerland during the 1990s.

The Populist Radical Right as the Driving Force of Change?

Finally, I compare which issues the different parties emphasize and which positions they take in the two arenas. More specifically, the focus is on the cultural and economic dimensions of the political space and on cultural liberalism and immigration, the two most salient new cultural issues. I am mainly interested in establishing whether the radical right is the main protagonist of cultural demarcation in both arenas and whether any differences exist in the actor constellations.

First, let us look at *issue salience.* Figure 26 presents the average salience by party group.[6] The four party groups are ranked in the same way in electoral and in protest politics. In both arenas, the radical right emphasizes cultural issues more than the other three party groups. Economic issues, by contrast, are the least salient for mobilization by the radical right when compared to all the other parties. This holds for the national electoral arena and for the protest arena. All other effects are no longer significant when other parameters (country, decade) are controlled for. The radical right is the main voice of migration-related issues in electoral and protest politics, but it focuses far more on immigration in protest politics than the other party groups do. Around 60 percent of all protest events supported by the radical right deal with immigration. Cultural liberalism, by contrast, is more important for the radical right's electoral politics than it is for its protest politics. This means the radical right infrequently mobilizes over cultural liberalism, for example, over the rights of homosexuals or abortion. This is in contrast with the United States, where opposition to these questions fueled the rise of conservative populism (Frank 2005). In the electoral arena, the party groups do not significantly differ in how much they emphasize cultural liberalism.

Next, I turn to the average *issue positions* taken by the party groups (see Figure 27). For cultural issues in general and in the two specific categories, the four party groups rank in a very similar way in the two arenas. At the same time, the findings highlight that the average positions taken in the protest arena are more polarized than the positions taken in the electoral arena. In protest politics, the left and the moderate right are far more integration-friendly on cultural issues. The radical right, by contrast, insists even more forcefully on cultural demarcation. Consequently, protest politics is characterized by an actor constellation of "one against all the others" (Minkenberg 2003), meaning the populist radical right against all other party groups. In electoral politics, the four party groups spread out more evenly in positions taken on cultural issues. In the case of immigration, the moderate right comes particularly close to the position of the populist radical right, which underscores the impact of the radical right, and the tendency of some established

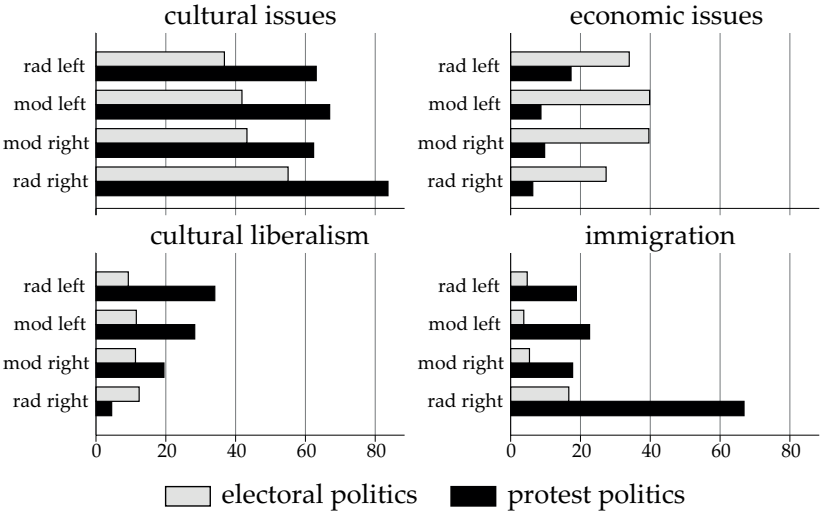


Figure 26. Issue salience by party group and arena. Electoral politics refers to the share of an issue as a percentage of all coded core sentences. Protest politics refers to the share of an issue as a percentage of all coded protest events. Cultural and economic issues do not add up to 100 percent, because other issues are not included in one of the two categories (for example, infrastructure, environment).

mainstream parties of the right to absorb some of the positions of minor parties (Kriesi and Frey 2008b).[7]

The two arenas differ most clearly with respect to economic issues (as can be seen in Figure 27). Apart from the moderate right, the party groups enter the protest arena only to fight for economic demarcation. In other words, the radical right in the protest arena takes the position of the "losers" on both the cultural and the economic dimensions. In protest politics, the radical right is therefore completely at odds with the "winning formula" proposed by Kitschelt (1995, 2007) that combines positions of cultural demarcation and economic integration. By contrast, in protest politics, the radical right fills the interventionist–nationalist structural hole identified in chapter 1. As in electoral politics, the radical and moderate left-wing parties combine cosmopolitan positions with economic demarcation, while the moderate right favors integration in cultural and economic terms.

To highlight the different actor constellations, I draw a *political space* based on the locations of parties in the protest arena. I again rely on weighted multidimensional scaling to graphically represent actors' issue positions and salience in a political protest space as was previously done for electoral politics (see

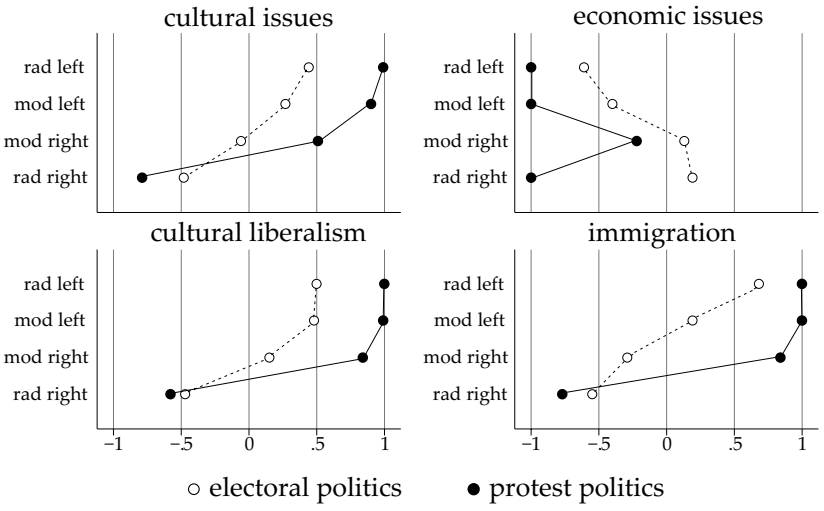


Figure 27. Issue position by party group and arena. Electoral politics refers to the average issue position raised during election campaigns. Protest politics refers to the average position based on protest events (range –1 to 1).

chapter 1). As can be seen in Figure 28, the protest configuration is two-dimensional, as was shown for electoral politics. The central location of cultural liberalism, welfare, and environment shows these issues are somewhat consensual—at least when we focus exclusively on the protest arena. The second dimension is mainly due to anti-immigration stances. As shown before, opposition to immigration is the only salient and contested issue within the protest arena, and mobilization over migration-related issues opens up a second dimension in the political protest space. This highlights the restructuring power of the issue across the two arenas. Still, the configuration in this arena differs from that in electoral politics. There, opposition to immigration is embedded in a dimension that includes Europe, cultural liberalism, and other cultural issues.

The location of the party camps supports the previous descriptive analyses. In the protest arena, as in electoral politics, one finds a tripolar constellation constituted by the left, the moderate right, and the radical right. The moderate and radical left constitute a common group. In the electoral arena, the distance of the left from the moderate right was due to diverging preferences on economic issues. In the protest arena, it is explained only in part by the left's support for global justice. The distance is due far more to other cultural issues, including protests over civil rights and education. The party whose position is closest to "anti-immigration" is the radical right, again showing how much its

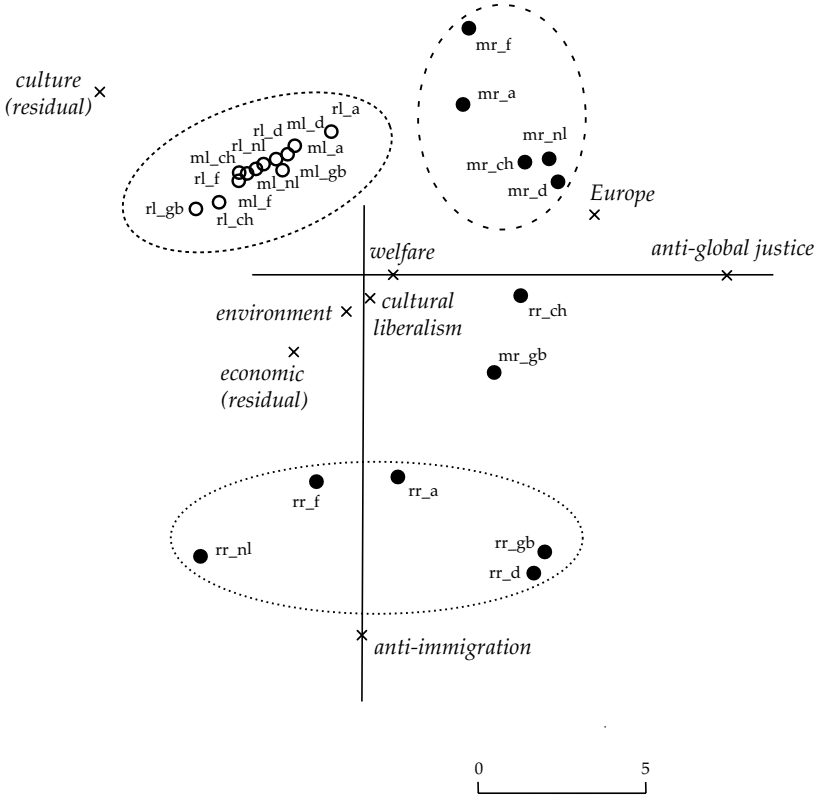


Figure 28. Party groups in a Western European protest space, 1975–2005. Stress-1 = 0.17. Abbreviations for party groups (rl = radical left, ml = moderate left, mr = moderate right, rr = radial right); parties of the right are indicated by black circles, parties of the left by hollow circles. For the MDS, party groups are weighted by their share of protest events and the weights per country sum up to 1. The final configuration has been rotated so that the cultural conflict dimension is arranged vertically and positions supporting cultural demarcation are placed at the bottom (for the electoral arena, see Figure 7 in chapter 1).

mobilization centers on fighting for tougher stances on immigration, driven by xenophobia and racism (Bornschier 2010a; Ivarsflaten 2008).

Summary

To explain the differing patterns of change found in protest as compared to electoral politics, this chapter has focused on the relationship between the two sites of mobilization. More specifically, the focus was on the direction of the

relationship as well as on the question whether there are any systematic differences observable between the political left and the political right. I argued that the left/right distinction might be a key to understanding cross-arena differences because the initiative for transforming Western European politics has shifted from the left to the right since the 1990s. I tested this different logics thesis by analyzing the salience of issue positions and party groups across the two arenas. Thus, left- and right-wing mobilization was inferred from the issue positions mobilized as well as from the presence of parties from the left and parties from the right.

Although the results are provisional, the findings suggest that at least with respect to the interplay of the arenas over longer periods of time, different logics are at work on the left and right. Issue positions and actors on the right tend to follow an "either/or-logic," while those on the left tend to be more congruent: protest and electoral politics tend to rise and fall in tandem. However, these different logics are no longer observable when focusing on electoral periods. Here, I found fairly consistent patterns across the different issue positions. This suggests that the trends of left- and right-wing claims in electoral and protest politics might follow different logics in the long run, while in the short run right-wing claims in the protest arena are also positively affected by friendly issue signals sent out by political parties in the electoral arena. In addition, comparing the effects of issue signals from allies and the configuration of power also indicated that social movement scholars should move beyond the simple congruence thesis (see Meyer and Minkoff 2004). The findings show a differing impact of the configuration of power and discursive issue signals. The strength of allies in formal terms tends to weaken protest mobilization, while friendly issue signals tend to strengthen it. Finally, the analysis showed that the populist radical right is the main protagonist of cultural demarcation in electoral and protest politics. On the one hand, the different party groups rank quite similarly and we find a tripolar constellation in both arenas. On the other hand, the results again indicated that the actor constellation in protest politics is even more polarized than in electoral politics.

Conclusion: The Dynamics of Cleavage Politics across Political Arenas

The impact of globalization on politics has become a major topic both in social movement research and in the analysis of cleavage politics. However, both fields emphasize different features of the politics of globalization, because they tend to neglect the existence of different arenas of political mobilization. Usually, social movement scholars focus on the protest arena, while those who are interested in changing cleavage structures and the populist right pay attention only to the electoral arena. This book has attempted to link the two fields by asking whether and how protest politics in Western Europe has changed because of the emergence of a new integration–demarcation cleavage brought about by globalization. Thus, this book has brought back the cleavage concept to the study of social movements.

Adopting a dynamic cleavage perspective has allowed me to both complement and challenge what social movement research has emphasized as the main repercussions of globalization on protest politics. In short, globalization has substantially affected protest politics in Western Europe, but in a different way from how most social movement scholars expected. In addition, this book underscores the notion that scholars who study only the transformation of cleavage structures in the electoral arena miss a crucial part of the dynamics of cleavage politics in a global age. In short, even though electoral and protest politics are affected by the emergence of an integration–demarcation cleavage, the way the new cleavage has manifested itself significantly differs across arenas. In the following, I elaborate on these points by summing up the main findings of the book and by pointing to directions for future research.

The Rise of the Integration–Demarcation Cleavage in a Left-Libertarian Arena

Both the electoral and the protest arena have been affected by the rise of a new integration–demarcation cleavage. By tracing the ebbs and flows of mobilization, we have seen that a remobilization has taken place in the protest arena since the 1990s. This confirms the notion of a new wave of protest sweeping across Europe and other regions of the world in the age of globalization. In addition, we have here looked at the main issue divides in the protest arena. Such divides refer to the normative and organizational elements of a cleavage. Following Bornschier (2010a), issue divides indicate how much a cleavage structures contemporary political conflicts and thus perpetuates the underlying political identities. As expected, a twofold transformation of the main protest issues has taken place. Conflicts over cultural liberalism, as the main issue linked to the new class cleavage, were most salient in the early 1980s. Since the 1990s, conflicts over the new globalization issues have become salient. Most important, protests by, against, and on behalf of immigrants have become more salient in Western Europe in the age of globalization. In contrast to immigration, the other two globalization issues (that is, global justice and Europe) are still of relatively little importance in the protest arena. Thus, this qualifies sweeping claims, both on the salience of struggles over neoliberal globalization (for example, della Porta 2007b; Gautney 2010) and the politicization of the European integration process beyond electoral politics (for example, Hooghe and Marks 2009; Imig 2004).

Overall, Western European protest arenas are still the preferred terrain on which to voice positions that are most closely associated with the political left: defensive on economic issues and integrationist on cultural issues (see Fillieule 1997, 241–42; Koopmans and Rucht 1995; Soule and Earl 2005, 356–57). This is true for the entire research period, which spans from 1975 to 2005. We can observe only a slight shift toward less integrationist positions on cultural issues. Furthermore, there is a pronounced difference between protests over cultural liberalism, on the one hand, and protests over immigration on the other. When cultural liberalism is put forward in the protest arena, it is almost exclusively affirmative. People protest to fight for individual autonomy, to take a stance on the free choice of lifestyle, or for other universalistic values (for example, international peace). By contrast, conflicts over immigration are more polarized. In addition, the more salient immigration has become in the protest arena, the more contested it has also become. Thus, protests on the most salient issue associated with the integration–demarcation cleavage are linked to a certain return of right-wing voices to the protest arena (that is, to a mobilization site that is nowadays predominantly occupied by left-libertarian forces).

The impact of the integration–demarcation cleavage on protest politics needs to be put into perspective, however. On the one hand, its impact needs to be compared to the wave of political change driven by left-libertarian challengers in the 1970s and early 1980s. On average, the new protest wave since the 1990s is less pronounced than the new social movement wave of the early 1980s (at least for the six countries covered here). The timing of the new protest wave varies more across countries than the timing of the wave that swept across Western Europe during the early 1980s. In some countries, new waves already emerged during the early 1990s (for example, in Austria, France, and Germany), whereas the main remobilization took place during the late 1990s and early 2000s in other countries (for example, in Great Britain and Switzerland). In addition, issues related to cultural liberalism are still more salient in the protest arena than globalization issues. Although more people protested over immigration from the 1990s, they never reached the high numbers that focused on cultural liberalism in the 1980s. In addition, the number of people involved in immigration protests declined after its peak in the 1990s. Overall, the protest arena is thus still more shaped by the issues and political demands of the left-libertarian round than by those of the right-populist round.

On the other hand, the impact of the new integration–demarcation cleavage in the protest arena needs to be compared to its impact in the electoral arena. In contrast with protest politics, cultural liberalism was not more salient in the electoral arena by the early 2000s than were the new globalization issues. Although immigration became a major issue in both arenas, European integration became an issue over which parties compete, but it had not yet become a salient issue of protest politics. Moreover, protest related to migration issues most often deals only with xenophobia and racism. As Koopmans et al. (2005, 83) argue, this focus in the protest arena is related to the fact that this issue field is characterized far more by direct interaction between migrants and their host societies in the public domain as compared to other topics related to immigration. In turn, this reduces the role of state actors and encourages activities in less institutionalized political arenas (Helbling, Hoeglinger, and Wüest 2012). The different actor constellation in protest, as compared to electoral politics, underscores this finding. Mainstream right-wing parties have adopted some of the anti-immigration discourse of the populist radical right in the electoral arena (for example, Alonso and Claro da Fonseca 2009; Bale 2003). By contrast, the protest arena is characterized by a "one against all the others" constellation (that is, the populist radical right against all other party groups). Furthermore, although the increasing salience of immigration is linked to a return of right-wing voices to the protest arena, protests by and on behalf

of immigrants still outweigh protests against them by far. Consequently, the challenge posed by the populist right is reflected in the protest arena, but most often in the form of events that counter the rise of the populist right in more institutionalized arenas. In short, it is the electoral arena and not the protest arena in which the integration–demarcation cleavage finds its fullest expression. Still, those studies that focus only on the electoral arena tend to overemphasize its restructuring capacity.

Integration–Demarcation versus Reverse New Politics?

In general, this book confirms the integration-demarcation argument of Kriesi et al. (2008b) rather than the reverse new politics argument that has been proposed by Ignazi (1992, 2003) and other scholars (for example, Bornschier 2010a, b; Minkenberg 1992, 2003). In short, the right-populist round brought about a new conflict constellation that cannot be explained by simply extrapolating from that of the left-libertarian round. Three findings illustrate this point.

First, the social-structural groups that presently hold the most extreme positions in the transformed political spaces do not refer to traditional religious or class divisions. At the same time, neither can they be captured by opposition *within* the new middle class, which has been identified as the main social division linked to the left-libertarian turn. By contrast, the new social-structural groups of winners and losers from globalization are located furthest apart in the transformed political spaces. Educational levels and a new class divide (that is, social-cultural specialists versus unskilled workers) are key characteristics with which to distinguish supporters and opponents of further integration (Lachat and Dolezal 2008; Walter 2010; chapter 1, this book).

Second, we observe changes both in the main social divisions and the main issues. Following the reverse new politics position, one can argue that if the populist right mobilizes the so-far-omitted flip side of the left-libertarian transformation, cultural liberalism should be the central issue linked to the right-populist transformation, too. Thus, although the actors and main positions are expected to change, the issues should not. Yet, we observe a return of right-wing positions in the protest arena when looking at conflicts over immigration. Cultural liberalism, by contrast, is still more or less uniformly supported in the protest arena, and is almost a nonissue for radical right-wing party protest politics.

Third, if the right-populist round is the belated counter-revolution against new social movements and other left-libertarian forces, it should be strongest in countries where these political actors have most forcefully restructured politics. In such nations, traditional divides have lost strength, conflicts over

new issues have become more salient, and the populist right should find influential opponents. The empirical findings in this book have not supported this expectation. The strengths of the two rounds in a given country are not related. This holds for their strength in both institutionalized and non-institutionalized terms. The breakthrough of new challengers from the left in institutionalized arenas in the 1980s is not consistently related to the breakthrough of the new issues and challengers from the right from the 1990s (again, see chapter 3). Furthermore, the protest waves from the 1990s are not more pronounced in countries with strong waves in the early 1980s. Moreover, right-wing opposition in the protest arena is not stronger where new social movements and their demands for cultural liberalism most forcefully restructured political conflict.

However, we should be cautious in evaluating these findings, because further research is needed to settle some of the disputed issues. With respect to the demand side, future studies should more systematically look at other social-structural characteristics that differentiate between the winners and losers from globalization (sectoral differences in particular and attachment to national communities should be more carefully operationalized). As stated in chapter 1, most cross-national surveys do not include questions on sectoral differences (for example, the public/private divide, or sheltered versus competitive sectors) and/or more specific questions on attitudes toward economic globalization. Furthermore, the relationship between educational attainment and the two rounds of Western European politics should be more closely studied. At present, education is treated as a key feature that drives both rounds (for example, Stubager 2009, 2010). For example, we should ask both whether and what kind of education has become a more important asset in the age of the globalization process (see Buchholz et al. 2009). Given an interest in cross-arena differences, further studies should also address whether and how preferences for certain political arenas differ between winners and losers from globalization (Dolezal and Hutter 2012).

With respect to the issue divides, it needs to be said that proponents of both arguments emphasize conflicts over immigration. At the same time, only the integration-demarcation argument insists on a potential redefinition of the economic conflict dimension. As shown here, we do not witness very salient conflicts over economic globalization defined in a narrow sense in either the electoral or protest arenas. This observation can be explained by pointing to the successful mobilization strategy of the populist right, because it tends to emphasize the negative consequences of cultural diversity and political integration and reinterprets economic conflicts in such cultural terms. In addition, I have suggested that the differing institutional context and mobilization

dynamics might explain why conflicts over immigration (and not over European integration or global justice) are so salient in the protest arena.[1] At the same time, this result points to a shortcoming of the research strategies that are used to study both party competition and protest events. Although they show that *issues* closely connected to global justice or to neoliberal globalization are rarely debated during election campaigns and are not often the main goal of protest events, they have not been allowed to ask to what extent conflicts over "classic" economic issues (for example, welfare or budgetary rigor) are *perceived and framed* as being driven by economic globalization processes (but see Ancelovici 2002; Contamin 2005). Here, future research should dig deeper to view the more nuanced changes that take place on the economic left/right dimension. Focusing on the claims of actors in public debates over economic issues and taking account of their framing strategies might be a way to address this question (Hoeglinger, Wüest, and Helbling 2012). However, such a strategy tends to lose sight of actual protest mobilization by covering all forms of political claims making (see, for example, della Porta and Caiani 2009). Thus, other strategies that link different research methods are needed.

Protest and Electoral Politics: Moving beyond a Simple Positive Relationship

In times of differentiated landscapes of political interest intermediation, it is crucial to cover different political arenas in order to obtain a comprehensive picture of how political mobilization has been affected by the rise of new cleavages. In contrast with periods of fused arenas, the results based on one arena can no longer simply be equated with those for another (see Kitschelt 2003). Consequently, the present study has focused both on the protest and electoral arenas. Moreover, I have insisted that the relationship between these different sites of political mobilization should also be studied. Tracing this relationship seems to be a key with which to understand the differing development paths that conflict structures have taken in protest versus electoral politics.

Overall, the present study has confirmed one of the main assumptions of the political process approach: the electoral and the protest arena are interrelated sites of political mobilization. Following Zald and Useem's (1987, 247) terms, the findings underscore "the loosely coupled tango of mobilization and demobilization" across political arenas. Moreover, the present study strongly encourages movement scholars to look beyond the assumption of a simple positive relationship between protest mobilization and opportunities offered by the broader political context (Meyer and Minkoff 2004, 1484).

This study has emphasized that it depends on the features of electoral politics that we look at whether we observe positive or negative correlations

between electoral and protest politics. In general, the findings highlight that adversarial signals (that is, an unfavorable discursive context) weaken protest mobilization (see also Koopmans et al. 2005). These findings differ from the effects found for the configuration of power (for example, vote shares and government composition). In this case, threat tends to have a stimulating effect on challengers in protest and electoral politics (Jung 2010; Koopmans and Rucht 1995; Kriesi 1995; Maguire 1995; van Dyke 2003). The present results also highlight the differing impact of the configuration of power and the issue-specific and discursive signals sent out by political parties in the electoral arena. For example, the strength of allies in formal terms tends to weaken protest mobilization, although friendly issue signals tend to strengthen protest mobilization. However, it remains an open question whether challengers in the protest arena should be conceptualized as "strategic respondents" who mainly react to signaling elements or as "consistent champions" who profit from structural changes (Meyer 2004).

Most important, this study has specifically been interested in determining whether there are any discernible systematic differences in the relationship between the two arenas that depend on political orientations. More specifically, I have suggested that those in favor of cultural integration or economic demarcation (that is, challengers from the left) follow a different logic from those striving for cultural demarcation or economic integration (that is, challengers from the right). The broad changes over time, as well as the strategies of different party groups, indeed show that there are different logics at work on the left and right when it comes to the interplay of the arenas. Issue positions and actors on the right tend to follow an "either/or-logic": the *more* salient they are in electoral politics, the *less* often they give rise to protest mobilization. By contrast, on the left we find a more congruent pattern: left-wing issue positions and actors in protest and electoral politics tend to rise and fall in tandem. Because the initiative for transforming Western European politics has shifted from the left to the right since the 1990s, this might be a key reason why the right-populist round "hit" the protest arena less forcefully as compared to the electoral arena.

Differing value orientations and strategic considerations on the left and right have been suggested to explain these different logics. Most importantly, populist radical right parties, as the main driving forces of the second turn, are characterized by a "political paradox" (Deiwiks 2009; Taggart 2002). Although the populist radical right is very critical of representative politics and pleas for a more direct linkage of the masses to the elites, it tends to choose the electoral channel to mobilize "the people" rather than the protest arena. This political paradox is linked to a strategy of double differentiation, which is

ultimately rooted in core value orientations of populist radical right-wing leaders and adherents. For both the challengers on the left and the right, the "medium is the message" (that is, the choice of the channel in which they express themselves is at the same time an expression of their underlying message). The rebels on the right have authoritarian and materialist values, and prefer (orderly) conventional political action over (disorderly) protest politics. By contrast, the rebels on the left share libertarian and postmaterialist values, which tend to predispose them to unconventional protest politics. Populist right-wing leaders and followers thus try to set themselves apart from their adversaries on the left, who are viewed as "chaotic" protesters. At the same time, populists try to differentiate themselves from the extreme and neo-fascist right. If those who openly advocate the most right-wing and racist ideologies take part in protest events that are organized or supported by populist right-wing parties, then the populists run the risk of being equated with them (Minkenberg 2003).

However, research that more closely examines *why* these different logics are at work is needed. For example, the literature deals with the general attitudes of the populist right with respect to representative democracy and its strategic use of direct-democratic instruments (for example, Mudde 2007, 138–57; Taggart 2002), but its attitudes about and its use of protest politics are not so well covered. In this regard, the present study has only touched upon the writings of protagonists of the populist right and cited survey research to support its claim. Apart from protest events, studies of the populist right's action repertoire should also pay attention to more "social" events that are used by the populist radical right to mobilize its supporters, and how these events differ from the ones organized by left-libertarian actors. A good example is the Swiss People's Party (SVP) and its supportive organizations, which often organize traditional farmers' breakfast meetings (so-called *Buurezmorge*), and thereby appropriate traditional social gatherings for their political mobilization.

Explaining Cross-National Differences in a Global Age: The Explanatory Power of Domestic Context Factors

This study has also taken up the challenge posed by critics who cast doubt on the usefulness of cross-national comparisons in a globalizing world by treating *the national as a variable* (Beck and Grande 2010). More specifically, I have examined how transnationalized political mobilization has become over time. Overall, the results underscore the fact that protest politics became more transnationalized after the late 1970s. Furthermore, there is an increase in "transnational collective action," which is defined as transnational actors targeting addressees beyond the national level (della Porta and Tarrow 2005b, 7).

At the same time, the transnationalization of protest politics remains limited, and the thematic aspects of protest events are more transnationalized than the organizational aspects. What is even more important is the realization that the findings point to an inverse relationship between the relevance of a globalization issue and the transnationalization of protest. That is, the most salient globalization issue, immigration, is articulated in particular at the national or even subnational level. Thus, the results confirm Kriesi and Grande (2004), who speak of a "political paradox of globalization," because the structural conflicts that are induced by globalization are most likely to be articulated and mobilized at the national level. In part, this might also explain why scholars focusing on global justice mobilization tend to overemphasize the transnationalization of protest in general.

As political mobilization is still closely linked to the nation-state in the age of globalization, it has been crucial to study how the domestic context filters the way the new conflicts manifest themselves in politics. To explain cross-national differences, this study has also relied on context factors proposed by the political process approach. Although critics have pointed to the structural bias and conceptual confusion of the approach, I have followed Meyer and Minkoff (2004), who urge scholars to use the "disputed issues in the field . . . to structure research." In the following, I will sum up the main findings on the more stable context factors faced by challengers in the protest arena, while the more dynamic interaction between electoral and protest mobilization has been discussed in the previous section.

Overall, the results are good news for those who still insist on the explanatory power of rather stable features of the political context when analyzing protest politics in a comparative perspective. For example, this study supports the claim that the action repertoire in a given country is closely linked to the general institutional setting of political mobilization. As Koopmans and Kriesi (1995) argue, the state institutional strength and the prevailing elite strategy influence the tactics used by challengers in the protest arena. The most radical action repertoire has been observed in France (that is, combining a strong state with an exclusive strategy), and the least radical in Switzerland (that is, combining a weak state with an inclusive strategy). However, the overall *level* of mobilization is not as closely related to the general context faced by challengers (see also Balme and Chabanet 2008; Morales 2009).

For the present study, it has been even more important to explain why the strength of the two rounds differs across countries. In this regard, the strength of the traditional class cleavage and the institutionalized strength of new cleavages have helped to explain why conflicts over new issues have been more salient or polarized in the protest arenas of some countries than in others.

Regarding the left-libertarian round, the findings confirm the zero-sum hypothesis between established and new cleavages (Kriesi and Duyvendak 1995; Rokkan 2000). The old class cleavage limited the space for the political manifestation of this new cleavage. In addition, the cross-national patterns found in electoral and protest politics are congruent. A weak class cleavage goes hand in hand with a higher salience of cultural liberalism in electoral and protest politics during the 1980s. Thus, protests focused on cultural liberalism were more salient in Germany, the Netherlands, and Switzerland than they were in Austria, France, and Great Britain (see Figure 29).

We can no longer observe such a close relationship between the strength of the integration–demarcation cleavage and the (decreasing) strength of the old class cleavage. Thus, in this book I do not support the revitalization thesis proposed by della Porta (2007a), which suggests that conflicts over globalization issues (global justice, in her case) are more salient in countries with a traditionally strong class cleavage. In addition, protests on the main globalization issue, immigration, mainly differ across countries with regard to their salience in terms of events (and not in terms of participants), as well as in their degree of polarization (as indicated by the relative size of the circles in Figure 29). As shown here, it is the latter aspect that is most closely related to the institutionalized strength of the integration–demarcation cleavage. More precisely, protests focused on immigration are more polarized in the two countries where no right-populist challenger could establish itself as a significant force shaping national party competition (that is, Germany and Great Britain). Again, this suggests that the populist right is characterized by an inverse relationship between electoral and protest politics. The more successful the populist radical right is in electoral terms, the less salient are its actors and claims in the protest arena (Giugni et al. 2005; Koopmans et al. 2005, 180–204; Minkenberg 2003). Furthermore, we observe a more *closely* coupled tango of protest events and counterevents in the German and British protest arenas as compared to the other countries. In the other countries with stronger populist radical right parties, we see instead a loosely coupled tango of mobilization across arenas, as previously described.

Overall, the cross-national findings highlight the fact that one should focus on the institutional structure of the political system and the informal strategies of political elites in dealing with challengers, on the one hand, as well as on the strength of traditional and new cleavages in institutionalized political arenas, on the other hand. The latter comes close to the notion of discursive opportunity structures (Giugni et al. 2009; Koopmans and Statham 1999a; Koopmans et al. 2005). However, further research is needed for at least two reasons. First, future studies should try to generalize the results beyond the

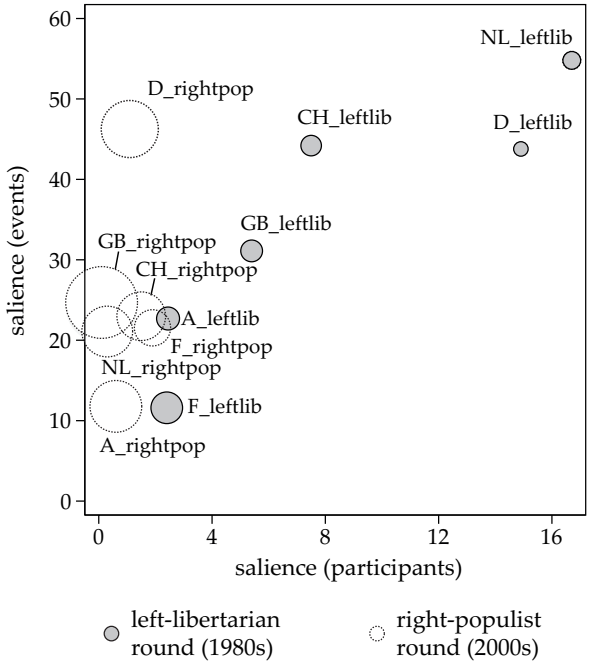


Figure 29. Strength of the two rounds in the protest arena. The size of the circles indicates the degree of polarization: the bigger the circle, the more contested the struggles taking place in the protest arena. The left-libertarian round refers to the salience and polarization of conflicts over cultural liberalism; the right-populist round refers to the salience and polarization of conflicts over immigration. The values that are shown are yearly averages comparing the different time periods.

six countries covered by the present study. Second, more research is needed to get closer to the mechanisms that link the political context with protest mobilization, and thus to help solve the micro/macro problem that plagues the political process approach. This book has already made a first step toward generalizing the results using a larger number of countries, by systematically conceptualizing and measuring the context factors for additional European states. By contrast, linking micro and macro seems beyond a book that is based solely on protest event data. Here, studies are needed that link different research methods, take the dynamics of contention even more seriously,

and try to get closer to the perceptions of activists (see, for example, Karapin 2007; McAdam et al. 2001; Opp 2009).

Studying the Dynamic Relationships among Differentiated Political Arenas

The three sets of findings that I have presented so far share a common message: The study of political conflicts should not be restricted to a single political arena. By contrast, scholars should take seriously both the differentiation of contemporary landscapes of interest intermediation and the dynamic relationships among political arenas. Unsurprisingly, this mirrors a key topic of the political processes approach that has been a cornerstone of the present study. However, as McAdam and Tarrow (2010, 529) have recently asserted, movement research has become more "movement-centric" in the past few years and tends to ignore, among other things, the reciprocal relationship between electoral and protest politics. At the same time, Koopmans (2007, 704) was absolutely right when he argued that after the study of new social movements in the 1980s and early 1990s, "the formerly thriving field of social movement studies has largely disappeared again from the mainstream of European political science." In the following, I briefly discuss two examples of how further studies could profit from examining the dynamic relationships among differentiated political arenas.

Social Movements Running for Office: Political Parties on the Streets

First, let us turn back to Kitschelt (2003), who also urged scholars to examine the differentiation of political arenas in the early twenty-first century, because we no longer live in the "Golden Age" of Western capitalism (that is, in the period from about 1945 to 1970). According to his argument, the postwar period was characterized by fused political arenas, although the different sites of mobilization have become increasingly differentiated since the 1970s. Thus, Kitschelt's (2003, 97) main hypothesis states:

> Parties focus increasingly on electoral competition, at the expense of interest group representation or . . . protest actions. Interest groups try to set themselves apart from the arena of electoral politics as well as from disruptive street politics. Social movements, finally, concentrate on public actions outside institutionalized arenas of bargaining to affect public opinion and political elites through the media.

Although this is an intuitively appealing idea and some of the present results support it, further studies are needed that more systematically examine the assumption of such a strict division of labor between different political actors and sites of mobilization. Della Porta (2006), for example, disagrees

with Kitschelt (2003), demonstrating that Italian labor unions were increasingly involved in protest activities by the early 2000s. Similarly, the present data indicate a certain return of unions to the protest arena, and although political parties have not become more involved in protests lately, neither have they left the protest arena (see chapter 7).

What seems even more important than simply focusing on differentiation is that further studies should examine the relationships among the different arenas. Although movement scholars have concentrated on the diversified action repertoire of social movement organizations (for example, Tilly 2008), more research is needed to assess when social movements take the electoral option (see McAdam and Tarrow 2010, 533). Furthermore, present party research could profit from not only studying "non-party actors in electoral politics" (Farrell and Schmitt-Beck 2008) but also answering when political parties "enter" other sites of mobilization apart from the electoral arena (see Hutter 2013). In this regard, I have suggested that political parties of the left and right might differ with respect to their use of protest politics. The more successful the right is in electoral terms, the more it tends to abstain from protest activities, while the more voters the radical left attracts, the more present it is in protest politics. Further research should take up this question by focusing on additional explanatory factors (for example, electoral cycle effects) and other actor/arena combinations. In the end, this could lead to a closer linkage of the lively but often separate areas of interest group, party, and movement research.

The Social Movement Society in a Comparative Perspective

My second example focuses on studies that deal with the movement society thesis. They could also profit by taking the differentiation of and relationships among political arenas more seriously. In short, movement society theorists argue that "protest has moved from being a sporadic, if recurring, feature of democratic politics, to become a perpetual element in modern life" (Meyer and Tarrow 1998a, 5). The early theoretical accounts on this rise of a movement society were quite attentive to the importance of taking into account the "peculiarities of . . . different forms of political interest-mediation" (Rucht and Neidhardt 2002, 19; see also Neidhardt and Rucht 1993). Unfortunately, empirical studies focus exclusively on the protest arena to prove their claims—by relying on either survey data or protest event data (for example, Crozat 1998; Jenkins et al. 2008; Rucht 1998; Soule and Earl 2005; van Aelst and Walgrave 2001). For example, Soule and Earl's (2005) study on the United States empirically examines the four key characteristics of a movement society based on protest event data. These key characteristics are (1) the expansion of

protest over time, (2) the diffusion of protest over time, (3) the institutionalization of protest over time, and (4) the institutionalization of state responses over time.[2]

Regarding the first two characteristics, this book casts doubt on the movement society thesis. Regarding the expansion of protest, I have illustrated that the level of protest mobilization shows somewhat nation-specific development paths. A general increase in protest events and participants has not been observed. For example, the Netherlands highlights how much the level of protest can decrease in an exemplary movement society of the early 1980s (Kriesi 1993). Furthermore, I have shown here that protest is indeed used to "represent a wider range of claims" (Meyer and Tarrow 1998a, 4), as indicated by a certain shift from left- to right-wing positions (see also Soule and Earl 2005, 355). However, left-libertarian issue positions are still far more salient in Western European protest politics, and opposing positions are nearly all restricted to a single issue: immigration. To understand why these developments do not so squarely support the movement society thesis, and why the countries differ, I recommend that future studies not only cover more countries and additional time periods, as suggested by Soule and Earl (2005, 361), but also take the differentiation of and the relationships among the various political arenas more seriously and incorporate findings on how the established systems of interest-intermediation differ across countries and over time.

The Stability of the New Integration–Demarcation Cleavage and Its Future Manifestation in Protest Politics

Let me conclude by again emphasizing that globalization has brought about a new integration–demarcation cleavage that has been articulated and mobilized by various political actors in different arenas. In brief, we have seen the rise of a new integration–demarcation cleavage across Western Europe in the age of globalization. Thus, the changes linked both to the left-libertarian and to the right-populist rounds of Western European politics are not mere political fads that come and go as time passes. On the contrary, the new conflicts are firmly anchored in social structure and have given rise both to new political actors and to new issue divides in (and across) electoral and protest politics. Because the age of globalization seems to be continuing, and the new challengers on both the left and right will "nourish" the conflicts on which they thrive, the new cleavage will continue to shape Western European politics for years to come.

At the same time, this book has highlighted that the way the new cleavage has left its mark on politics differs across arenas and countries as well as over time. This underscores that the political manifestation of social transformations

depends very much on political agency and other contingent factors, and is, thus, far from being structurally determined (for example, Bornschier 2010a; Enyedi 2005; Grande and Kriesi 2012; Sartori 1990 [1968]). Furthermore, as highlighted several times in this book, the new political potentials induced by globalization (especially with regard to economic conflicts) have not yet been fully exploited in either of the two arenas covered here. In combination, this means that although the new cleavage is very likely to shape Western European politics in the future, its concrete political manifestation is not set in stone.

Noi la crisi non la paghiamo! ("We are not paying for the crisis!") This slogan, which first appeared in Italy in the autumn of 2008, has spread across many large-scale demonstrations in Europe since then. It remains to be seen whether and how the financial crisis that started in 2007 and led to the Eurocrisis might break down the dominance of the neoliberal consensus in Western Europe. It is currently unclear whether it will lead to a more profound restructuring of conflicts over economic issues. As shown here, we already witnessed a modest return of economic issues in the protest arena up to the year 2005. It needs to be seen whether the global economic crisis will reinforce this return of economic issues, and whether the aforementioned protest events might herald the end of a dominance of cultural issues in contemporary protest arenas in Western Europe. More generally, it will be interesting to determine whether it is indeed the political left that "profits" from the global economic crisis and its consequences. The latest election results of the left, the success of populist radical right parties in the latest national elections, and the recent developments in the labor movement (Crouch 2010) provide no definite answer. Thus, studying changing cleavage structures across different political arenas in Western Europe remains an exciting and challenging topic.

Appendix A:
The Protest Event Data and Selection Bias Tests

To study issue divides and other features of protest politics, I rely on protest event analysis (PEA). This kind of quantitative content analysis takes the pivotal point of the protest arena as its basic unit of data collection (that is, protest events). As stated in the introduction, this book is based on an updated and extended version of the data collected by Kriesi et al. (1995) to study new social movements in Western Europe. The data set covers protest events in the six countries under scrutiny from 1975 to 2005. It is based on a *(minimalist) strategy of data collection* relying on one national quality newspaper per country and Monday editions only. Minimalist is put in parentheses, because the strategy is still very time and labor intensive

By shifting from cleavages to protest events, I do not avoid complexity. "Unlike other forms of social and political activities, e.g., electoral behavior, protest is by its very nature a complex phenomenon" (Rucht et al. 1998, 9). This is also reflected in the lively (and sometimes polarized) methodological debate that PEA in general and Kriesi et al.'s (1995) minimalist strategy in particular triggered (for reviews, see Davenport 2010; Earl et al. 2004; Koopmans and Rucht 2002; Ortiz et al. 2005). One of the most contested aspects is the selection bias of the data, meaning that newspapers or other sources *selectively* report on protest events and do not provide a representative sample. No one would deny that a selection bias exists, but it is still under debate how significant the problem is.

This appendix is structured in two sections. The first section briefly introduces the history of PEA and the main features of the present data set. The second section sums up the selection bias literature and answers (with new

empirical tests) critics who have raised concerns about the minimalist strategy. These tests focus on four questions: (1) What do we gain when using a second newspaper? (2) What is missed when relying on Monday editions only? (3) How bad is the regional bias of the sources? and (4) Are the various national sources equally selective with respect to protest? Overall, the appendix concludes that researchers should not close their eyes to problems of selection bias, but the bias of the minimalist strategy is less pronounced than often assumed (for example, Fillieule 1996, 2007).

The Minimalist Strategy of Data Collection: Limiting Sources and Editions

To introduce the strategy used to collect the present data, I briefly summarize the history of PEA research. Systematic quantitative research on protest events began in the 1960s. Since then, PEA has become the main instrument with which social movement scholars retrieve and describe protest events to allow for cross-sectional and longitudinal analyses. One can identify *four generations of PEA research* (see Koopmans and Rucht 2002; Rucht et al. 1998).

The first generation (the "initiators") consisted of researchers who were interested in various indicators for a large number of countries, or in long-term processes of social and political change. The *Handbook for Social and Political Indicators I and II* by Russett et al. (1967) and by Taylor and Hudson (1972) are the most prominent examples for large *N*-studies. Tilly and his colleagues, by contrast, were interested in the long-term trends in strike activity and political violence (Shorter and Tilly 1974; Tilly et al. 1975). However, the authors paid relatively little attention to "the selectivity of the sources, the creation of fine-grained coding categories, and the development of well-documented rules and procedures" (Koopmans and Rucht 2002, 232).

Inspired by this research, a second generation developed that made more extensive use of protest data. This research broke down the data according to various analytical criteria, which was possible because the categories used for the data collection were far more sophisticated. Path-breaking studies were Jenkins and Perrow's (1977) work on mobilization of farmers, Kriesi et al.'s (1981) study on political activation events in Switzerland, McAdam's (1982) case study on civil rights protests in the United States, and Tarrow's (1989) study on the Italian protest cycle from 1965 to 1974. Furthermore, a major innovation was cross-national designs, such as that used by Kriesi et al. (1995) in their four-country study.

Although the second generation was sophisticated about coding procedures and source selection, the authors did not invest a lot of time in qualifying the bias of their sources. Thus, a third generation assessed the bias of newspaper data more systematically (for a detailed discussion, see the second

section of this appendix). Furthermore, these researchers tried to be more efficient by using electronic approaches to select (and even code) protest events. The most prominent examples of half-automated procedures are (1) the European Protest and Coercion Data (EPCD) collected by Francisco and other researchers (for example, Francisco 1996; Nam 2006, 2007; Reising 1998, 1999), (2) Imig and Tarrow's (2001b) study on European protest events, and (3) Jenkins et al.'s (2008) project for a new edition of the *Handbook for Social and Political Indicators*. Unfortunately, these projects tend to fall back to the first generation of research in the selection of sources and coding procedures and their value for comparative research (Imig 2001, 256–57).

Finally, a fourth generation has developed since the mid-1990s. Authors have moved beyond PEA by abandoning the strict focus on (aggregates of) protest events as their unit of analysis. On the one hand, scholars unpack single protest events (for example, McPhail and Schweingruber 1998; Tilly 2008). On the other hand, they broaden the unit of analysis beyond protest by relying on other forms of content analysis to cover both protest events and all sorts of claims making (for example, Koopmans and Statham 1999b). Although this latter strategy allows for the collection of information on covariates of protest events (for example, elite debates), it moves research away from protest activities. Researchers invest many resources in collecting data but end up with only a few protest events. Thus, broadening the research unit allows for the study of the *whole* action repertoire of organizations. At the same time, it is not so useful for examining various features of *protest* activities in some depth (see, for example, della Porta and Caiani 2009).

Because this book is based on an extended and updated version of the data collected by Kriesi et al. (1995), critics could object that it is stuck in the mid-1990s, belonging to the second generation of PEA. However, I take into account findings of the third and fourth generations as well. This is done by relying on electronic searches and recent selection bias studies (third generation). In addition, I take advantage of more encompassing coding procedures (core sentence analysis, in my case) to systematically cover the electoral context of protest politics (fourth generation).

Let me now highlight the core features of this strategy by moving from the definition of a protest event, via the sources selected, to the sampling strategy (see Koopmans 1995a). As argued in chapter 2, defining *protest* is not easy. For example, Opp (2009, 38) recently defined protest "as joint (i.e. collective) action of individuals aimed at achieving their goal or goals by influencing decisions of a target." Although such a broad definition might help distinguish it from other social actions (that is, meeting a friend), this definition is far too imprecise for PEA. The data set used for this book is thus based

on a more operational definition of protest events. The research objects were chosen based on a detailed and broad list of action forms whose nature is protest. The list includes petitions and political festivals as well as forms that are demonstrative (mass demonstrations), confrontational (hunger strikes and occupations), and violent (physical attacks and arson).[1] Following Kriesi et al. (1995), only protest events that are politically motivated are covered by the present data. This criterion is even more problematic when the main concept of political science is increasingly contested and blurred. To avoid this problem, the strategy chosen is once again quite operational. The coders used an extensive list of issues that allowed them to decide whether a given event should be coded or not.

Regarding *sources,* the events were retrieved from newspapers, which are still the primary source for PEA.[2] As Koopmans (1995a, 253) rightly states, "It is the poverty of the alternatives that makes newspapers so attractive." The major advantages of newspapers are access, selectivity, reliability, continuity over time, and ease of coding. Newspapers report on a regular basis, are kept in public archives, and—at least in the case of quality newspapers—try to maintain their credibility by covering events accurately.

However, many newspapers are published in any one country, and we could also rely on foreign sources (for example, the *New York Times* or *Reuters*). As the latter strategy is not very useful for comparative research, the present data were retrieved from domestic newspapers (Rucht and Neidhardt 1998, 74; compare Nam 2006). The newspapers were chosen with respect to six criteria (Koopmans 1995a): continuous publication throughout the research period, daily publication (on all days apart from Sunday), high quality, comparability of political orientation (none is very conservative or extremely left-wing), coverage of the entire national territory, and similar selectivity when reporting on protest events. For France *(Le Monde),* Germany *(Frankfurter Rundschau),* the Netherlands *(NRC Handelsblad),* and Switzerland *(Neue Zürcher Zeitung),* the same newspapers were selected as in the original data set. For Britain, I updated an existing data set and relied on the *Guardian,* the newspaper Koopmans chose (1996b). Austria possesses only one quality national newspaper that was published throughout the research period, namely *Die Presse.* The newspapers selected clearly fulfill criteria 1 through 4. However, assessing whether they fulfill criteria 5 and 6 is more difficult (for an empirical test, see following).

Following Kriesi et al. (1995), the data used in this study were retrieved from Monday editions only (or the edition of the next day when no Monday edition was published). This choice was dictated both by the necessity of reducing the work involved in collecting data and because Monday editions report

on events that occur over the weekend. Because protest activities tend to be concentrated on weekends, the data set is expected to include a high proportion of the events that occurred during the period under study. As Rucht and Neidhardt (1998, 79) nicely state, "You simply get more fish throwing out the net on Monday than on any other day." Although this is rarely contested in the literature, whether the events covered in Monday editions are representative of all the events covered by a newspaper is controversial (a point to which I return in the next section).

Overall, the design resulted in a data set of 19,182 protest events in the six countries from 1975 to 2005, involving approximately 118 million participants. Missing participation figures have been replaced by the national median of the number of participants for a given type of event (for example, a demonstration) in that country. Following Kriesi et al. (1995), events with more than one million participants are coded as 999,998 ($N = 13$). There is considerable variation by country in the number of events coded: 5,346 for West Germany; 5,107 for France; 2,318 for Switzerland; 2,063 for Great Britain; 1,981 for the Netherlands; and 500 for Austria. Because my research focuses on long-term trends and the national level, I exclude all events that took place on East German and Northern Irish soil. As stated in the introduction to this book, the original data from Kriesi et al.'s (1995) four-country study (covering 1975 to 1989) are used, together with updates for Switzerland (Giugni 2004a) and Britain (Koopmans 1996b). Both the methodology and key variables of the various data sets are the same, but there are three potential sources of difference:

First, the most recent data rely on a keyword search in electronic archives to select relevant articles (see also Strawn 2010). In the case of the United Kingdom, all picture legends were manually selected because they were not systematically included in the electronic text archive of the *Guardian* (see Rootes 2003a, 53). A very comprehensive list of keywords was used to achieve both more efficiency and more consistency with the manually selected data sets. To meet objections, I performed comparability tests based on the 1993–99 time period for Switzerland and for two years in all the other countries. Overall, the results are good for those relying on electronic selection (compare Maney and Oliver 2001; Ortiz et al. 2005, 403). There are hardly any differences between the manual and electronic search strategies (results available from the author).

Second, the main variables used in the analysis are included in all the data sets and allow for a longitudinal analysis from 1975 to 2005. At the same time, the data sets differ with respect to the inclusion of additional variables. Overall, the most recent updates are the most inclusive (including, for example,

extra variables on transnational features). Unfortunately, the Swiss data for 1990–99 are the least inclusive. I thus indicate whenever I had to exclude this data from the analysis. All the empirical results in part II of this book were cross-checked by including and excluding the Swiss events.

Third, an updated list of issue categories was used for the most recent data collection. In particular, it included a new category for global justice mobilization. Based on a review of the scientific and activist literature (for example, Holzapfel and König 2001; Pianta 2001), I identified and recoded some earlier events in the data set that also belong to this new issue category.

The Selection Bias of Newspaper Data

As stated, selection bias studies were very prominent in the third PEA generation. To assess biases, scholars compared local and national newspapers (for example, Hocke 1998, 2002; Swank 2000), newspapers and television (McCarthy et al. 1996b), or newspapers and non-media sources (especially police archives) (for example, Barranco and Wisler 1999; Fillieule 1996; Hocke 1998, 2002; McCarthy et al. 1996; Oliver and Maney 2000; Oliver and Myers 1999). However, researchers still disagree on how bad the selection bias is (just compare the recent reviews of Earl et al. 2004 and Ortiz et al. 2005).[3] In the following, I briefly summarize the literature on *absolute selection bias* (that is, on the question of which protests media select from all the protest events taking place). Afterward, I focus on *relative selection bias* by empirically comparing the minimalist strategy with other media-based data sets (on the distinction between absolute and relative biases, see Strawn 2008). Ortiz et al. (2005, 413) are correct when stating that such comparisons cannot be used to establish a lack of bias, but nonetheless they help to assess the quality of different data sets.

Selection Criteria of Newspapers: The Literature on Absolute Bias

With very few exceptions, the population and political decision makers learn of protest largely through the media (chapter 2). Thus, if we are interested in "protests that are potentially relevant for social and political change, there is good reason to focus only on those events that are, or can be, registered by the wider public" (Rucht and Neidhardt 1998, 76). Furthermore, as Koopmans and Rucht (2002, 247) argue, "For many analytical purposes, it is not so much the actual level of protest but its composition and trends over time that is of interest." This is not to say that we should not care about selection bias. For example, according to the police, more than a thousand demonstrations take place in Paris every year, but only a fraction of them make the national news (only fifty-seven Parisian protests are covered by the present data

set per year). No one would claim that these events are a representative sample. The coverage is selective, but what are the main factors that predict whether an event is covered? Knowing this helps interpreting PEA findings. According to Earl et al. (2004), three sets of factors predict selection bias and increase the news value of a given protest event:

Event characteristics. The most important characteristics that increase the likelihood of an event's being covered refer to what della Porta and Diani (2006, 171–76) call the "logic of numbers" and the "logic of damage." Many studies show that large and violent events are more likely to be reported than small and peaceful ones (for example, Barranco and Wisler 1999; Fillieule 1996; Hocke 1998, 2002; McCarthy et al. 1996c; McCarthy et al. 2008; Maney and Oliver 2003; Oliver and Maney 2000; Oliver and Myers 1999). Rucht and Neidhardt (1998, 76) even state, "In the case of very large events, as in cases of violent demonstrations leading to significant damage to property and/or injuries, we can expect a total coverage even when using only one national newspaper." Other event characteristics that increase coverage rates refer to the presence of counter-demonstrators and police forces or sponsorship by formal organizations (for example, Hocke 2002; McCarthy et al. 2008; Myers and Schaefer Caniglia 2004; Oliver and Maney 2000).

News agency characteristics. Danzger (1975) showed years ago that the presence of a wire service in a city increases the likelihood that an event will be covered. Oliver and Myers (1999) show, for example, that routinized events confirming expectations about when, how, and where events take place are more likely to be covered by journalists than nonroutinized events. Additional variables refer to audience characteristics and newspaper self-definition. For example, local newspapers are less selective than are national newspapers (for example, Hocke 1998, 2002; Swank 2000), and liberal or extreme left-wing newspapers are less selective than conservative papers (for example, Eilders 2001; Koopmans 1995a; Oliver and Myers 1999).

Issue characteristics. Protests that resonate with more general concerns are more likely to be reported. This is what Downs (1972) calls the "issue attention cycle" and McCarthy et al. (1996a) call the "media attention cycle." For empirical research, identifying such attention cycles outside the newspaper coverage that such cycles are supposed to influence is difficult (Ortiz et al. 2005, 401). McCarthy et al.'s (1996a) study on Washington, D.C., is most often cited as showing the effects of media attention cycles. But even though McCarthy et al. (1996a, 492) observed some effects, these effects "are dwarfed by the consequences of size on media coverage." In another local study, Oliver and Maney (2000) show that legislative conflict over a particular issue increases the likelihood of a protest being covered.

Overall, the results on issue characteristics are less clear-cut than on event and news agency characteristics (Ortiz et al. 2005, 401),[4] but the diverse range of studies cited shows that the results are quite consistent across different countries and media sources (McCarthy et al. 2008, 142). The question that has not yet been raised is that of *whether biases are consistent over time.* This is a very important assumption for this book, because it looks at how protest politics has developed since the 1970s. Although some studies find inconsistent patterns across short periods of a week or a month (see Myers and Schaefer Caniglia 2004; Oliver and Maney 2000; Swank 2000), others show that the patterns of selection bias tend to be stable. This holds especially within individual newspapers, for national sources, and over longer periods of time (see Barranco and Wisler 1999; McCarthy et al. 1996c; McCarthy et al. 2008). Those who find rather negative results tend to focus on the local level and cover both protest events and more conventional action forms (Oliver and Maney 2000; Oliver and Myers 1999). Fillieule and Jiménez (2003) are also skeptical. They base their conclusion on interviews with journalists about coverage of environmental protests. Recently, McCarthy et al. (2008) have provided strong evidence in favor of the stability of bias. Based on data for Minsk (Belarus), the authors show that patterns of selection bias are very stable even in a period of political transition (that is, from 1990 to 1995). I agree with Earl et al.'s (2004, 77) assessment that, compared to other instruments for retrieving data, the quality standards of PEA score well as long as we take the stable selection criteria into account when interpreting empirical results.

Testing the Relative Bias of the Minimalist Strategy

The goal of this section of Appendix A is to present additional tests for the relative selection bias of the present data. Before presenting the empirical findings, I underscore Earl et al.'s (2004, 71) comment that often "differences in coding criteria and procedures may account for some of what appears to be selection bias." Therefore, all the data sets had to be recoded before they could be used to assess relative biases. This is very time-consuming work, because sometimes it is necessary to go back to single cases to assure the comparability of the various data sets.[5]

What Do We Gain When Adding a Second Newspaper?

Many scholars recommend using more than one source to capture more events and in turn address the problem of selection bias. However, the empirical results are mixed. Although some authors report variation in bias across sources (for example, Davenport and Litras 2001; Strawn 2008), others find little variation (for example, Barranco and Wisler 1999; Martin 2005; McCarthy

et al. 1996a; McCarthy et al. 2008; Oliver and Maney 2000, 472). Furthermore, some argue that including additional sources (be it another newspaper or a non-media source) may even introduce additional biases with respect to certain research questions (Myers and Schaefer Caniglia 2004, 536).

To test the added value of coding a second newspaper, I rely on the German Prodat data collected by Rucht and his collaborators (for example, Rucht 2001, 2003; Rucht et al. 1992). As the Prodat data set is used several times in this appendix, I briefly discuss how it differs from the minimalist data used in part II of this book. Prodat (1) relies on two quality newspapers: *Frankfurter Rundschau* and *Süddeutsche Zeitung;* (2) is based on the national sections of the newspapers only; (3) is based on a sample of Monday issues (coding only weekend protests) but includes all issues every fourth week as well (also coding only the events occurring one day before the publication day); (4) includes strikes and other action forms (for example, internal protest meetings, resolutions, and litigations) that are not covered by my data set; and (5) covers the period from 1950 to 1997.

Rucht and Neidhardt (1998, 75) maintain, "The main advantage of a second source is the possibility of controlling for a systematic bias in the first source." Eilders (2001) tests this assumption by comparing the two Prodat newspapers and an additional newspaper *(Die Tageszeitung)* for 1993. According to her study, the use of an additional source leads to more events; only 9.4 percent of all coded events are covered by all three newspapers ($N = 724$), but 20.4 percent of all events that are covered by the *Frankfurter Rundschau* or the *Süddeutsche Zeitung* are reported in both newspapers ($N = 513$). However, with respect to issue salience and other key variables, Eilders (2001) finds almost no difference between the three sources.

Going one step further, I undertook a more extensive analysis for the period 1975 to 1997. During this period, the *Frankfurter Rundschau* yields 70.4 percent of all coded events, and 35.9 percent of all events are covered by both newspapers; the *Süddeutsche Zeitung* contributes 29.6 percent of unique events and the *Frankfurter Rundschau* 34.5 percent ($N = 5{,}526$). Again, this shows that relying on a second newspaper increases the number of protest events being collected. The gains are, however, less pronounced when one looks at the number of participants. Selecting not only the *Frankfurter Rundschau* but also the *Süddeutsche Zeitung* increases the number of participants covered by only 15.4 percent. Including more observations is positive, but the most crucial question is whether this leads to additional information. As Figure 30 shows, looking only at the *Frankfurter Rundschau* or at both German newspapers provides almost identical accounts of the ebbs and flows of the number of protest participants in Germany from 1975 to 1997 ($r = 0.98$).

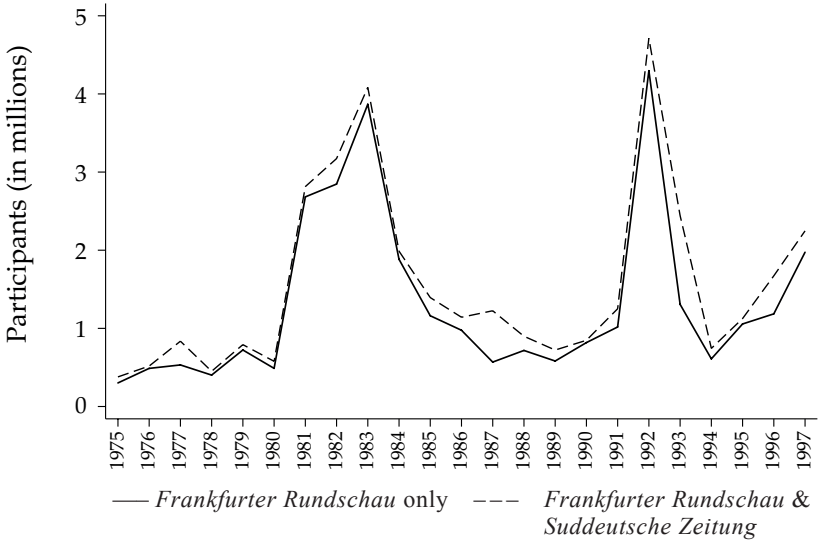


Figure 30. Protest participants in Germany, 1975–97. r = *0.98.*
Source: *Prodat.*

Similarly, the results on the relative distribution of issues and action forms do not change significantly when adding a second newspaper (see Table 12). Both cross-sectional comparisons and longitudinal developments are accurately described when using the *Frankfurter Rundschau* only. Thus, the results suggest that if we are interested in national protest events in Germany and focus on mid- to long-term evolutions (yearly figures or aggregates) of somewhat abstract issue categories or action forms, not much is gained when a second national quality newspaper is taken into account.

What Do We Miss When Relying on Monday Editions Only?

Many have criticized the use of Monday editions, but few have tested the bias empirically. Barranco and Wisler (1999) study the Swiss case and collect data on public demonstrations taking place in four major cities (Basel, Bern, Geneva, and Zurich).The time period covered ranges from eight to thirty years: Basel (1981, 1988–94), Bern (1965–94), Geneva (1965–94), and Zurich (1965–91). They show that more than half of the public demonstrations in Swiss cities took place either on Saturday or Sunday (police archives). Tests with continuous newspaper data conducted by Koopmans (1995a, 1998) for Germany and Giugni (2004b) for the United States also confirm that the general

Table 12. Issues and action forms of protest in Germany, 1975–97

	Frankfurter Rundschau	*Frankfurter Rundschau* and *Süddeutsche Zeitung*	Correlation coefficient
Issues			
Cultural liberalism	28.5	27.7	1.00
Immigration	25.7	24.9	1.00
Environment	19.8	19.8	0.97
Economic (others)	9.5	10.1	0.98
Others	8.7	9.4	1.00
Cultural (others)	5.2	5.7	1.00
Welfare	2.4	2.0	1.00
Europe	0.2	0.1	1.00
Global justice	0.1	0.2	0.92
Action forms			
Demonstrative	62.0	61.4	1.00
Confrontational	22.5	22.8	1.00
Light violence	3.7	4.3	1.00
Heavy violence	11.9	11.5	1.00
(*N*)	(3,892)	(5,526)	

Note: The coefficient *r* reports the correlation of the shares over time in *FR* and *SZ* based on five time periods: 1975–79, 1980–84, 1985–89, 1990–94, and 1995–97. For the issues categories, see Figure 2 and Appendix B.

Source: Prodat

ebbs and flows of protest mobilization are tracked accurately when relying on Monday editions only.

Once again, the more crucial question is whether we misinterpret some characteristics of protest politics when oversampling weekend protests. By means of logistic regressions, Barranco and Wisler (1999) demonstrate that weekend events are larger and more likely to be permitted than events taking place from Monday to Friday. With respect to the issues, foreigners, who protest against the situation in their countries of origin, are more likely to protest on weekends. Labor and farmer protests, by contrast, are more likely to take place on weekdays. Furthermore, events sponsored by major parties or unions are also more likely to take place on weekends. Thus, sampling Monday editions does lead to a relative selection bias.

I have performed the same kind of analysis but used the Prodat data (covering 1975 to 1997) and aggregated the issues as done in part II of this book. The findings in Table 13 support Barranco and Wisler's (1999) conclusions. Protests involving economic and other cultural issues (including student protests) are less likely to occur on weekends than events on cultural

Table 13. Logistic regressions of weekend protest events, Germany 1975–97

	Coef.	SE
Issue		
Immigration	0.50***	(0.09)
Environment	0.12	(0.09)
Others	−0.24**	(0.11)
Welfare	−0.40*	(0.21)
Economic (others)	−0.84***	(0.11)
Cultural (others)	−1.46***	(0.14)
Cultural liberalism (reference category)		
Action form		
Confrontational	−1.07***	(0.07)
Violent	−0.99***	(0.09)
Demonstrative (reference category)		
Number of participants	−0.00	(0.00)
Mobilization area		
National	0.08	(0.08)
International	−0.02	(0.13)
Local/regional (reference category)		
Newspaper		
Frankfurter Rundschau	−0.01	(0.07)
Süddeutsche Zeitung (reference category)		
Organizations involved		
Initiative/network	−0.01	(0.08)
Interest association	−0.32***	(0.08)
Political party	0.63***	(0.12)
Constant	1.07***	(0.08)
N	5,485	
Pseudo R^2	0.08	

*** $p < 0.01$, ** $p < 0.05$, * $p < 0.1$; standard errors in parentheses

Source: Prodat

liberalism and the environment. Migration-related protests are even more likely to occur on weekends than events focused on cultural liberalism.[6] This is also supported by Braun and Koopmans (2010), who show that extreme right-wing violence is over-represented in Germany during weekends. With respect to forms of action, demonstrative events are more likely to occur on weekends than are confrontational or violent ones. In addition, German political parties are more likely to support weekend protests. Interest associations (for example, unions and farmers' associations), by contrast, are more likely to support weekday protests. Finally, all the results are stable over time, as

indicated by the separate analyses for each five-year period (results not shown) (see also Barranco and Wisler 1999, 312).

Note that the selection bias is less pronounced in the present data set, because it covers weekend events and all other events reported in Monday editions. On average, 73.7 percent of all the coded protests took place over the weekend in the period between 1990 and 2005 (the original data of Kriesi et al. 1995 do not provide this information). The shares range from 62.8 percent in the Netherlands to 85.3 percent in Germany. To test the extent of the weekend bias, I once again rely on Prodat because this data set includes information on every fourth full week (see previous). This allows for the calculation of the overall share of weekend protests if we assume that the selected weeks are representative of all other weeks. From 1990 to 1997, Prodat includes 62.6 percent weekend protests and 37.4 percent weekday protests. Thus, the calculated "real" rate of weekend protests is 29.5 percent of all events when the weekday protests are weighted by a factor of four. Because my own data set covers 82.2 percent weekday protests in Germany for the period between 1990 and 1997, we can conclude that the minimalist strategy oversamples weekend protests by a factor of 2.8 in this period.

Fillieule (1996) raises a very serious point when he argues that the deadline for reports being included in the Monday edition varies across newspapers. The Monday edition of *Le Monde* selected by Kriesi et al. (1995) is already partially printed on Sunday morning. Thus, the edition covers events that take place between Friday afternoon and Sunday morning (see also Duyvendak 1995, 215). Based on this observation, Fillieule (1996, 21) argues:

> One has to ask what consequences this might have had for a database constructed out of the Sunday/Monday edition of *Le Monde.* And the question is all the more crucial in the case of this comparative study: we know that weekend events have some characteristics that others have not. . . . Here is a strong bias that was, unfortunately, not foreseen.

Based on data for 1990 until 2005, I can say that the early deadline of *Le Monde* has no consequences for the analysis.[7] First, the French data set does not include an above-average share of weekday protests (71.2 percent). Furthermore, *Le Monde* is not more likely to cover protests taking place on Friday, and the French data cover only a slightly lower share of events taking place on Sundays than do the other newspapers (23.1 percent Sunday events for France versus 27.2 for the other four countries). In addition, I have tested whether the most fundamental result of Kriesi et al. (1995) (little salience of new social movements in France) is affected by the choice of the Sunday/Monday edition, as Fillieule (1996) assumes. This is not the case. The share

of new social movement issues in France is 26 percent based on all days and 34 based on weekends (covering 1990–2005). The overall averages for the other four countries are 45 and 51 percent, respectively.

To conclude, the use of the Monday edition is an efficient and reliable strategy for collecting protest events for large geographical areas and over long periods of time. This comes at a certain price. Some issues, action forms, and organizations are more likely to be caught when fishing on the weekend than during the week. This is why the present study follows Earl et al.'s (2004, 68) advice that "scholars using purposive sampling schemes should be aware of the possible biases that may be introduced, as well as the undercounting that occurs when one uses any sampling strategy." Thus, the differences between weekend and weekday events need to be taken seriously, so in part II of this book, it has been cross-checked to determine whether the main conclusions still hold when taking the Monday bias of the data set into account.

The Regional Bias of National Newspapers

As Rucht and Neidhardt (1998, 74) suggest, using "a national newspaper is certainly advisable when one seeks to cover protests in a whole country. It should be made clear, however, that a nationally published newspaper inherently tends to apply the criterion of 'nationwide relevance' for covering protests." Because I focused on national protests, I missed the many localized struggles that did not make the national news. However, as noted, even national newspapers report on local issues, and events occurring close to a newspaper's headquarter are more likely to be reported. This regional focus (or bias) of national newspapers is most obvious when the papers include special sections on regional or local issues. For example, the *Frankfurter Rundschau* has a bias toward the state of Hesse, and the *Neue Zürcher Zeitung* is biased toward the German-speaking part of Switzerland in general and the Zurich region in particular. The other four papers do not have such extensive regional sections. However, all are biased toward the political, cultural, and economic center of the countries where their headquarters are located. *Die Presse* has a regional bias for Vienna, *Le Monde* for Paris, the *Guardian* for London, and *NRC Handelsblad* for the Randstad area.

To assess the regional bias of the papers, I have compared the share of protest events that are reported to take place in these "favored" regions with the share of people living there. Although population figures are only a rough proxy for the importance of a given region, the comparison indicates that coverage is related to this measure. Based on this comparison, regional bias is least pronounced for the Netherlands and most pronounced for Germany in the period 1990 to 2005. Although only around 9 percent of all German inhabitants live

in Hesse, around 24 percent of all protests covered by the *Frankfurter Rundschau* took place there. This means that the favored region is over-reported by a factor of 2.6. The values for the other countries range from 1.3 (Austria) and 1.4 (Britain) to 1.6 (France). In part II of this book, I have rerun the analyses by using these factors as probability weights. The main findings are unaffected by regional bias.[8] As an illustration, Table 14 shows the results based on all protest events coded and on those events in the "regional periphery." The selected results indicate that the major comparative findings are not affected by the regional bias of the sources. This is good news for those who rely on one domestic newspaper for comparative research.

Aggregation Levels of Issues and Time

So far, I have tried to show that the minimalist strategy is an efficient and reliable way to collect protest events while also taking some of its distortions into account. However, the strategy becomes more problematic when disaggregating the variables too far. For example, when tracing the development of a specific type of environmental protest over time (for example, transportation issues) or looking at yearly changes in welfare-related protests, it is not very reliable. To underscore this, Table 15 highlights that when taking a middle-range aggregation level, the minimalist strategy leads to almost the same results as the more encompassing Prodat strategy. The table presents correlation coefficients for the trends based on Prodat and the present data set. The more we aggregate the time variable (moving from one-year to five-year periods), the closer the fit between the two trends. Using five-year periods, the development of the absolute number of events and participants is highly correlated (r = 0.93 and 0.95), and the salience of specific issues is even more closely related (r > 0.96).

Table 14. Comparative research and the regional bias of national newspapers

	Salience of immigration		Demonstrative action forms	
	Regional periphery	All events	Regional periphery	All events
Germany	45	42	61	63
Netherlands	22	21	56	59
France	20	22	50	57
Britain	15	15	40	45
Austria	15	16	38	46

Note: The column "All events" shows the share of events for a given category as a percentage of all coded protest events. The column "Regional periphery" shows only the share of events for a given category as a percentage of all protest events taking place outside the "regional center."

Table 15. Longitudinal trends based on Prodat and author data

Time	*N*	Issues	Events	Participants
1975–97	24 years	All issues	0.85	0.79
1975–94	4 periods	All issues	0.93	0.95
1975–94	24 years	Cultural liberalism	0.89	0.94
		Environment	0.91	0.85
		Immigration	0.86	0.89
		Welfare	0.84	0.94
1975–94	4 periods	Cultural liberalism	0.99	0.99
		Environment	0.98	0.96
		Immigration	0.99	1.00
		Welfare	0.95	0.98

Note: Correlation coefficients; *events* refers to the absolute number of coded protest events for all issues, and the share as a percentage of all coded issues for the specific issues; the four time periods are 1975–79, 1980–84, 1985–89, and 1990–94.

The next test relies on the data collected by the project "Transformation of Environmental Activism" (TEA) directed by Rootes (2003c), who, together with his colleagues, collected data on environmental protests in seven European countries (including Britain, France, and Germany) for the period 1988 to 1997. In this project, one quality newspaper per country, but all editions of the newspaper, was coded. Although Rootes (2003d, 19) is somewhat critical of the minimalist Monday strategy, comparing the TEA data with the minimalist strategy aggregated for the whole ten-year period leads to the same cross-national findings for the key variables. For example, the share of anti-nuclear protests as a percentage of all environmental protests coded is roughly the same: Germany (52 percent based on TEA versus 47 percent based on my data), France (21 percent versus 19 percent), and Britain (5 percent versus 3 percent). Similar differences can be found for other issue categories and variables (results available from the author).

The two tests underscore that the minimalist strategy of data collection is good enough for many research purposes. However, the most reliable results are obtained when focusing on a middle-range aggregation level of issues and time. This is the aggregation level chosen in part II of this book.

The Selectivity of National Newspapers in a Comparative Perspective

This final section focuses on a crucial assumption when relying on a single national newspaper for cross-national research. As Rucht and Neidhardt (1998, 74) state, using a single national paper is certainly a reasonable decision "but only works under the debatable assumption that each paper has roughly the

same level of attention for the same kind of domestic protests." Unfortunately, comparing the selectivity of newspapers in different countries is very difficult. To determine whether the newspapers are really comparable before the start of the study is problematic simply because their coverage is based on different facts (Koopmans 1995a, 257). However, conducting some a posteriori tests is possible. This is done by comparing the data used for the present book with data retrieved from the Reuters news agency, as suggested by Rucht and Neidhardt (1998, 74).[9]

More specifically, I have compared my own data set with the European Protest and Coercion Data (EPCD) collected by Ron Francisco and his colleagues (for example, Francisco 1996; Nam 2006, 2007; Reising 1998, 1999). The data cover nearly all European countries and some Latin American and Southeast Asian countries for the period from 1980 to 1995. The main source is the Reuters news agency. However, additional national and international sources are included when electronically available. On average, around two-thirds of all events are coded from Reuters, ranging from a low share of 34 percent in Great Britain to 75 percent in Switzerland (author's calculation). Although adding as many sources as possible might be advantageous (Nam 2006, 281), doing so comes at a price for longitudinal and cross-sectional studies. The number of sources affects the number of protest events covered over time and across nations. The problem could be solved by relying on the Reuters-based events in the EPCD data only. Unfortunately, this is almost impossible with the data at hand.[10] This and other differences have been neglected when comparing the EPCD data with the minimalist strategy (see Morales 2009; Nam 2006). Although these differences make comparing the two data sets difficult, the EPCD data are still the best available Reuters data with which to test the selectivity of my own data.

As Reuters has a bias toward big states (Imig 2001, 256), the analysis differentiates between the three big states and the three small states covered here. Table 16 reveals that although the data sets differ greatly in absolute number of participants, the cross-national differences are very similar. The only exception to be seen is in Austria. This suggests that the Austrian source *(Die Presse)* used here tends to be rather selective in its coverage of protest mobilization.

The EPCD is the only other protest event data set that includes an issue variable for a large number of countries. In the following, I focus on the 1980s, that is, the expected heyday of new social movement (NSM) mobilization. In addition, Reuters is the primary source of information for all countries during this period. The salience of NSM issues is very similar across the two data sets (see Table 16). Thus, the major conclusions on cross-national differences

Table 16. Comparison of EPCD and author data

a. The number of participants, 1980–95

	EPCD (all)	EPCD (Reuters)	Author data
Germany	43,984	26,815	25,916
France	34,324	26,787	19,502
Britain	10,662	2,687	7,264
Netherlands	3,044	2,893	4,203
Switzerland	2,265	1,522	2,787
Austria	1,885	990	808

b. The salience of new social movements, 1980–89

	Share of protest events (%)		Participants per million inhabitants (1,000s)	
	EPCD (all)	Author data	EPCD (all)	Author data
Germany	70	78	199	224
Switzerland	69	64	124	186
Netherlands	64	73	156	193
Austria	51	55	50	34
Britain	45	54	36	62
France	27	34	36	61

Note: Germany includes protest events in East Germany from 1990 onward; Great Britain does not cover protest events taking place in Northern Ireland. EPCD (all) includes all events included in the recoded data from Ron Francisco and his colleagues (http://web.ku.edu/-ronfran/data/), while EPCD (Reuters) covers only those events for which Reuters is coded as source (see text for some problems).

are not affected by a varying selectivity of the newspapers used for this book. Based on EPCD and my own data, there are two main groups of countries: Germany, Switzerland, and the Netherlands, with strong NSM mobilization, and Austria, Britain, and France, with rather low mobilization levels (for a detailed analysis, see chapter 7).

To sum up, testing the selectivity of the various national newspapers is not easy. Comparing the data set used for this book with Reuters-based data suggests that the six national newspapers are equally selective in their coverage of protest events and NSM issues. The only major difference occurs with the Austrian newspaper *Die Presse,* which tends to be slightly more selective in its coverage of protest events than the other national newspapers.

Summary: Imperfect but Worthy of Analysis

This appendix has presented the data used to analyze the activities in the protest arena, PEA. I have briefly sketched how the approach has developed over four generations since it emerged in the 1960s. Although this book closely

follows Kriesi et al.'s (1995) minimalist strategy of data collection, with Kriesi et al. being seen as a major part of the second generation, it also takes into account the more recent generations. Most important, this appendix has summarized the main findings of studies on absolute selection bias (belonging to the third research generation). Event, news agency, and issue characteristics affect whether a given protest event is likely to be covered by national newspapers. This needs to be taken into account when interpreting the findings based on newspaper data in part II of this study. At the same time, the results suggest that the factors affecting coverage rates are fairly stable over time (at least within a single newspaper, over longer periods of time, and for national sources).

Furthermore, this appendix has answered those critics who doubt the validity and reliability of the minimalist strategy of data collection (for example, Fillieule 1996, 2007; Nam 2006; Ortiz et al. 2005). For this purpose, the relative bias of the present data was assessed in comparison with other more encompassing media data. Specifically, this appendix has answered the following questions: What is gained when using a second newspaper? What is missed when relying on Monday editions only? How strong is regional bias? Are the various newspapers equally selective with respect to protest politics? Overall, the empirical findings let me side with Earl et al. (2004, 77): "Are the best available, yet imperfect, data worthy of analysis? We argue that researchers can effectively use such data and that newspaper data does not deviate markedly from accepted standards of quality."

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Appendix B: Issue Categorization

With respect to electoral politics, Kriesi et al. (2006, 2008b) propose twelve broad issue categories. As stated in the introduction, the issue categories have been adapted to examine protest politics. Figure 31 presents how the very specific goals of protest events have been aggregated into the nine issue categories used throughout this book. To introduce the new categories, I show how they correspond to the more "conventional" and movement-oriented categories used by Kriesi et al. (1995).

Category	Kriesi et al. (1995) categories
Cultural liberalism	Peace Solidarity with developing world (external) Women Homosexuals Squatters, autonomous youth
Immigration	Solidarity with foreigners (internal) Racism, right-wing extremism Mobilization of foreigners over the situation in their country of residence (internal)
Europe	International cooperation (incl. European integration)
Culture (residual category)	Education Civil rights Parts of other right-wing mobilization Parts of other left-wing mobilization
Global justice	[New category]
Welfare	Parts of labor mobilization
Economic (residual category)	Parts of labor mobilization Farmer mobilization Parts of other right-wing mobilization Parts of other left-wing mobilization
Environment	Anti–nuclear energy Environment
Others (residual category)	Regionalist mobilization Mobilization of foreigners over the situation in their country of origin (external) Others

Figure 31. Issue categories used for the analyses of protest politics.

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Appendix C: Salience of the Specific Issues by Decade and Country

Table 17. Salience of all issues by decade and country in the protest arena (share of events in %)

	Cultural (all)	Cultural liberalism	Immigration	Europe	Culture (residual)	*Economic (all)*	Global justice	Welfare	Economic (residual)	Environment	Others	*N*
Austria												
1975–79	*40.9*	15.5	12.7	0.0	12.7	*18.3*	0.0	1.4	16.9	14.1	26.8	71
1980–89	*40.2*	22.7	9.1	0.8	7.6	*12.9*	0.0	3.0	9.8	31.1	15.9	132
1990–99	*47.1*	12.9	19.1	2.2	12.9	*9.6*	0.0	3.4	6.2	28.7	14.6	178
2000–2005	*51.3*	10.1	11.8	0.0	29.4	*21.8*	2.5	16.0	3.4	21.0	5.9	119
Great Britain												
1975–79	*46.3*	11.4	26.5	1.3	7.1	*14.3*	0.0	1.9	12.4	17.2	22.2	378
1980–89	*46.0*	29.4	13.0	0.0	3.6	*15.4*	0.0	2.0	13.4	18.5	20.1	746
1990–99	*38.1*	18.8	11.5	0.3	7.5	*13.8*	0.2	1.4	12.3	27.6	20.5	653
2000–2005	*55.9*	29.0	24.1	0.0	2.8	*8.7*	1.7	0.7	7.0	19.6	15.0	286
France												
1975–79	*41.7*	18.3	8.0	0.2	15.2	*24.0*	0.0	0.8	23.1	18.6	15.7	864
1980–89	*37.4*	11.6	13.2	0.1	12.5	*14.0*	0.0	0.6	13.5	16.9	31.7	1,268
1990–99	*45.1*	8.8	22.3	0.3	13.7	*28.5*	1.0	9.0	18.5	7.7	18.7	1,977
2000–2005	*41.2*	9.9	21.5	0.4	9.4	*26.7*	1.6	11.5	13.5	11.0	21.0	998
Germany												
1975–79	*61.6*	30.5	14.8	0.4	15.9	*6.1*	0.0	0.4	5.6	26.0	6.3	446
1980–89	*64.3*	43.8	15.6	0.1	4.8	*6.0*	0.0	1.5	4.5	25.6	4.1	1,897
1990–99	*64.7*	19.6	40.4	0.2	4.5	*7.9*	0.1	2.0	5.8	14.8	12.6	2,203
2000–2005	*74.4*	22.1	46.3	0.1	5.9	*9.6*	1.5	4.8	3.4	11.4	4.6	800
Netherlands												
1975–79	*51.0*	33.2	9.5	0.3	8.0	*21.1*	0.0	1.2	19.9	11.9	16.0	337
1980–89	*68.2*	54.8	10.3	0.1	3.0	*11.1*	0.0	1.6	9.5	14.1	6.7	982
1990–99	*46.8*	15.9	20.7	1.1	9.1	*25.5*	0.2	3.0	22.3	11.4	16.2	439
2000–2005	*45.3*	21.1	21.1	0.4	2.7	*21.1*	0.9	7.2	13.0	15.7	17.9	223
Switzerland												
1975–79	*30.8*	20.4	0.4	0.0	10.0	*12.1*	0.0	0.4	11.7	27.9	29.2	240
1980–89	*55.6*	44.2	6.1	0.1	5.2	*3.5*	0.0	0.1	3.4	16.0	24.9	975
1990–99	*47.0*	30.1	12.4	1.3	3.1	*8.7*	0.3	1.2	7.2	17.4	26.9	668
2000–2005	*49.2*	23.4	23.0	0.2	2.5	*23.9*	14.0	2.3	7.6	14.5	12.4	435

Note: Share of events that focus on an issue as a percentage of all coded events in that period.

Table 18. Salience of all issues by decade and country in the protest arena (participants per million inhabitants, yearly averages)

	Cultural (all)	Cultural liberalism	Immigration	Europe	Culture (residual)	Economic (all)	Global justice	Welfare	Economic (residual)	Environment	Others	*N*
Austria												
1975–79	*1.3*	0.7	0.1	-	0.5	*0.3*	-	0.0	0.3	0.4	0.5	71
1980–89	*2.7*	2.4	0.1	0.0	0.2	*0.5*	-	0.4	0.1	0.8	0.3	132
1990–99	*6.2*	1.0	3.8	0.0	1.4	*0.3*	-	0.1	0.2	3.7	0.6	178
2000–2005	*10.3*	1.0	0.6	-	8.7	*2.0*	0.1	1.9	0.0	1.4	0.5	119
Great Britain												
1975–79	*2.0*	0.8	0.9	0.0	0.3	*1.3*	-	0.1	1.2	0.5	0.3	378
1980–89	*5.7*	5.4	0.1	-	0.2	*3.3*	-	0.2	3.1	0.7	0.7	746
1990–99	*3.6*	3.2	0.1	0.0	0.3	*1.5*	0.0	0.0	1.5	0.2	0.9	653
2000–2005	*11.0*	10.8	0.1	-	0.1	*1.0*	0.8	0.0	0.2	0.1	2.3	286
France												
1975–79	*4.0*	0.9	0.4	0.0	2.7	*4.9*	-	0.0	4.9	1.6	0.2	864
1980–89	*14.0*	2.4	3.1	0.0	8.5	*1.0*	-	0.5	0.5	1.0	0.5	1,268
1990–99	*8.1*	2.2	2.6	0.1	3.2	*13.7*	0.1	9.5	4.1	1.6	0.7	1,977
2000-2005	*8.8*	4.0	1.9	0.1	2.8	*27.1*	1.4	14.3	11.4	3.9	4.6	998
Germany												
1975–79	*2.3*	0.7	0.6	0.0	1.0	*0.2*	-	0.0	0.2	2.1	0.1	446
1980–89	*16.5*	14.9	0.6	0.0	1.0	*3.7*	-	0.9	2.8	6.1	0.2	1,897
1990–99	*11.5*	2.7	6.5	0.0	2.3	*2.3*	0.0	1.3	1.0	4.6	2.6	2,203
2000–2005	*6.0*	3.3	1.1	0.0	1.6	*2.7*	0.0	2.5	0.2	0.7	0.8	800
Netherlands												
1975–79	*3.4*	2.7	0.4	0.0	0.3	*2.0*	-	0.1	1.9	1.5	0.4	337
1980–89	*18.1*	16.7	0.7	0.0	0.7	*3.2*	-	0.6	3.6	1.6	0.5	982
1990–99	*2.6*	0.9	1.0	0.3	0.4	*2.0*	0.0	1.1	0.9	0.4	0.5	439
2000–2005	*1.6*	1.3	0.3	0.0	0.0	*1.1*	0.0	1.0	0.1	0.4	0.3	223
Switzerland												
1975–79	*4.7*	2.6	0.1	-	2.0	*2.0*	-	0.1	1.9	10.9	6.9	240
1980–89	*10.8*	7.5	0.9	0.0	2.4	*1.6*	-	0.5	1.1	11.2	5.7	975
1990–99	*6.6*	3.5	1.8	0.4	0.9	*5.1*	0.1	0.6	4.4	4.4	4.3	668
2000–2005	*6.0*	4.1	1.5	0.0	0.4	*9.4*	2.6	4.7	2.1	5.3	2.0	435

Note: Number of participants per million inhabitants that take part in protest events over the issue; the values indicate yearly averages to compare the different time periods.

Acknowledgments

In 2003, I was searching for a topic for my licentiate's thesis in Zurich. Fortunately, I heard that the research project "National Political Change in a Globalizing World" was looking for two students who would voluntarily spend their days in the library selecting and coding newspaper ads from Swiss political parties. At that time, I had no idea that accepting this offer would lead me years later to be sitting in my office in Florence writing the acknowledgments for a book that has emerged out of the same research project. Frankly, I also had no idea of the countless hours that I would spend selecting, coding, and recoding newspaper articles for many years to come.

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A few weeks ago, I opened a Chinese fortune cookie that said, "People will be listening to what you have to say." I genuinely hope that people will find what I have to say worth listening to.

Notes

Introduction

1. The label *new* overemphasizes certain features of these movements as compared to *old* social movements (e.g., individual motivations, organizational structure, and action repertoires). For example, Tarrow (1989) argues that many authors who emphasize the "newness" of the movements interpret an early phase of movement development as a new historical stage of collective action. Furthermore, Calhoun (1993) shows that many of the "new" features could also be observed for movements of the early nineteenth century. I adhere to this label, because it remains widely used to designate the specific type of movement family that was responsible for a new protest wave in Western Europe during the late 1970s and early 1980s.

2. Therefore, Eastern and Southern European countries have not been selected. Most of these countries democratized shortly before or during the research period. Italy is not covered by the study because of the political "upheaval" during the 1990s (on Italian protest politics during that period, see Forno 2003).

3. Similarly, Kitschelt (2007) distinguishes between grid (i.e., preferences over the density of obligatory rules in a group) and group issues (i.e., preferences over the boundaries between the in-group and the out-group). As Rucht and Roth (2008, 637) state, a general label for the thematic diversity represented by the new social movements was found only in the 1990s. However, they prefer to speak of the "democratization of liberal democracies" or the "democratization of all spheres of life" as the common message put forward by all these left-libertarian actors.

4. Due to its heterogeneity, scholars struggle to define the movement, and it is not easy to assign specific events to this category. I have opted for a rather restrictive reading, including under global justice only those events that criticized neoliberal

globalization or directly targeted an international organization or conference. Note that an event is coded by its main goal rather than by its global framing, i.e., "the use of external symbols to orient local or national claims" (Tarrow 2005, 60). For example, protests surrounding World Trade Organization, G8, or World Economic Forum meetings were coded as global justice, but antiwar demonstrations in 2003 were not. Though organizations and networks belonging to the global justice movement mobilized for the latter, as single events they mainly put forward classic international peace issues.

1. Globalization and the Integration–Demarcation Cleavage

1. Migration is a process that has been part of human history since its earliest times. But as Castles and Miller (1998, 1) state, it is the "global scope, [the] centrality to domestic and international politics and [the] enormous economic and social consequences" of migrations that are characteristic of the contemporary period.

2. There is yet a third group within the new middle class that is characterized by a more technical work setting (the technical specialists). In general, the three groups are better characterized as having different class locations than constituting different social classes (Oesch 2006a, b). The main distinction is that the concept of social class not only describes a social-structural group but also implies a shared collective identity and a common organization.

3. The term *populist radical right* proposed by Mudde (2007) is used throughout this book. He argues that the proliferation of different terms for these new challengers is "not the result of fundamental differences of opinion over correct definition; rather, it is largely the consequence of a lack of clear definitions" (Mudde 2007, 12).

4. Scheve and Slaughter (2001, 290) deny this division for the United States by referring to individual mobility between sectors. They suggest that general "human capital" is the primary factor that creates losers and winners from the opening-up of economic borders. According to this argument, the highly educated are better able to cope and profit from this new competitive environment. For Switzerland, Walter (2010) points to the interaction between exposure to globalization and individual factor endowments (operationalized as education). Thus, Walter (2010, 422) concludes that studies "relying only on measures of globalization exposure or only on factor endowments, rather than their combination, are likely to underestimate the impact of globalization by averaging out its differential effects on globalization winners and losers."

5. Against the realistic conflict theory, Sniderman and Hagendoorn (2007, 79) argue that there is "no one-to-one correspondence between people's objective circumstances and their perceptions of their circumstances. Some perceive the competitive threat; others similarly situated do not. It follows that it is not the reality of competition that counts." The integration–demarcation argument presented here does not

deny this objection. However, its proponents argue that the processes leading individuals to perceive these conflicts is part of the "organizational" element of a cleavage, collective political actors are to a certain extent restricted by these circumstances, and people in certain circumstances are more likely to follow certain cues provided by collective political actors.

6. See Jowell and Central Co-ordinating Team (2003, 2005, 2007). The data have been obtained from the Norwegian Social Science Data Services (http://ess.nsd.uib.no/). Only questions that are covered in all three first rounds of the ESS are used, and the analysis is restricted to entitled voters, in order to get closer to the native population's reaction to globalization processes. The following items are used to operationalize issue positions: *welfare:* "Government should reduce income levels" (five answer categories); *environment:* "Is a person very much like or not like you if s/he thinks that it is important to care for nature and environment" (six answer categories); *cultural liberalism:* "Do you agree that gays and lesbians should be free to live life as they wish" (five answer categories); *European integration:* "Trust in the European parliament" (ten answer categories); *immigration:* "Allow few immigrants from different race/ethnic background from majority" (four answer categories), immigration bad for country's economy, "country's cultural life undermined by immigrants," and "immigrants make country worse place to live" (each ten answer categories).

7. The social-structural variables are operationalized as follows: *social class:* Farmers, self-employed, unskilled workers, skilled workers, routine non-manual workers in white-collar occupations, managers, technical experts, social-cultural specialists, unemployed, students, retired, and housewife/househusband (see Kriesi 1989a, 1998; Müller 1999, 2000; Oesch 2006a, b); e*ducational level:* Three levels are distinguished (low, middle, and high). The lowest category includes citizens who did not go beyond compulsory schooling, while the highest corresponds to the tertiary level of education; *level of religiosity:* This is measured by the frequency of attending religious services, which is in some way the modern structural base of the traditional church/state cleavage. For example, Esmer and Petterson (2007) state that "the term religious cleavage should also consider the potential differences between the devoted and the secular." They report empirical evidence that degree of religiosity explains more of the variance in voting behavior than the specific religious denomination. At the same time, they point to the limits of this indicator, since it (a) better measures the religiosity of certain denominations (for example, Catholicism) and (b) can also be interpreted as social rather than religious commitment.

8. The results are available from the author.

2. Protest Politics, Electoral Politics, and the Political Process Approach

1. SMOs also rely, of course, on a wide array of other, more institutionalized action forms. The specific "mix" of different action forms depends, for example, on the level

addressed, as recent research on SMOs and European integration has forcefully demonstrated (e.g., Balme and Chabanet 2008).

2. Rucht (2004, 201) distinguishes between alliance and conflict systems and other reference groups (e.g., bystander publics, third parties, and mediators). He urges researchers to move beyond an over-crude difference between allies and adversaries. At the same time, Rucht also acknowledges the "overwhelming" difficulties and complexities for empirical research if one wants to include all the different groups in a single research design.

3. Although Meyer and Minkoff's (2004) idea may be far from a well-developed micro-macro model, it seems the most promising to use with the data at hand. For example, Opp's (2009) structural-cognitive model provides a good alternative for a rather simple understanding of rational choice models in the political process literature. But note that he provides no alternative way of empirically testing his model than by relying on very sophisticated microdata.

4. The following quantitative studies include measures of electoral strength (see, e.g., Giugni 2004; Jenkins, Jacobs, and Agnone 2003; Koopmans and Olzak 2004; Meyer and Minkoff 2004; Minkoff 1997; Olzak and Uhrig 2001; Snow et al. 2005; van Dyke 2003; van Dyke and Soule 2002) and/or government participation (see, e.g., Jenkins, Jacobs, and Agnone 2003; Koopmans and Olzak 2004; Kriesi et al. 1995; Meyer and Minkoff 2004; Minkoff 1997; Soule et al. 1999; van Dyke 2003). Thus, most analyses focus on allies and not on adversaries. Other recent studies also do not explain the ebbs and flows of protest activity and how they are related to more institutionalized political arenas, but rather focus on the different impact of protest under more or less favorable opportunities (e.g., King, Bentele, and Soule 2007).

5. Note that Piven and Cloward (1977) stress that such a negative correlation is most likely with respect to the early phases of protest mobilization. They state, "But when people are thus encouraged in spirit without being appeased in fact, their defiance may escape the boundaries of electoral rituals, and escape the boundaries established by the political norms of the electoral-representative system in general."

6. Van der Meer et al. (2009) use data from the Comparative Studies of Electoral Systems (CSES) covering election surveys from 2001 until 2006. Their findings are supported by research relying on the International Social Survey Program (ISSP) (Anderson and Mendes 2006) and on the data set from the project "Citizenship, Democracy, and Involvement" (CID) (Teorell, Sum, and Tobiasen 2007).

3. The Context Faced by Challengers

1. Critics have argued, among other things, that there is still no consensual list of elements subsumed under the label "political opportunity structures," that the perception of these opportunities has been neglected, and that emphasizing the relationship of social movements and their political context tends to reduce movement

activities to their instrumental side (for a summary, see della Porta and Diani 2006, 193ff.).

2. Admittedly, the distinction is very rough, and the strength of a state differs not only across policy fields but also over time (e.g., Atkinson and Coleman 1989; Baumgartner and Jones 1993).

3. Fundamental changes in this general institutional setting are very unlikely, as political systems tend to be fairly stable over time. However, institutions are not immobile and have changed during the research period. Some major examples are the spread of direct democracy, the empowerment of regional governments, and the rise of new political parties. Although this should be kept in mind, the changes have not (yet) fundamentally changed the rank order of the six core cases. This is confirmed when comparing Vatter's (2009) updated values with Lijphart's (1999) original indices. The only exception concerns the constitutional federalism scale. On this scale, the United Kingdom and France have changed places when comparing the period 1971 to 1996 with the period 1997 to 2006.

4. This is also what empirical studies suggest, showing that the degree of cooperation and conflict differs not only cross-nationally but also over time and across policy fields (e.g., Diani and van der Heijden 1994, 370; Kriesi et al. 2006a, 351).

5. Following Keman and Krouwel (2006, 28), the salience of traditional left-right issues is summed up and weighted by vote share, and the following party manifesto categories are used: per201, per202, per303, per401, per402, per404, per412, per413, per504, and per505.

6. The following party manifesto categories are summed up and weighted by vote share: per103, per104, per105, per106, per107, per109, per603, and per604.

7. Other organizations are closely related to the right-populist round. A good example is the organization for an independent and neutral Switzerland (AUNS) that was cofounded by leading SVP (Swiss People's Party) politicians. In a similar vein, the Belgian Vlaams Blok founded various single-issue front organizations. Unfortunately, no comparative survey includes questions on membership in these organizations.

4. A New Protest Wave in the Age of Globalization?

1. The present data tend to underestimate the number of participants in Austria (for details, see Appendix A). Even when taking this into account, Austria still belongs to the group of countries in which the number of protestors is comparatively low.

2. The most influential data are from Imig and Tarrow (2001b). Based on a half-automated coding of Reuters headlines, they trace the development of European Union–related protest activities from 1984 until 1997. Around 5 percent of all events (490 out of 9,872 events) fulfill their rather conservative criteria. The authors observe a small increase in the number of EU-related protest events, although the increase mainly took place during the last year studied. Because of its source (a news agency), research strategy

(automated coding), and the coding of single events, Imig and Tarrow's data set is not uncontested (Rucht 2002). Similar issues can be raised concerning the EPCD data used by Reising (1998, 1999). The strategy of della Porta and Caina (2007, 2009) is more innovative and includes all forms of claim-making by SMOs, but in the end it lacks a sufficient number of protest events to say much about conflicts in the protest arena.

3. This is only a very crude measure, because most problems or goals can result from internationalization processes (e.g., protests against welfare state reforms). However, I code as transnational only those that are most explicitly linked to a transnational problem constellation. For example, I code all immigration issues dealing with the entry of foreigners into a country (e.g., claims to restrict the number of foreigners) as transnational, whereas questions of how to deal with foreigners living in a given country (e.g., integration policy) are coded as national.

4. The original typology has often been used to analyze protests or claims dealing with a transnational (or European) issue only. This results in a slightly different typology (della Porta and Caiani 2007, 2009; Imig and Tarrow 2001b).

5. Issue Divides in the Protest Arena: The Big Picture

1. This is supported by the Prodat data for Germany (see Appendix A). In Prodat, only 23 out of 13,201 protest events focused on European integration from 1950 until 1997. Twelve of these events have taken place since 1975 (own calculation; see also Rucht 2000, 2002).

2. Some of the "founding events (or at least symbolic reference) for the emerging protest" (della Porta 2007c, 13) on global justice are not coded as such. Most of these are categorized as dealing with solidarity (external). Important examples were the protests against the International Monetary Fund and the World Bank in Berlin in 1988. In a detailed study, Gerhards and Rucht (1992) show that the central frame of these protests was "imperialism," and thus it seems fair to classify the protests as mainly dealing with solidarity with less developed countries (see also the Prodat coding).

6. Issue Divides in the Protest Arena: The Comparative Picture

1. Note that most of the authors cited focus on new social movement issues, thus combining protests over cultural liberalism and over environmental protection (including anti–nuclear energy). However, one can still observe the two groups of countries when including environmental protests (results not shown; see Appendix B).

2. Appleton (1999) argues that this second wave focused on AIDS, antiracism, and social solidarity. However, for the present argument, it is significant to note that the rise of the latter two issues indicates not the belated emergence of the left-libertarian round but rather the emergence of a right-populist round.

3. For this purpose, I calculate the positions per country and decade. In general, the positions do not differ much and are mostly pro–cultural liberalism. The averages

are almost identical for events and for participants: 0.88 (standard deviation of 0.11) and 0.89 (0.19). The only other major deviation since the 1970s is the average position based on participants in France in the 1990s. During those years, large demonstrations took place in Paris against homosexuals' rights—more precisely against the 1999 PACS laws *(Pacte civil de solidarité)*.

4. Note that the issue only attracted a lot of participants in Germany during the 1990s. In the early 2000s, there are not only fewer events reported, but the average number of participants per event declined as well. The number of events per year is eighty-nine in the period 1990 to 1999 and sixty-two in the period 2000 to 20005. The average number of participants at a demonstrative event dropped from 6,600 (1990–99) to 1,450 (2000–2005).

5. Based on events, the average positions are 0.18 for Britain, 0.24 for Germany, 0.48 for the Netherlands, 0.50 for Austria, 0.54 for France, and 0.60 for Switzerland. Based on participants, the average positions are 0.54 for Britain and Germany, 0.89 for France, 0.92 for Austria, 0.94 for Switzerland, and 0.96 for the Netherlands (for Germany, see Rucht and Heitmeyer 2008, 589).

6. The information on counter-events is available for France, Great Britain, and the Netherlands (1990–2005); Austria (1975–93); and Germany (1990–96). This variable has not been coded for Switzerland.

7. Different Logics at Work?

1. I differentiate between left-wing (Social Democratic, Green, small left, and communist parties) and right-wing parties (Conservative, Liberal, Christian Democratic, and populist radical right parties). I also run models including the vote shares of moderate and radical allies, but the results do not significantly differ from the results reported.

2. Cabinet composition (Schmidt-Index): (1) hegemony of right-wing (and center) parties (government share of left-wing parties = 0), (2) dominance of right-wing (and center) parties (< 33.3), (3) balance of power between left and right (> 33.3 and < 66.6), (4) dominance of social-democratic and other left-wing parties (> 66.6), and (5) hegemony of social-democratic and other left-wing parties (= 100) (Armingeon et al. 2008).

3. I cross-check the results by calculating the *ratio* of opposing issue positions, as suggested by Koopmans and Rucht (1995). This measure accounts for the fact that the salience of an issue position relative to all issues might not be most crucial, but only its salience relative to its opposing side. However, the results do not significantly differ.

4. In Great Britain, the right is more present in the protest arena than the left, because around 50 percent of all party-sponsored events are supported by the radical right, mainly because of protest activities of the National Front in the 1970s and the British National Party more recently.

5. The average vote share is 6.1 percent for the radical left (SD = 6.1), 33.0 for the moderate left (SD = 8.3), 47.5 for the moderate right, and 6.6 for the radical right (SD = 8.0) (N = 24) (Armingeon et al. 2008).

6. I run several multivariate regressions with salience as dependent variable; the results generally support what is shown in the graphs (results available from the author).

7. As shown in chapter 4, immigration in the protest arena mainly refers to issues related to xenophobia and racism, while in the electoral arena a broader set of issues pertaining to integration and immigration policies is debated.

Conclusion

1. More specifically, I have argued that issues of economic globalization and European integration are far more often handled beyond the national level and follow a logic of highly visible but infrequent international events staged by established political actors. Although these events are windows of opportunity for highly publicized protest events, the scope of such events is far more restricted and short lived than the more continuous localized struggles over migration-related issues. In addition, I have shown here that conflicts over immigration are very much driven by mobilization/counter-mobilization dynamics in the protest arena.

2. For a replication based on the six countries covered by this book, see Hutter (2010).

Appendix A

1. More conventional forms (for example, litigation and internal meetings of SMOs) and strikes are not covered. I regard strikes as the main action form of industrial conflicts and not part of what has been defined as the protest arena in chapter 2. This decision is far from uncontested, and some scholars include strikes in their data collection (for example, Rucht et al. 1992).

2. Police archives are the most obvious alternatives (see Fillieule 1996, 1997; Hocke 1998, 2002; McCarthy et al. 1996c; Wisler 1994; Wisler et al. 1996). Although police archives have certain advantages over newspapers, they are also biased, less comparable (even within a single country), and often contain far less information on the specific issue at hand (which is most important for our purposes here). Furthermore, I agree with Myers and Schaefer Caniglia (2004, 522), who state, "The police data strategy used in recent studies is not much help because it is workable only on a local level. For a national or international study, it would be impossible to locate comparable police records for the hundreds of locations involved."

3. Some pessimists tend to forget that answering the "How bad?" question depends very much on the research question and aggregation levels of key variables (for example, Fillieule 2007; Ortiz et al. 2005). As Earl et al. (2004, 96) argue, in a historical perspective, it is "rather ironic that researchers are so concerned with selection

bias." Many earlier designs were not based on systematic quantitative research or sampled on the dependent variable. Thus, discussion of the selection bias of newspaper data should focus on relative improvements over prior research strategies.

4. Soule et al. (1999) introduce a new approach to cope with the problem of issue attention cycles. They include additional measures of the general salience of an issue in the media. This is, however, not feasible for the present book.

5. Although some projects code conventional activities, others do not. Although some projects create a new observation whenever an event takes longer than twenty-four hours, others report the duration of an event (for example, a hunger strike). Furthermore, issues and other main variables had to be recoded at the lowest aggregation levels or sometimes even at the level of single observations. The do-files are available from the author.

6. The size of an event, however, is not significant (Table 13). This stands in stark contrast to the findings of Barranco and Wisler (1999), who find that size significantly increases the likelihood of an event taking place on the weekend. However, the authors analyze public demonstrations only. If I restrict the Prodat sample to demonstrations and marches, the effect of size does become significant (results not shown).

7. Fillieule (1996) based his own analysis on very few protests covered by *Le Monde* ($N = 30$).

8. It is certainly true that regional bias distorts regional comparisons within a given country (see Barranco and Wisler 1999; Strawn 2008).

9. Koopmans (1995a, 1998) proposes a very simple test. Koopmans (1995a, 257) argues, "If newspapers are equally sensitive to protest events, there should be no difference in the likelihood of events of the same intensity being reported." Legal and nonviolent demonstrations, he argues, are good cases to test the assumption because the intensity of these events is mainly a function of size (that is, of the number of participants). If the different newspapers are equally selective, events with the same number of participants should be as likely to be covered in all six countries. Although we do not know those demonstrations or public assemblies that are not covered by the newspapers, we can test selectivity by looking at average participation rates. Koopmans (1995a, 1998) suggests that we look at the mode and the median. I have performed this test based on the whole research period (1975 to 2005). Overall, the results support Koopmans's conclusion that all newspapers are equally selective (results not shown).

10. The source listed for each event is the *first* encountered that reports the event. Another major difference with the present data relates to the delineation of events. The EPCD project uses a twenty-four-hour rule, coding a new event for every action that takes longer than twenty-four hours. For example, a hunger strike of thirty days is included thirty times in the data set. This is not a problem as such, but recoding the events using the present data set is difficult, because one needs to return to the event description (often not very helpful) to identify the same event taking place over an extended period of time.

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Index

action form. *See* repertoires of action
actors' configuration, xxi–xxii, 32–34
adversaries, 10, 19, 32–33, 35, 40, 111, 139, 176. *See also* actors' configuration
allies, 29–30, 32–37, 46, 53, 120–23, 131, 138, 176, 179. *See also* actors' configuration
Anti-Nazi League (UK), 113–14
anti-nuclear protests, 30, 162, 167, 178
antiracism, xx, 9, 95, 113, 130, 134, 167, 178, 180. *See also* immigration
arena: administrative arena, 45–46, 48; definition, 26; direct-democratic arena, 45–46, 48, 139; parliamentary arena, xviii, 28, 35, 38, 45–46, 48, 123, 125, 175. *See also* electoral arena; protest arena
asylum seekers, 7, 94, 112
Austria, xvi, 18, 22, 47–51, 54, 56; mobilization level, 67, 71; protest issues, 102, 104, 107, 110, 114, 169–70

Bartolini, Stefano, ix, xi, xx, 50–53
Beck, Ulrich, xv–xvi, 10, 139, 144
bias. *See* selection bias
Bild, xviii
Blick, xviii
Blocher, Christoph, 40. *See also* Swiss People's Party (SVP)
Bornschier, Simon xi, 9–10, 14–15, 133, 135–37
Britain, xvi, 18, 22, 47–51, 54, 56; mobilization level, 67, 71; protest issues, 102, 104, 107, 110, 113–14, 169–70 (table)
British National Party (BNP), 114, 179

Campaign for Nuclear Disarmament, 103
challengers from the left, xiii, xxv, 26, 38, 42, 118–19, 121–22, 136, 138
challengers from the right, xxiv–xxv, 26, 38, 42, 81, 94, 101, 111, 118–19, 121–22, 136, 138
Christian Democrats, 19, 94, 124, 179. *See also* moderate right

civil rights, xx, 30, 88, 129, 148, 167
class. *See* social class
cleavage: closure, 52; definition, xi; empirical element, xi, 10–13, 17–21; integration–demarcation (*see* integration–demarcation cleavage); new class, xii, xix, 8, 17, 19–20, 76, 85, 97, 115, 133, 135; normative element, xi, 13–16, 133; old class, 20, 52–55, 100; organizational element, xi, xvii, 21–23, 133; religious, ii, 7, 9, 19–20, 49, 135, 175; salience, 52
closure, 52
collective identity, xi, xiii, 7, 9, 12–15, 31–32, 38–39, 52, 68, 81, 133, 174
Communists/Left Socialists, xxv, 19, 22, 123–26, 129–30, 144, 179–80. *See also* radical left
comparisons. *See* differences
competition, party, xviii, 3, 15–16, 21–23, 141; winners and losers of globalization, x, xiii, 10–13, 92–95
configuration of actors. *See* actors' configuration
configuration of power, 34, 117, 120–21, 131, 138
congruence thesis, xxiii, 26, 35–37, 42, 100, 116–17, 121, 131. *See also* relationship between protest arena and electoral arena
content analysis, xvii–xviii, 147, 149
core sentence analysis. *See* content analysis
corporatism, 46–48
counter-mobilization, 33, 88, 111–15, 141
counterweight thesis, xxiii, 26, 35–37, 42, 81, 99–100, 108, 116–17. *See also* relationship between protest arena and electoral arena
country selection, xvi
cultural issues: categorization, xx; positions, 88–89, 101–3, 117–23, 127–29; salience, 39, 81–85, 92–93, 101–3, 117–23, 127–29, 133, 146–47. *See also* cultural liberalism; European integration; immigration
cultural liberalism: categorization, xix–xxi; embedding in political space, xiv, 15–17,18, 22, 130; positions, 88–92, 94–95, 105–6, 127–29, 142; salience, 84–90, 92–94, 103–5, 127–29, 142

decentralization, 11, 45, 50
della Porta, Donatella, xx–xxi, xxiii, 32, 57, 63–65, 74–76, 87, 97–99, 111, 143–44
demand and supply. *See* electoral arena
demarcation. *See* integration–demarcation cleavage
democracy: challenge to, xii–xiii; consensus, 49, 51; direct, 45–46, 48, 139; majoritarian, 49, 51; representative, 36, 40, 138
demonstration. *See* repertoires of action
Die Presse, xvii–xviii, 150, 160, 163–64
differences: cross-arena, xiv–xv, 92–95, 116–31, 137–39, 143–45; cross-national, xv–xvii, 30, 64–68, 71, 97–115, 139–43
different logics thesis, xv, xxiii–xxv, 26, 35–36, 38–39, 42, 106, 116–21, 123–31, 138–39, 179. *See also* relationship between protest arena and electoral arena
dimensions of political spaces, xiv, 18, 22, 130
direct democracy. *See* democracy

economic issues: categorization, xx; positions 88–89, 101–3, 117–23, 127–29; salience, 39, 81–85, 92–93, 101–3, 117–23, 127–29, 133, 146–47. *See also* global justice
education, xii, xx, 10–13, 17, 19–20, 88, 129, 135–36, 167, 174–75
election campaign, xxiii, 3, 21, 23
electoral arena: conceptualization, 26–29; demand side, 20; measurement, xviii–xix (*see also* core-sentence analysis); supply side, 21–23; turnout, 64–65. *See also* arena; differences; relationship between protest arena and electoral arena
electoral system, 46
elite: prevailing strategies of, xxiii, 32, 38, 44–45, 47, 49–51, 58, 66, 78, 140
environment, xx–xxi, 55–56, 88, 154, 161–62, 178
ethnic diversity, xiii, 11–12
European integration: categorization, xix–xxi; embedding in political space, xiv, 15–17, 18, 22, 130; as a form of political globalization, 4, 12–13; positions, 88–92, 94–95, 105–6, 127–29, 142; salience, 55, 84–90, 92–94, 106–10, 133–34
Europeanization, 72, 75
European Social Survey, 17–21, 65
extreme right. *See* radical right

farmers, xxi, 139, 148, 158, 175
formal institutional setting. *See* political opportunity structures
FPÖ. *See* Freedom Party of Austria, The
framing, 52, 137, 174
France, xvi, 18, 22, 47–51, 54, 56; mobilization level, 67, 71; protest issues, 102, 104, 107, 110, 114, 169–70
Frankfurter Rundschau, xvii, 150, 155–58, 160–61
Freedom Party of Austria, The (FPÖ), 114, 124
Front National (F), 40, 114

gay movement. *See* homosexuals
G8: protest against, 76, 87, 109, 174
Germany, xvi, 18, 22, 47–51, 54, 56; mobilization level, 67, 71; protest issues, 102, 104, 107, 110, 112–13, 169–70
globalization: cultural, xxiv, 4, 6–7, 80–81, 84, 91, 100; definition, 4–7; economic, 6–7, 11, 17, 80–81, 87, 136–37, 180; measurement, 4–7; political, xxii, 4, 6–7, 12, 21, 72, 79
global justice: categorization, xix–xxi; embedding in political space, xiv, 15–17, 18, 22, 130; positions, 88–92, 94–95, 105–6, 127–129, 142; salience, 55, 84–90, 92–94, 106–10, 133–34
Grande, Edgar, xvi, 12, 77–78, 139–40
Great Britain. *See* Britain
Green parties (Greens), 19–20, 22, 55
grievances. *See also* winners and losers of globalization
Guardian, The, xvii, 150–51, 160

Haider, Jörg, 40, 114. *See also* Freedom Party of Austria, The
Hesse, 160–61
homosexuals, xx, 15, 86, 127, 167, 179
human rights, 55–56, 81

identities. *See* collective identity
Ignazi, Pietro, 9–10, 135
immigration: categorization, xix–xxi; embedding in political space, xiv, 15–17, 18, 22, 130; positions, 88–92, 94–95, 105–6, 111–15, 127–29, 142; salience, 84–90, 92–94, 106–10, 129, 142
industrial relations, 7, 180. *See also* strikes
Inglehart, Ronald, x, xii, 8, 41
institutional setting, xxiii, 32, 45, 47, 50, 59, 140, 177
integration–demarcation cleavage, x–xvi, 3–17, 19, 21–25, 133–37
interaction context, 32
issues: attitudes, 12–13, 17, 19, 42, 136, 139; categorization, vii, 167; divide, xi

Kitschelt, Herbert, xii, xiv, 8–9, 28–30, 39, 45–46, 97–98, 128, 137, 143–44
Koopmans, Ruud, 14, 31, 35, 38–39, 44–47, 133–34, 143
Kriesi, Hanspeter, x, xiii, 10–16, 30–31, 44–47, 77–78, 135–37

left-libertarian round, xii, 8–9, 135–37
left's participation in government. *See* configuration of power
left-wing parties. *See* moderate left; radical left
Le Monde, xvii–xviii, 150, 159–60, 181
Le Pen, Jean-Marie, 40, 114
Lijphart, Arendt, 46, 48, 177
logic of, numbers, 153; damage, 153; different logics, xv, xxiii–xxv, 35–39, 42, 106, 116–31, 138–39

managers, xii, 8, 10, 19–20, 175
mass media, 27, 29, 35. *See* newspaper data
McAdam, Doug, x, 30–32, 35, 37, 143–44, 148
middle class, xii, 8, 17, 19, 135, 174
Minkenberg, Michael, 9–10, 38, 40, 127, 135, 139–41
minorities, 13, 46
mobilization level, 64–68
moderate left, 19, 21–22, 124–26, 128, 130, 180
moderate right, 19, 21–23, 124–30, 180
Monday editions, xvii, 147–48, 150–51, 156–57, 159, 165
most similar systems design, xvi
Mudde, Cas, ix, xiii, 9, 40, 139, 174
multivariate analyses, 17, 19, 76–77, 112, 119, 121–22, 125–26, 157–58, 180

National Front (UK), 113, 179
national identity, xiii, 9, 13, 81
Netherlands, xvi, 18, 22, 47–51, 54, 56; mobilization level, 67, 71; protest issues, 102, 104, 107, 110, 169–70
Neue Zürcher Zeitung, xvii–xviii, 40, 150, 160
new cleavages. *See* cleavage; integration–demarcation cleavage
new left, xii, 9, 41, 53, 97, 124
new social movements, xii, xvii, 8–9, 41, 81, 105, 116, 135–36, 143, 147, 159, 164, 173
newspaper data, xvii–xviii, 147–65
normalization, 84. *See* social movement
Northern Ireland, 47–48, 164

NPD, 113
NRC/Handelsblad, xvii–xviii, 150, 160

Offe, Claus, x, 38–39
operationalization of, cleavage strength: issue salience, 80; mobilization level, 66; state strength, 52–56
opportunity structures, xxi–xxii, 30–32, 44–45, 141, 176

party. *See* political party
peace, xx, 31, 51, 55–56, 73, 86, 91, 105, 133, 167, 174
petition, 94. *See also* repertoires of action
polarization, 49, 83, 88, 92, 105, 109–11, 141–42
political opportunity structures, xxi–xxii, 30–32, 44–45, 141, 176
political party: manifesto, xvii–xviii, 35, 53–55, 119–20, 177; moderate left, 19, 21–22, 124–26, 128, 130, 180; moderate right, 19, 21–23, 124–30, 180; radical left, xxv, 19, 22, 123–26, 129–30, 144, 180; radical right, ix–x, xii–xiii, xv, xxv, 8–9, 15, 19–23, 55–56, 94, 96, 99, 106, 108, 110–16, 124–29; unity, 46, 48
political potential, xxi–xxii, 3–4
political process, xxii, 29–34
populism, xiii
populist radical right. *See* radical right
POS. *See* political opportunity structures
Prodat, 155–59, 161–62, 172, 178, 181
protest arena: conceptualization, 26–29; measurement, xvii, 148–52 (*see also* content analysis; protest event analysis). *See also* arena; relationship between protest arena and electoral arena
protest event analysis, xvii, xix, 65, 147–50, 152–54, 164
protest wave, vii, 28, 63–78, 103, 105, 134, 148, 173, 177

racism, xx, 9, 95, 113, 130, 134, 167, 178, 180. *See also* immigration
radical left, xxv, 19, 22, 123–26, 129–30, 144, 180
radical right, ix–x, xii–xiii, xv, xxv, 8–9, 15, 19–23, 55–56, 94, 96, 99, 106, 108, 110–16, 124–29
regional bias, 148, 160–61, 165, 181
relationship between protest arena and electoral arena, xv, 35–42, 137–39, 143–45
religious cleavage, ii, 7, 9, 19–20, 49, 135, 175
repertoires of action, 27, 39, 45, 65–68, 139–40, 144, 149–50
representative democracy, 36, 40, 138
resources, 14, 27–28, 38, 46, 52–53
reverse new politics, xxiii, 3, 9–10, 14–16, 23, 56, 69, 71, 99, 135
revitalization, 58, 69, 71, 99–100, 106, 108, 111, 141
right-populist round, xii–xv, 9–16, 135–37
right-wing parties. *See* moderate right; radical right
Rokkan, Stein, ix–x, 3, 7, 52, 141
Rucht, Dieter, xx, 35

sampling, xviii, 92, 149, 157, 160
Seattle: battle of, 72, 90
selection bias, vii, xviii, 83, 92, 147–49, 152–54, 157, 159, 165, 181; absolute selection bias, 152, 165; regional bias, 148, 160–61, 165, 181; relative selection bias, 152, 154, 157

social class, 8, 10, 13, 19, 35, 174–75
social-cultural specialists, 8, 19, 135, 175
social democrats, 19, 124
social movement, xvii. *See also* issues
SOS racism, 114
squatters movement, xx, 167
state: centralization, 11,45, 50; prevailing strategy, xxiii, 32, 38, 44–45, 47, 49–51, 58, 66, 78, 140; strength, 45, 47–48, 50–51, 58–59, 65–66, 78, 140
strikes, 54
structure: political opportunity, xxi–xxii, 30–32, 44–45, 141, 176; of the political space, xiv, 18, 22, 130
supply and demand. *See* electoral arena
survey data. *See* European Social Survey
Swiss People's Party (SVP), 40, 114, 124, 139, 177
Switzerland, xvi, 18, 22, 47–51, 54, 56; mobilization level, 67, 71; protest issues, 102, 104, 107, 110, 114, 169–70

Tarrow, Sidney, x, xxiii, 3, 30, 35–37, 63–64, 68, 72–76, 143–45, 148–49
theoretical framework, xxii, 3–43
threats, 11–13. *See also* adversaries
Tilly, Charles, xv, xvii, 5, 27, 30, 32, 144, 148–49
Times, The, xviii
transnationalization, x–xi, xxii, xxiv, 63–64, 72–78, 115, 140; domestication, 75; transnational collective action, 74–76, 78, 139
turnout, 65

unions, 39, 53, 144, 157–58
United Kingdom. *See* Britain

values, 40–42
voting behavior, 19, 22–23

welfare, xx–xxi, 11–12, 17–18, 21–22, 77, 83–84, 86–88, 103, 129–30
winners and losers of globalization, x, xiii–xiv, 3, 10, 13–14, 17, 19, 23, 25, 81, 128, 135–36, 174
winning formula, 18, 128
World Economic Forum (WEF), 76, 87, 109, 174
World Trade Organization (WTO), 76, 87, 174

xenophobia, 94, 114

zero-sum relationship, 57–59, 100, 106, 111, 141

SWEN HUTTER is a research fellow at the European University Institute in Florence, Italy.

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